



UNGA I -

Disarmament and International Security Committee

Background Guide



Agenda:

**“Reassessing Global Security
Architectures Governing Strategically
Contested Territories Amid Intensifying
Great Power Rivalry.”**

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LETTER FROM THE EXECUTIVE BOARD

Dear Delegates,

We welcome you to the Disarmament and International Security Committee (DISEC) at the Welham Boys' School Model United Nations Conference 2026. The world today faces urgent, deep, and dangerous challenges. Nations are struggling against rising conflict, military buildup, and the breakdown of global peace agreements.

For the time you spend in this committee, you stand at a critical crossroads. The world you step into during this simulation is not the stable, rule-based world of the past. This committee operates under a **Simulated Freeze Date of January 20, 2029**. Over the last few years, international relations have changed drastically. Old alliances have weakened, and nations now form quick, short-term partnerships based purely on self-interest rather than global teamwork.

You will debate the agenda: **"Reassessing Global Security Architectures Governing Strategically Contested Territories Amid Intensifying Great Power Rivalry."** This agenda drops you right into a **"Pax Multipolaris World"**, a world of managed disorder. This does not mean a world of global peace, nor does it mean total world destruction. Instead, it is a world where several powerful groups of nations constantly compete against one another, each trying to limit the other's power. Global power is split among many centers: the United States relies on its military and independent actions; China uses its massive factories and naval strength; Russia disrupts through hidden and digital warfare; and middle-sized countries shift between sides to keep their independence.

In this multipolar chaos, decision-making is the ultimate driving force. Countries can no longer survive by relying on old, slow international organizations, which are now largely frozen and powerless. Survival depends entirely on making fast, sharp decisions regarding key areas: shipping lanes, trade routes, financial networks, and access to natural resources. Today, a single decision made in the Strait of Hormuz can cause global prices to spike within hours. A military clash in the South China Sea can instantly shut down tech manufacturing worldwide. Your decisions are the only thing that can stop a complete global collapse. A nation's actions, whether making quiet deals, setting up regional trade agreements, or controlling vital travel routes, will either protect its power or cost it everything.

The flashpoints before you are large and tightly linked: from the ice-covered Arctic and Greenland to the heavily guarded Nine-Dash Line, from the dangerous shipping lanes of the Strait of Hormuz to the chaotic power vacuum in Venezuela. These small but critical regions control trillions of dollars in trade and over 20% of the world's daily energy supply, making global geography more dangerous than ever.

The Background Guide provided to you is meant to offer direction, not strict rules. It is a starting point for your analysis, helping you understand how national interests have completely transformed up to the year 2029. Interpret this information with creativity and smart thinking. This is a committee where traditional lines between friend and enemy are blurred, where arms control treaties have failed, and where all major nuclear nations are upgrading their weapons at the same time.

As delegates, you are expected to solve these overlapping crises in a way that protects your nation's foreign policy

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while preventing a full-scale war. Your mission is to fix the lack of rules around advanced technologies like hypersonic missiles, artificial intelligence in the military, space weapons, and cyber warfare. You must decide if global security can be rebuilt through teamwork, or if humanity will step over the edge into nuclear conflict.

The world of 2029 is waiting for your decisions. Bring your energy, sharp insights, and leadership to the table.

Warm Regards,

The Executive Board

Disarmament and International Security Committee (DISEC)

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ABOUT THE COMMITTEE

Significance and History

The Disarmament and International Security Committee (DISEC) is the First Committee of the United Nations General Assembly (UNGA). It is one of the main bodies of the United Nations, tasked with dealing with international specialized issues concerning disarmament, de-escalation of conflicts, and threats to global security and peace. Under the regulatory scope of the United Nations Charter, DISEC seeks solutions to military invasions, military revolts and juntas, the failure of arms and weapons control and proliferation treaties, and the breakdown of global peace agreements between major military powers, sovereign states, alliances, and strategic blocs. While its recommendations are non-binding on member states—unlike those of the United Nations Security Council—it holds immense political weight, as it serves as a universal forum where all member nations have an equal vote.

Established at the inception of the United Nations to address the existential threats of the post-WWII atomic era, DISEC held its foundational sessions to establish norms for regulating armaments and conventional weapons. However, its operational capacity has been repeatedly strained by geopolitical deadlocks, mirroring the fractures of the Cold War and the modern fractures among major powers. Despite historical periods of cooperative institutional management, the contemporary security architecture has witnessed severe degradation. Following the collapse of major historical arms frameworks, DISEC has had to drastically pivot its focus. In recent years, the proliferation of conventional weapons and the rapid advancement of unmonitored technologies have vastly expanded its agenda to address systemic instabilities across critical maritime chokepoints, novel contested frontiers like the Arctic Regions, and newly emerging domains of warfare, such as cyber warfare, AI weapons in conflicts and satellite-reliant warfare technologies.

In the current landscape, the committee operates under a critical paradigm shift where traditional structures of global order are transforming into localized, decentralised, and transactional parallel systems. As the global architecture fractures, DISEC remains the primary battleground for contestation over international norms.

Structure of the Committee

The structure of DISEC mirrors the universal composition of the United Nations General Assembly, granting every single member state an equal seat and a single vote. This distinguishes it from mini-lateral alliances or exclusive councils, ensuring broad legitimacy, equal representation, and global accountability. Unlike bodies governed by specific power monopolies or permanent veto systems, DISEC relies on absolute democratic representation where no single power can unilaterally block a procedural or substantive recommendation.

The committee's geopolitical environment is organized around several distinct, competing power clusters and regional groups that represent the fluid alignments of the modern world. These groups are categorized as follows:

- **The Fragmented Western Bloc:** Comprising the United States, European Union member states, and key Atlantic partners such as Mexico and Canada, navigating complex mutual alliance shifts, defense burden-sharing, fragile international trade, and the instability caused by international dependency on one major power..

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- **The Consolidated Non-Western Bloc:** Driven by an expanding BRICS network and regional counter-alignments looking to secure autonomous financial and security spaces, especially for the Global South.
- **The Hedging Middle Powers & Non-Aligned Bloc:** Swing states across the Indo-Pacific, Middle East, and Latin America that shift issue-by-issue to preserve their strategic interests and balance conflicting dependencies.
- **Regional Blocs:** Localized institutional bodies attempting to maintain regional cohesion and centrality amidst overlapping maritime and territorial crises, conflicting alliances, and diverging perspectives on regional security

Decisions on all substantive draft resolutions and documentation require a simple majority vote of the members present and voting to pass. In addition to sovereign member states, DISEC routinely permits recognized observer states, specialized UN agencies, and relevant international legal entities to participate directly in its committee sessions. While these observer entities do not possess voting rights on final resolution texts, they retain full expressive rights to table technical data, contribute to informal consultations, and deliver testimonies that help shape the normative legal boundaries of international security.

Functions and Power of the Committee

Under the framework of the United Nations General Assembly, the specific functions and powers of DISEC are:

- To debate and make recommendations on the general principles of cooperation in the maintenance of international peace and security.
- To formulate realistic cooperative structures for disarmament, arms limitations, and weapons non-proliferation.
- To investigate and address emerging security gaps, including AI integration in military systems, cyber warfare, and anti-satellite (ASAT) weapons deployment.
- To establish definitions and international standards for tracking shadow fleet arms transfers used to evade global embargoes.
- To draft multilateral instruments that regulate lethal autonomous weapons systems (LAWS) and hypersonic military technology.
- To review and reassess the adequacy of existing security architectures governing strategically contested territories.
- To assess the security implications of space militarization and promote measures to prevent an arms race in outer space (PAROS).
- To coordinate with specialized international technical bodies, such as the IAEA, the IMO, and regional organizations, to promote de-escalation and information-sharing in volatile zones.



MANDATE OF THE COMMITTEE

The United Nations Charter vests the primary responsibility for establishing principles governing disarmament and the regulation of armaments in the General Assembly First Committee (DISEC). The committee is mandated to address matters within the scope of the Charter or relating to the powers and functions of any organ of the United Nations.

According to its foundational principles, the committee revolves around core functional purposes:

- To maintain international security by formulating principles for disarmament and weapons regulation.
- To foster peaceful state behavior and prevent great power friction from escalating into full-scale system collapse.
- To cooperate in developing rules for emerging military technologies and filling legal governance vacuums.
- To serve as a universal center for harmonizing the actions of nations regarding global security threats.

Unlike the UN Security Council, DISEC does not possess the authority to authorize military action or mandate binding economic sanctions. All members of the United Nations participate in DISEC as equal stakeholders, and its outcomes are passed as resolutions that offer strong normative frameworks and recommendations to the General Assembly and the international community.

When a systemic threat or a territorial flashpoint is brought before it, DISEC's mandate dictates that it address the underlying drivers of structural insecurity. The committee may:

- Set forth multilateral principles for arms control and non-proliferation agreements.
- Propose tracking and verification mechanisms for Small Arms and Light Weapons (SALWs).
- Draft normative guidelines to regulate state behavior in areas governed by serious legal vacuums.
- Request member states to align their national policies with international law frameworks, such as UNCLOS or outer space treaties.

A chief concern of the committee is to address the active frontiers of weapons competition while ensuring that regional stability, strategic autonomy, and the sovereign rights of smaller and medium-sized states are protected under international law.

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ACCEPTED SOURCES WITHIN THE COMMITTEE

Delegates are expected to rely upon credible, verifiable, and internationally recognized sources when conducting research and preparing committee documents. The committee strongly encourages the use of primary sources such as official state reports, documents and publications, United Nations reports and legal documentation, and citations from established international bodies such as the International Court of Justice. The use of Artificial Intelligence in position papers, resolutions, and other committee paperwork is prohibited and may result in significant penalties at the discretion of the Executive Board.

Accepted Sources:-

- Documentation such as reports, treaties, international agreements, legal documents, resolutions, statistical documents, and verbatim from internationally recognised institutions or bodies affiliated with the UN such as **ECOSOC, United Nations General Assembly, United Nations Security Council, IMF, WHO, World Bank** and the **ICJ** may be cited in committee as evidence towards the establishment of facts, events and precedent.
- **United Nations Convention on the Law of the Sea (UNCLOS), the UN Charter, United Nations Treaty Collection Documents** are also recognised as principal legal frameworks governing maritime and territorial boundaries within committee proceedings.
- **Stockholm International Peace Research Institute (SIPRI)** reports and documents specializing in conflict, military expenditure, arms transfers, nuclear weapons, arms control, and disarmament will also be recognised.
- **Reuters** and **UN News** may be used to verify events, statements, developments, and factual reporting relevant to the agenda. However, delegates should note that statements made by individual political leaders or officeholders do not necessarily constitute official state policy unless formally adopted by the state government.
- **State-Operated News Agencies** may be cited to establish or challenge the position of the state that owns and operates them. However, as these outlets may only reflect official state narratives, they cannot establish the occurrence of international events, or factual reporting applying to foreign nations.

Unrecognised Sources:-

Delegates are **discouraged** from relying on sources that lack sufficient editorial oversight, neutrality, or institutional credibility. These include, but are not limited to **Wikipedia; Amnesty International; private politically opinionated media institutions** such as **The Guardian, Times of India, Fox News;** and **state-operated media houses** such as **Xinhua** or the **British Broadcasting Cooperation**. Moreover, personal blogs, unrecognised politically-biased opinion pieces, and **unsourced internet publications** shall also not be considered as authoritative evidence during committee sessions.

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INTRODUCTION TO THE AGENDA

Establishing the “Pax Multipolaris” World

“*Pax Multipolaris*” means managed disorder, not global peace, not chaos, but a constant struggle among several powers to impose limits on each other without triggering full-system collapse. Essentially, power within this world isn’t unipolar, but instead it’s multipolar and decentralised amongst various Alliances and Global Powers contesting to lead the world as they see fit.

The system is multipolar because power is now spread across several centers that can each disrupt the others, but none can fully control the whole order. The U.S. still has the largest military reach, China has industrial and maritime depth, Russia can destabilize regions through war, India can swing between blocs, and Europe can constrain legitimacy through law and alliances. So the world is no longer governed by one stable empire, but by competing power clusters that constantly bargain, pressure, and hedge to secure their strategic interests.

In practical terms, Pax Multipolaris means more tariffs, more sanctions, more regional wars by proxy, more maritime tension, and more legal contestation in the UN, ICJ, and other institutions. It also means more room for middle powers to maneuver, because they can choose issue by issue instead of permanently aligning with one camp. Essentially, “Pax Multipolaris” eliminates the ‘Cold-War Duality of Alliances’ that has existed and troubled conflicting interests for many smaller sovereign states.

Consequently, power is scattered across several centers, not held by one dominant empire. States survive by hedging, balancing, and keeping multiple options open, rather than tying themselves permanently to one bloc or one patron. The goal is not total dominance; it is to preserve autonomy, flexibility, and strategic room to maneuver while the world stays competitive and unstable. The downside is that crises can spread faster because a shock in one theater, like Hormuz, quickly affects shipping, inflation, energy, and alliance politics everywhere.

The Greenland Territorial Conflict shows a prominent example of this. Of how the U.S. still tries to act like a hegemon, but faces immediate pushback from allies such as Denmark and Greenland itself. Venezuela shows the same pattern in the Western Hemisphere: Washington uses military force and oil sanctions, but Congress, the UN, and markets all push back, limiting the President of the United States’ overreach and power brutality.

The Strait of Hormuz Maritime Crisis similarly demonstrates that even when the U.S. tries to police a chokepoint, allied sovereigns such as China and Iran can still force the issue into a wider global energy-security problem by exerting their own autonomy and right to self-defense by invoking **Article 51 of the United Nations Charter**.

In this “Pax Multipolaris World” —where fluid alliances, exiled governments, and backroom treaties are the new “normal”, the only permanent rule is: ***“Retain Thy Power Within Thine Reins.”***



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Strategically Contested Territories And Conflict Zones

“The world appears vast — yet global stability often depends upon surprisingly narrow spaces.”

The Strait of Hormuz is only 33 kilometres wide at its narrowest. The Taiwan Strait is a body of water smaller than the distance between Delhi and Jaipur. Small reefs in the South China Sea appear insignificant on maps. The Arctic remains sparsely populated. Greenland has fewer residents than an average European city. Yet each of these places increasingly occupies disproportionate importance within global calculations — and as of 2025–26, each has become the subject of active great power confrontation.

For many years following the Cold War, globalisation created a belief that geography was becoming less relevant. Information crossed continents in milliseconds. Financial systems became interconnected. Technology appeared capable of reducing the importance of distance. History once again disagreed — forcefully. Ships still move through physical waterways that can be blockaded. Resources remain concentrated beneath specific territories. Military systems require forward positioning and basing rights that only specific geographies provide.

The four central theaters of this background guide — Greenland and the Arctic Regions; Taiwan and the South China Sea; the Strait of Hormuz, Iran and the Middle-East; Venezuela and the South-American Front — appear unrelated on a map. But they share a common paradigm: each is simultaneously a local sovereignty dispute, a theatre of great power proxy competition, a node in the global supply chain for energy or strategic minerals, and a test of whether the rules-based international order established after 1945 can survive the pressure.

The South China Sea is one of the world's most strategically important waterways, carrying over \$3 trillion in annual trade and serving as a major source of regional territorial disputes. The Strait of Malacca and the Bab-el-Mandeb Strait are vital maritime corridors linking Asia, Europe, and the Middle East, making them essential to global energy security and trade. The Strait of Hormuz is a critical global energy chokepoint through which approximately 20% of the world's oil supply passes each day. The Arctic region and strategically located Pacific island chains have become increasingly important for military projection, resource competition, and geopolitical influence. Taiwan produces more than 90% of the world's advanced semiconductors, making it central to global technology and supply-chain security. And that is exactly how smaller, sovereign territories such as Taiwan, Greenland, or Venezuela come to matter- because of the sheer potential of their natural resources, control over key trade routes, and the industrial trade these regions generate.

The concentration of global strategic significance in a handful of narrow straits, remote islands, and sparsely populated territories reflects a deeper truth about the structure of modern interdependence. Globalisation did not make geography irrelevant; it made specific geographic nodes more critical than ever. A single tanker attack in the Strait of Hormuz raises global fuel prices within hours. A Chinese military exercise around Taiwan disrupts semiconductor supply chains that affect every smartphone, every electric vehicle, and every hospital monitor on the planet. These connections are the reason small places suddenly matter enormously.

The question is no longer simply *“Who owns the territory?”* — it is now: *“Who gains leverage over everything connected to that territory?”* Understanding contested territories in 2026 requires delegates to think systemically rather than bilaterally. Each dispute is embedded in a web of economic dependencies, military alliances, legal



frameworks, and domestic political pressures that span continents.

Denmark cannot manage Greenland independently of NATO's support, especially with rising military developments around the Arctic Frontier from the United States and Russia. Taiwan cannot manage its own defence independently of the United States' troops, unless it strategically shifts alliances and focuses on more localised powers such as Japan, South Korea, or ASEAN member states. The Philippines cannot enforce its South China Sea rights independently of ASEAN cohesion, especially in the brunt of a supposed Chinese "salami-slicing territorial capture". Iran is potentially managing its nuclear programme despite the global sanctions architecture and military invasions. Thus, when all these threads are woven together, the committee's intervention becomes urgent and extraordinarily difficult.

1. Greenland and the Arctic Frontier

"We need it really for international, for world security. I think we're going to get it. One way or the other, we're going to get it. Utilizing the U.S. military is always an option at the Commander-in-Chief's disposal."

— President Trump, during his address to the US Congress, March 2025.

Greenland occupies a geographic position of extraordinary strategic significance. It sits at the gateway between the Atlantic and Arctic Oceans, controls the GIUK Gap through which Soviet and now Russian submarines must pass to reach the Atlantic, and hosts the US Pituffik Space Base (formerly Thule Air Base), which is essential for missile warning, space surveillance, and strategic communications. The island contains vast deposits of rare earth elements, including neodymium, dysprosium, graphite, copper, and lithium — minerals that are simultaneously essential for the green energy transition and for advanced military hardware such as F-35 jet engines and guided missile systems.

Greenland's population of approximately 56,000 — the majority Kalaallit Greenlandic, an Indigenous Inuit people — has been increasingly asserting its right to self-determination. In the March 2025 elections, Greenlandic voters elected the Demokraatit (Democrats) party, which favours gradual independence from Denmark but explicitly rejects annexation by the United States. The elected Greenlandic government has stated clearly that Greenland is "not for sale" while simultaneously seeking greater autonomy from Copenhagen. This creates a triangular dynamic: Washington demands sovereignty, Copenhagen insists on Danish control, and Nuuk pursues its own independence pathway on its own terms and timeline.

The legal dimensions are clear under international law. Any forcible annexation of Greenland would violate Article 2(4) of the UN Charter (prohibition on use of force against territorial integrity), Article 1 (right to self-determination of peoples), and NATO's own founding charter, which includes Greenland as Danish territory. Trump's statement at Davos that acquiring Greenland might require "choosing between Greenland and NATO" was interpreted by European governments as a direct attack on the alliance's foundational principles.

Russia has exploited the uncertainty around Greenland's status to accelerate its own Arctic military posture. Russia has rebuilt Soviet-era Arctic military bases, deployed S-400 advanced air defence systems in the high north, and

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increased submarine patrols in the North Atlantic. Climate change is opening the Northern Sea Route — a shipping corridor across Russia's Arctic coast — for increasing portions of the year, creating a new axis of strategic competition. Canada and Norway have both increased Arctic military investment in response to these developments. The Arctic is no longer a frozen wilderness on the periphery of global affairs; it is an emerging theatre of great power competition.



2. Taiwan and the South China Sea

The South China Sea carries over \$3 trillion in annual trade — approximately 35% of all maritime commerce globally. China claims approximately 90% of the sea through the "nine-dash line," a boundary not recognised under any principle of international maritime law, which the Permanent Court of Arbitration ruled unlawful under UNCLOS in a landmark 2016 judgment. China continues to reject this ruling entirely, representing the most direct ongoing challenge to the legitimacy of international legal institutions in the current international system.

The Chinese Coast Guard doubled its presence at Scarborough Shoal and nearly tripled patrols around Sabina Shoal through 2025, according to reporting by Reuters and monitoring groups including AMTI (the Asia Maritime Transparency Initiative at CSIS). In October 2025, Chinese Coast Guard vessels used high-pressure water cannons and rammed Filipino fishing vessels at Thitu Island and Sabina Shoal. China declared a "nature reserve"

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at the Philippine-claimed Scarborough Shoal in a transparent legal fiction designed to assert administrative control. In August 2025, a dangerous close encounter between a Philippine and a Chinese Coast Guard vessel involved manoeuvres that Philippine officials described as constituting an attack.

Approximately 70% of the Code of Conduct text governing state behaviour in the South China Sea was agreed under Malaysia's 2025 ASEAN chairmanship. However, the core disputes — whether the Code of Conduct will be legally binding, what its geographic scope will encompass, and whether it will apply to military exercises by non-ASEAN states — remain completely unresolved. China proposes banning joint exercises with non-ASEAN states, which the Philippines has rejected. Chatham House analysts assess the conclusion of a binding COC by the Philippines' July 2026 deadline as "very unlikely."



3. The Strait of Hormuz and the Persian Gulf

The Strait of Hormuz, only 33 kilometres wide at its narrowest point, carries approximately 20% of global petroleum liquids daily and is the single most strategically important maritime chokepoint in the world. The June 2025 Twelve-Day War — US and Israeli strikes on Iranian nuclear facilities, followed by Iranian and Israeli missile exchanges — brought the Strait within hours of closure. Iran threatened NPT withdrawal and Hormuz closure in response to the strikes. Neither occurred, but the episode demonstrated the catastrophic potential of the Hormuz scenario.

Iran made a remarkable diplomatic offer in February 2026, during indirect talks in Oman: according to US officials speaking to Reuters and the BBC, Iran agreed for the first time to "never, ever have nuclear material to



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create a bomb" — described by negotiators as a "completely new" commitment. Talks moved to Vienna but reached an impasse over the central demand: the US insists on zero enrichment, meaning Iran must dismantle all uranium enrichment capabilities. Iran rejects this as incompatible with its sovereign rights under the NPT and its civilian nuclear programme. The duration of any agreement — the US seeks a permanent arrangement, Iran offers five to twenty years — is also a core unresolved issue as of May 2026. The Stimson Center has warned that the strikes "left the status of Iran's nuclear material and activities uncertain" and "strengthened the case for weaponisation among many in Tehran."

In April 2026, Spain publicly disputed the US claim to hegemony over the Strait of Hormuz after a confrontation between Spanish officials and US Secretary of Defence Hegseth. Spain asserted that the Strait is an international waterway subject to UNCLOS transit passage rights, not US unilateral authority. This incident, which received extensive coverage in Reuters, El País, and the Financial Times, exposed a fundamental fracture within NATO over the application of US military power in contested international spaces.



4. Venezuela and the South American Front

Venezuelan President Nicolás Maduro was captured by US forces on January 3, 2026 in what the Trump administration characterised as a law enforcement operation under a 2020 narco terrorism indictment. The capture removed the political figurehead of the Venezuelan government but did not dismantle the underlying regime structure. The Bolivarian governmental apparatus, supported by military commanders, Colectivo armed groups, Cuban security advisers, and Russian diplomatic backing, remains partially functional.

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Venezuela represents the most complex humanitarian crisis in the Western Hemisphere. Over seven million Venezuelans have been displaced — the largest displacement crisis in the region's history, exceeding even the Syrian displacement at its peak in proportional terms. The UN High Commissioner for Refugees has documented conditions in migrant populations across Colombia, Brazil, Ecuador, Peru, and Chile that include severe malnutrition, lack of access to healthcare, and systematic exploitation. The Trump administration's "Trump Corollary" to the Monroe Doctrine frames the entire Western Hemisphere as a US strategic zone and uses Venezuela as the primary test case. The administration is weighing further military options against the remaining Venezuelan government while simultaneously claiming to support an eventual democratic transition.

The Venezuela-Iran-Russia axis that sustained Maduro's government — involving Iranian technical personnel, fast-attack boats and drones, Russian political cover, shadow fleet oil exports, and North Korean weapons components (confirmed by UN Panel of Experts reports) — has been severely disrupted by the January 2026 operation. Iran's oil revenues, which depended substantially on Venezuelan crude purchases and the triangular shadow fleet arrangement with Russia, have been materially reduced according to analysis by the Atlantic Council and Bloomberg Economics.





Strategic Maritime Regions and Chokepoints

A considerable amount of global movement depends upon a limited number of locations. Even temporary disruptions create consequences across multiple continents simultaneously. The world's maritime chokepoints are simultaneously the arteries of global trade, the frontlines of great power competition, and the flashpoints most vulnerable to deliberate or accidental escalation. As of 2025–26, all major chokepoints face active disruption scenarios driven by a combination of state and non-state actors.

1. Strait of Hormuz

The Strait of Hormuz carries approximately 20% of global petroleum liquids daily, including the majority of oil exports from Saudi Arabia, the UAE, Kuwait, and Iraq. Iranian leverage over the Strait is its primary strategic asset in its confrontation with the United States. The April 2026 Iran IMO engagement over shipping safety, detailed in the projected timeline section, represents an attempt to establish multilateral governance of Hormuz transit that might reduce Iranian unilateral leverage while addressing legitimate Iranian concerns about US military presence in the Gulf. The April 2026 Spain-US dispute over Hormuz sovereignty further complicated this already fraught environment.

2. South China Sea and the Taiwan Strait

The South China Sea carries over \$3 trillion in annual trade. China's enforcement of its nine-dash line claim through Coast Guard operations, artificial island construction, and military exercises creates constant friction with the legitimate maritime rights of the Philippines, Vietnam, Malaysia, Brunei, and Indonesia under UNCLOS. The shadow fleet that Iran and Russia use for sanctions evasion also transits these waters, creating a convergence of enforcement challenges for international maritime law.

3. Bab-el-Mandeb and the Red Sea

Houthi drone and missile attacks on commercial shipping in the Red Sea — beginning in late 2023 and continuing through 2025–26 — have reduced Suez Canal traffic by more than 30% according to data from the Suez Canal Authority and Reuters tracking of shipping diversions. Major shipping companies, including Maersk, MSC, and CMA CGM, have diverted traffic around the Cape of Good Hope, adding approximately two weeks to journey times and \$1 million or more per voyage in additional fuel costs. The collapse of the Egyptian Suez Canal revenue is contributing to Egypt's severe economic crisis, with geopolitical implications for North African stability.

4. Strait of Malacca

The Strait of Malacca carries approximately 30% of global trade and 60% of global LNG, particularly for Japan, South Korea, and China. Any disruption would have immediate and catastrophic economic consequences for Northeast Asia. The US and China maintain competing naval presences in waters adjacent to the strait. The strait's governance by the littoral states — Malaysia, Singapore, and Indonesia — through the Malacca Strait Patrol and Eye in the Sky programme represents one of the more successful examples of regional maritime security cooperation.



5. The Panama Canal

Trump's demands for US control over the Panama Canal — citing Chinese investment in canal adjacent infrastructure and transit fee disputes — represent another application of the "Trump Corollary" to the Western Hemisphere. Panama has rejected these demands while seeking to manage its relationship with Washington. The canal carries 5% of global trade and 40% of US container imports.

6. The Suez Canal

The Suez Canal is one of the world's most critical maritime corridors, connecting the Mediterranean Sea to the Red Sea and providing the shortest sea route between Europe and Asia. Approximately 10–12% of global trade and a significant portion of global container traffic transit the canal annually. Since late 2023, attacks on commercial shipping in the Red Sea by Houthi forces have forced many vessels to divert around the Cape of Good Hope, increasing transit times by up to two weeks and significantly raising shipping costs. Reduced canal traffic has severely affected Egyptian revenue and highlighted the vulnerability of global supply chains to regional conflicts. As a result, the Suez Canal has become both an economic lifeline and a strategic chokepoint whose disruption can rapidly affect global inflation, energy markets, and trade flows.

7. The Arctic Ocean

The Arctic Ocean is emerging as one of the most strategically contested regions of the twenty-first century. Climate change has accelerated the melting of Arctic sea ice, opening new shipping routes such as the Northern Sea Route and increasing access to vast reserves of oil, natural gas, rare earth minerals, and other critical resources. The Northern Sea Route across Russia's Arctic coast, opened for increasing portions of the year by climate change, is emerging as an alternative to both the Suez Canal and Panama Canal routes for certain cargo types. Russia controls access to this route and is investing heavily in Arctic port infrastructure.

The region has become a focal point for competition among Arctic states, particularly the United States, Russia, Canada, Denmark (through Greenland), and Norway. Russia has expanded its Arctic military infrastructure, while NATO members have increased their presence in response. Beyond resource competition, the Arctic is strategically important for missile defence systems, submarine operations, satellite monitoring, and future trade routes connecting Europe and Asia. Consequently, the Arctic Ocean is increasingly viewed as a major arena of great-power rivalry and geopolitical competition.



TIMELINE OF EVENTS

(1980)- The Carter Doctrine and Gulf Militarization

The early 1980s established the Persian Gulf as one of the central theatres of modern energy security. The 1979 Iranian Revolution triggered an acute global oil shock, demonstrating how political instability in the Gulf could affect inflation, energy prices, and economic growth worldwide. Energy security therefore became inseparable from national security for major industrial powers.

After the Iranian Revolution and the Soviet invasion of Afghanistan, the United States, through **the Carter Doctrine** announced that any attempt by an outside power to control the Persian Gulf would be treated as an assault on vital American interests. The doctrine also laid the foundation for the permanent expansion of American military infrastructure in the Gulf, eventually leading to the foundation of the **Rapid Deployment Force, CENTCOM**, and the persistent **US Naval Operations** in the region alongside defense cooperation with regional monarchies.

The same year, Iraq invaded Iran. As the war sprouted into action, Iran relied on asymmetric pressure and shipping lanes became targets during the so-called Tanker War. Thus emerged the beginning of an eight-year war that militarised the Gulf, exposed tankers and energy terminals to attack, and made the Strait of Hormuz, the Bab-al-Mandeb Strait and the Gulf of Aden a vital strategic concern for the United States and international bodies.

(1982) UNCLOS Redefines Maritime Sovereignty and Exclusive Economic Zones (EEZs)

The United Nations Convention on the Law of the Sea (UNCLOS) was adopted in 1982, creating the modern legal framework for territorial seas, exclusive economic zones, continental shelves, transit passage, archipelagic waters and maritime dispute settlement. By granting coastal states extensive economic rights within **200-nautical-mile Exclusive Economic Zones**, UNCLOS fundamentally reshaped global access to fisheries, offshore hydrocarbons, and maritime resources, prohibiting resource colonisation of shared international waters.

(1983) The Raegan-Era Strategic Defense Initiative (SDI) and Militarisation of Space

Before the **Strategic Defense Initiative (SDI)** also widely named "*the Star Wars Initiative*", the U.S. and the Soviet Union maintained stability through **Mutually Assured Destruction (MAD)**. In 1983, however, the United States announced the Strategic Defence Initiative, signalling renewed interest in developing systems that could detect, track, and intercept incoming **nuclear ballistic missiles** before they reached the United States, thereby reducing reliance on the Cold War doctrine of Mutually Assured Destruction (MAD). The programme also accelerated competition between the United States and the Soviet Union, especially in domains of advanced computing, satellite surveillance, and space-based military systems, helping establish space as a frontier of strategic rivalry.

(1987) The Establishment of the Intermediate-Range Nuclear Forces Treaty (INF)

The Intermediate-Range Nuclear Forces Treaty removed ground-launched ballistic and cruise missiles with ranges between **500 and 5,500 kilometres from the US and Soviet arsenals**. The INF Treaty was negotiated amid

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growing fears that Europe could become the primary theatre of a nuclear conflict. The deployment of **Soviet SS-20** missiles and **NATO Pershing II** heightened tensions of nuclear war across the continent. The treaty was important because it did not merely cap weapons through verification measures, on-site inspections and extensive monitoring mechanisms; it eliminated a category of systems that had created intense fear in Europe during the late Cold War.

(1989) The Fall of the Berlin Wall and the Iron Curtain

The **fall of the Berlin Wall** and the **weakening of the Iron Curtain in East Germany**, reduced Soviet control over Eastern Europe and opened the transition from a bipolar Cold War system to a **unipolar world order**, in which the **United States** emerged as the **dominant military and diplomatic power**. For much of the 1990s and early 2000s, global security became heavily dependent upon American military guarantees, American Alliance Networks, and leadership within international institutions.

NATO expanded eastward during this time. In Europe, the immediate result was optimism about reunification, democracy and conventional arms reductions. At the global level, however, many frozen political questions remained unresolved. As globalization accelerated, and liberal democratic norms gained influence under a system largely shaped by U.S. power. This period, often described as the "**Unipolar Moment**," created an expectation that major conflicts could be managed through American-led coalitions and international institutions.

(1990) Operation Desert Storm

Iraq's invasion of Kuwait in August 1990 triggered a **United Nations-backed coalition response** led by the United States. In January 1991, **Operation Desert Storm** commenced with one of the largest air campaigns in modern history. Coalition forces, led by France, the United States, the United Kingdom and Saudi-Arabia employed stealth aircraft such as the **Lockheed F-117 Nighthawk**, **AWACS surveillance** aircraft, satellite navigation systems, and overwhelming air superiority to systematically degrade Iraq's command-and-control networks, air defences, infrastructure, and military formations.

After weeks of sustained aerial bombardment, coalition forces launched a rapid ground offensive that became known as the "**Left Hook**" **manoeuvre**, in which American, British, French, and Arab forces bypassed heavily fortified Iraqi positions in Kuwait and advanced through western Iraq to outflank Iraqi troops. The conflict also highlighted the global importance of strategically located, resource-rich territories. It established that threats to major **energy-producing regions** and critical maritime routes would be viewed as matters of international security rather than purely regional disputes.

(1991) The Fall of the Soviet Union

The **Soviet Union dissolved in December 1991**, creating **fifteen independent states** and ending the formal bipolar structure of the Cold War. Russia inherited the Soviet **permanent seat at the UN Security Council** and most of the **Soviet nuclear arsenal**, while newly independent states such as Ukraine, Belarus and Kazakhstan inherited large strategic legacies resource-rich territories. The dissolution created hopes of a cooperative European order, but it also left unsettled questions about borders, cut **Russian Black Sea access** and energy routes. These unresolved issues later became central to the crises in Crimea, Ukraine and also led to the **emergence of the Arctic Front**.

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(1994) The Budapest Memorandum and the Strengthening of UNCLOS Frameworks

Ukraine agreed to give up the **nuclear weapons** left on its territory after the Soviet collapse and joined the **Nuclear Non-Proliferation Treaty (NPT)** as a non-nuclear-weapon state. **The Budapest Memorandum** recorded security assurances from Russia, the United States and the United Kingdom, including respect for Ukraine's independence and existing borders. The same period also saw UNCLOS enter into force, strengthening the formal legal architecture around maritime claims, by defining international waters around maritime chokepoints.

(1995- 1996) The Third Taiwan Strait Crisis

In 1995 the Nuclear Non-Proliferation Treaty was extended indefinitely, preserving the global bargain between non-proliferation and eventual disarmament. During the 1995-1996 **Taiwan Strait Crisis**, China conducted missile tests and military exercises around Taiwan, while the United States deployed carrier groups to signal support for stability. The deployment of U.S. aircraft carrier groups demonstrated **Washington's willingness to intervene in a Taiwan Contingency and Maritime Conflict**. The crisis accelerated China's military modernization, including investments in anti-ship missiles, naval expansion, and **anti-access/area-denial (A2/AD) capabilities**, while deepening Taiwan's reliance on U.S. security support.

(May, 1998)- The Pokhran II and the Chagai Nuclear Tests in South-Asia

In May 1998, **India conducted the Pokhran-II** nuclear tests, followed weeks later by **Pakistan's Chagai nuclear tests**, openly declaring both states as nuclear-armed powers. The tests transformed **South Asia into a formal nuclear rivalry**, ensuring that future conflicts would unfold under the shadow of nuclear deterrence. They also challenged the global non-proliferation regime by demonstrating that states outside the Treaty on the Non-Proliferation of Nuclear Weapons framework could successfully develop nuclear arsenals.

(December, 1998) The Election of Hugo Chavez and the Venezuela-Cuba Alliance

The election of Hugo Chávez in **December 1998** marked a major political shift in Latin America. Chávez launched the **Bolivarian Revolution**, expanding state control over the economy, strengthening presidential authority, and using Venezuela's vast oil wealth to fund social programmes and increase regional influence. He openly challenged American influence in the Western Hemisphere, cultivated partnerships with countries such as Cuba, and promoted alternative regional institutions that sought greater autonomy from Washington.

(1999) NATO's Kosovo Intervention

NATO's **1999 air campaign over Kosovo** was conducted **without explicit UN Security Council authorisation**, after violence and displacement in the former Yugoslavia raised urgent humanitarian concerns. Western states framed the intervention as necessary to prevent atrocities, while Russia and others viewed it as a dangerous precedent for **bypassing the Security Council**. This set a precedent for Western States in bypassing international security on claims of humanitarian necessity while allowing for the selective interpretation of sovereignty.



(2001) Shifts in Global Gravity: 9/11, the War on Terror, and China's WTO Ascension

The **terrorist attacks of 11 September 2001** fundamentally reshaped global security priorities. The United States and its allies launched the **Global War on Terror**, leading to **American Military Intervention in Afghanistan** and an unprecedented expansion of counter-terrorism operations, intelligence cooperation, homeland security measures, and expeditionary warfare capabilities. These campaigns demonstrated the unrivalled military reach of the United States during the post-Cold War era, while also drawing significant political, economic, and military resources toward the Middle East.

The same year, **China joined the World Trade Organization (WTO)**, accelerating its integration into global manufacturing, trade, and investment networks. Over the following decade, China emerged as the world's leading industrial power and a central node in global supply chains. While American strategic attention remained focused on the Middle East, China's economic influence expanded rapidly across Asia, Africa, Europe, and Latin America. The period highlighted a major shift in global power dynamics: the United States remained the dominant military power, but China's economic rise began laying the foundations for a more competitive international order in the decades ahead.

(2002) The South China Sea Declaration and Venezuela's Failed Coup

In **2002**, China and the member states of **ASEAN** signed the **Declaration on the Conduct of Parties in the South China Sea (DOC)**. The agreement encouraged restraint, dialogue, and confidence-building measures among claimant states, but it remained politically rather than legally binding. As maritime competition intensified, the gap between diplomatic commitments and activities at sea continued to widen, highlighting the limitations of voluntary agreements in managing strategic disputes. The declaration represented one of the earliest attempts to establish regional norms for managing maritime competition in an increasingly contested Indo-Pacific region.

In **April 2002**, Venezuelan President **Hugo Chávez** was briefly removed from office during a failed coup before being restored to power within days. The episode deepened political polarisation within Venezuela and intensified tensions between the government, opposition groups, business elites, and sections of the military. For Chávez and his supporters, the coup became a defining symbol of resistance against perceived foreign interference and strengthened the legitimacy of the **Bolivarian Revolution**. It also accelerated Venezuela's efforts to pursue a more independent foreign policy, challenge **American influence in Latin America**, and use energy resources as a tool of regional diplomacy.

(2005) China's Anti-Secession Law

In **2005**, China adopted the **Anti-Secession Law**, providing a formal legal framework for its position that **Taiwan** remains an **inseparable part of China**. The legislation authorised the use of "**non-peaceful means**" should Beijing conclude that possibilities for peaceful reunification had been exhausted. The law linked Taiwan policy directly to issues of sovereignty, territorial integrity, nationalism, and regime legitimacy. It also signalled that Taiwan's domestic politics, elections, arms acquisitions, and international engagement would increasingly be viewed through a strategic and security lens by Beijing.



(2008) The War in Georgia and the Global Financial Crisis

In **August 2008**, war erupted between **Russia and Georgia** over the disputed territories of **South Ossetia** and **Abkhazia**. The conflict demonstrated that unresolved post-Soviet territorial disputes remained potential flashpoints for conventional warfare and signalled Russia's willingness to use military force to preserve influence within its near abroad.

The same year, the **Global Financial Crisis** triggered the most severe economic downturn since the Great Depression. Originating in Western financial markets, the crisis weakened confidence in existing economic institutions and exposed vulnerabilities within the global financial system. Essentially, while Western economies struggled with financial instability, emerging powers such as China increased their relative economic influence.

(2008–2009) Greenland's Path Toward Self-Government

In **2008**, Greenland voted overwhelmingly in favour of expanded self-government, and the **Greenland Self-Government Act** entered into force in **2009**. The agreement transferred greater authority over domestic affairs to Greenland's government while **Denmark retained responsibility for foreign policy**, defence, and monetary affairs.

The reforms strengthened **Greenlandic political autonomy** and reinforced the principle of **self-determination** for the island's Indigenous population. At the same time, Denmark and Europe largely retained control over Greenland's strategic location, **Arctic shipping routes**, and **vast reserves of rare earth minerals and critical resources**.

(2010–2011) The New START Treaty, the Arab Spring, and the Libya Intervention

The **New START Treaty** was signed in **2010** between the **United States** and **Russia**, preserving one of the most important arms-control mechanisms of the post-Cold War era. The agreement limited deployed strategic nuclear weapons and established verification measures that helped maintain transparency and predictability between the world's two largest nuclear powers. It represented one of the final major successes of the arms-control architecture that had helped underpin global strategic stability since the Cold War.

In **2011**, the **Arab Spring** swept across **North Africa and the Middle East**, beginning with popular uprisings in Tunisia before spreading to Egypt, Libya, Yemen, Syria, and beyond. Driven by demands for political reform, economic opportunity, greater accountability, and an end to authoritarian rule, the protests led to the collapse of several long-standing governments while triggering prolonged instability and civil conflict in others.

2012–2013 – The New Silk Road and Shifting Sands: Xi Jinping Takes the Reins

In **2012**, **China and the Philippines** entered a prolonged confrontation at **Scarborough Shoal** in the South China Sea. Following the coastal standoff, China established effective control over access to the area without engaging in direct naval conflict. The episode demonstrated how coast guards, maritime law-enforcement vessels, and administrative measures could alter strategic realities without conventional warfare.



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At the same time, **Xi Jinping** became **General Secretary of the Chinese Communist Party** in **2012** and **President of China** in **2013**, ushering in a period of greater political centralisation, military modernisation, and strategic ambition. In **2013**, China also launched the **Belt and Road Initiative (BRI)**, a vast infrastructure and connectivity programme linking Asia, Europe, Africa, and beyond through ports, railways, energy corridors, digital networks, and financial investments. The initiative significantly expanded China's economic influence.

(March, 2013) Nicolás Maduro Succeeds Chávez

Following the death of **Hugo Chávez** in **March 2013**, **Nicolás Maduro** assumed the presidency of Venezuela. He inherited a political system heavily dependent on oil revenues, state institutions, and the legacy of the Bolivarian Revolution. The transition marked a new phase in Venezuelan politics as the country sought to maintain its regional influence amid growing economic pressures.

In **2013**, China dramatically expanded construction activities across disputed features in the **Spratly Islands**, transforming reefs and rocks into artificial islands equipped with runways, ports, radar systems, and military-capable infrastructure. By creating permanent facilities far from the Chinese mainland, Beijing enhanced its ability to project power, sustain maritime operations, monitor regional activity, and strengthen its presence throughout the South China Sea, while also calling for extended maritime territories under the **UNCLOS**.

(November, 2013) The Euromaidan Movement

On **21 November 2013**, Ukraine suspended preparations for an association agreement with the **European Union**, triggering mass protests in Kyiv that evolved into the **Euromaidan movement**. What began as demonstrations over economic and political orientation soon became a broader movement centred on governance, corruption, and Ukraine's future direction. The protests exposed deep divisions regarding Ukraine's relationship with both Europe and Russia, transforming the country into a major geopolitical fault line between competing visions of regional order and influence.

(2014–2015) The Russia-Ukraine Border Conflicts

February 2014 – The Revolution of Dignity

Following months of protests and political unrest, Ukrainian President **Viktor Yanukovich** left Kyiv in **February 2014**, leading to a change in government. Ukraine and many Western states viewed the transition as a popular movement against corruption and authoritarianism, while Russia characterised it as an unconstitutional seizure of power.

The competing interpretations of legitimacy became a central source of tension between Russia and the West and marked a turning point in European security politics.

In **2011**, the **Arab Spring** swept across **North Africa and the Middle East**, beginning with popular uprisings in Tunisia before spreading to Egypt, Libya, Yemen, Syria, and beyond. Driven by demands for political reform, economic opportunity, greater accountability, and an end to authoritarian rule, the protests led to the collapse of several long-standing governments while triggering prolonged instability and civil conflict in others.

February–March 2014 – Russia Annexes Crimea

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In early **2014**, Russian forces assumed control of **Crimea**, after which Moscow formally annexed the peninsula following a disputed referendum. Ukraine and the vast majority of UN member states rejected the annexation as a violation of international law and Ukrainian sovereignty.

Crimea rapidly became one of the defining geopolitical disputes of the twenty-first century, bringing together questions of territorial integrity, self-determination, strategic naval basing, historical identity, and the credibility of post-Cold War security arrangements.

April 2014 – Conflict Begins in Donbas

Armed separatist movements in **Donetsk** and **Luhansk** declared breakaway entities in eastern Ukraine, leading to armed conflict between Ukrainian forces and separatist groups. The fighting evolved into a prolonged confrontation involving trench warfare, artillery exchanges, ceasefire violations, and competing claims of external support.

The conflict demonstrated how territorial disputes, identity politics, and great-power competition could combine to produce long-term instability within strategically important regions.

(2014–2015) The Minsk Agreements

The **Minsk Agreements**, signed in **September 2014** and **February 2015**, sought to reduce violence through ceasefires, withdrawal provisions, and political negotiations. Although the agreements lowered the intensity of fighting at various points, they failed to resolve the underlying questions of sovereignty, territorial control, and political authority. The Minsk process illustrated the challenges of conflict resolution in an increasingly multipolar environment, where military realities, diplomatic negotiations, and competing geopolitical interests often proved difficult to reconcile.

2015

Nuclear Deals and Clashing Institutions: The JCPOA and Venezuela's Political Split

2015 - JCPOA and the temporary containment of the Iran nuclear crisis The Joint Comprehensive Plan of Action was agreed in 2015 between Iran and the P5+1. It placed limits on Iran's nuclear programme and created an inspections framework in exchange for sanctions relief. The agreement did not remove regional rivalry, but it temporarily reduced the immediate risk of a nuclear escalation.

The JCPOA also showed the importance of sequencing: enrichment limits, inspections, sanctions relief, verification and political guarantees had to move together. Later crisis episodes around Iran show how quickly a nuclear agreement can unravel when domestic politics, regional attacks and sanctions enforcement pull in opposite directions.

2015 - Joint Comprehensive Plan of Action is signed The Joint Comprehensive Plan of Action was signed between Iran, the United States, the United Kingdom, France, Germany, Russia, China and the European Union. Iran accepted limits on parts of its nuclear programme in exchange for sanctions relief. For several years the deal remained the central diplomatic mechanism for slowing nuclear escalation, but it also created a permanent argument in Washington, Tehran, Tel Aviv and the Gulf over whether negotiated limits were enough to restrain Iranian power.

2015-2017 - Opposition gains, institutional conflict and authoritarian consolidation The opposition won the National Assembly in 2015, but state institutions aligned with Maduro limited its power. Protests and repression intensified. The government increasingly relied on courts, electoral bodies, security forces and loyalist institutions to survive, while the opposition argued that constitutional order had been hollowed out.

2016

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Law vs. Might: The South China Sea Arbitral Ruling

July: The Hague Defies Beijing

12 July 2016 - South China Sea arbitral ruling In 2016 an arbitral tribunal under UNCLOS issued a ruling in the case brought by the Philippines against China. The tribunal rejected several elements of China's expansive South China Sea claims and found that certain features could not generate the maritime zones claimed around them. China rejected the ruling and continued to operate from artificial islands and fortified positions.

The ruling did not end the dispute, but it created a major legal reference point for smaller coastal states. It also exposed the gap between legal victory and enforcement. The South China Sea timeline after 2026 builds on this exact problem: law can clarify rights, but naval presence, coast-guard activity and economic pressure still shape outcomes.

The UNCLOS tribunal in the Philippines v. China case rejected key parts of China's expansive maritime claims and clarified the status of several features. China rejected the ruling. The decision became a legal landmark but also a lesson in enforcement limits: Manila gained legal authority, while Beijing retained physical presence.

2017

Pressure Cooker: The Trump Effect on North Korea and Iran

2017-2018 - Trump's first term, North Korea tensions and US withdrawal from the JCPOA The first Trump administration brought a more transactional and confrontational style to US foreign policy. North Korea tested missiles and nuclear devices, while the United States used intense pressure and leader-level diplomacy. The period showed how sudden escalation and sudden negotiation could occur within the same crisis cycle.

In **2018** the United States withdrew from the JCPOA and restored sanctions on Iran. Iran gradually reduced compliance, regional tensions intensified, and European efforts to preserve the agreement struggled. This created the long runway for the later Iran snapback and Hormuz scenarios in the background guide.

2018

Demolishing Accords: Maximum Pressure, Disputed Ballots, and Black Sea Clashes

May: Tearing Up the Nuclear Deal

8 May 2018 - Trump withdraws the United States from the JCPOA Donald Trump withdrew the United States from the Iran nuclear deal and restored maximum-pressure sanctions. Iran's economy came under renewed strain, oil exports were squeezed, and the diplomatic channel that had restrained nuclear escalation began to weaken. The withdrawal became the modern starting point of the later confrontation because it turned the nuclear issue, sanctions enforcement, oil exports and regime security into one connected crisis.

Middle of the Year: Venezuela's Fractured Election

2018 - Disputed presidential election Maduro won an election widely criticised by the opposition and several foreign governments. Sanctions expanded, recognition disputes intensified, and Venezuela's international isolation deepened. The crisis became not only domestic but diplomatic: states disagreed over who legitimately represented Venezuela.

Late Year: The Indian Exception at Chabahar

2018 - United States gives India a Chabahar sanctions waiver During the Trump administration's maximum-pressure campaign against Iran, Washington still allowed India limited room to continue work linked to Chabahar Port. The exemption reflected the port's importance to Afghanistan's economic access and to India's attempt to reach Afghanistan and Central Asia without relying on Pakistan. Chabahar therefore survived the early sanctions environment, even as banking, insurance and shipping risks limited its speed.

2018-2023 - JCPOA collapse and nuclear escalation background The Iran crisis entered the 2020s through the collapse of the JCPOA framework after the United States withdrew in 2018 and Iran gradually reduced compliance.

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By the early 2020s, Iran's nuclear programme, missile development, drone exports and regional proxy networks were all being discussed together. The Ukraine war added another layer because Iranian drones became associated with Russian operations, while Gulf states remained concerned about escalation around energy infrastructure and maritime routes.

November: Guns Blaze in Kerch Strait

25 November 2018 - Kerch Strait incident Russian forces seized Ukrainian naval vessels near the Kerch Strait, linking the Black Sea conflict to maritime access and control. The incident showed that Crimea's annexation was not only a land question; it affected the Sea of Azov, Ukrainian ports, naval movement and commercial confidence.

2019

Two Presidents and a For-Sale Island: The Guaidó Crisis and Greenland Bidding

2019 - Juan Guaidó recognition crisis Opposition leader Juan Guaidó declared himself interim president and was recognised by the United States and several allies. Maduro retained control of territory, institutions and the armed forces. The episode showed the limits of recognition without internal coercive power: international legitimacy could pressure Caracas, but it could not automatically change control on the ground.

2019 - Trump first raises the idea of buying Greenland During his first term, Donald Trump publicly expressed interest in buying Greenland. Denmark rejected the idea, and Greenlandic leaders insisted the island was not for sale. The episode was initially treated by many observers as unusual political theatre, but it revealed a serious strategic interest in Arctic basing, mineral access and northern surveillance.

2019-2021 - Arms-control collapse, pandemic shock, Afghanistan withdrawal and AUKUS Between 2019 and 2021, arms-control confidence weakened sharply. The INF Treaty ended in 2019, the Open Skies Treaty came under strain, and New START survived only after extension. The result was a strategic environment with fewer verification channels and more suspicion around missiles, forward deployments and dual-capable systems.

The COVID-19 pandemic exposed supply-chain dependence, vaccine inequality, and the political fragility of global institutions. In **2020**, the US withdrawal from Afghanistan damaged confidence among allies and partners, while AUKUS signalled a deeper Anglosphere defence focus on the Indo-Pacific. These developments contributed to the later emphasis on resilience, technology controls, submarine cooperation, and China-centred deterrence.

2020

Brinks of War: The Soleimani Strike and Economic Flight

January: A Drone Strike Tremor in Baghdad

3 January 2020 - Soleimani assassination brings the United States and Iran close to direct war A US drone strike killed Qasem Soleimani in Baghdad. Iran retaliated with missile strikes on US bases in Iraq, and both sides came close to open war before the immediate crisis was contained. The episode mattered because it showed that Washington was willing to strike senior Iranian command figures directly, while Tehran could respond through missiles, proxies and regional pressure without necessarily choosing full conventional war.

Multi-Year Trend: Venezuela Bleeds Population

2020-2023 - Economic collapse, migration and partial sanctions recalibration Venezuela's humanitarian and economic crisis drove mass migration across Latin America. Over time, some sanctions policies were recalibrated around oil markets, negotiations and prisoner releases, but political distrust remained deep. The state survived through security control, informal economies, external partners and fragmented opposition politics.

2021

The Silent Build-Up: Sluggish Ports and Armored Movements

Spring: Shadows on Ukraine's Border

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Spring 2021 - Russian military build-up near Ukraine Russia deployed large forces near Ukraine, creating fears of invasion and testing Western response. Although some forces later moved, the episode normalised the use of large-scale military pressure as a diplomatic signal. It also gave analysts an early view of the force packages and axes that would matter in 2022.

Mid-Year Stagnation: Chabahar Caught in Limbo

2021-2023 - Chabahar slows but remains strategically alive Between 2021 and 2023, Chabahar remains strategically important but operationally slowed by sanctions, the Taliban takeover in Afghanistan, financing uncertainty, insurance complications and the difficulty of developing infrastructure around Iran under US pressure. India still treated it as a long-term bypass route to Afghanistan, Central Asia and Eurasia, and as a counterweight to Pakistan's geography and China's Gwadar-linked connectivity.

2022

The Shockwaves of Full-Scale War: Invading Ukraine and Tensions Over Taiwan

February: Decoupling Energy Chains

22 February 2022 - Germany suspends Nord Stream 2 certification After Russia recognised the Donetsk and Luhansk separatist entities, Germany suspended certification of Nord Stream 2. This was one of the largest reversals in post-Cold War European energy policy. Germany effectively abandoned the assumption that deep Russian gas dependence could coexist safely with European security, and the wider European decoupling from Russian energy began moving from rhetoric into policy.

24 February: Total Onslaught in Europe

24 February 2022 - Russia launches full-scale invasion Russia attacked Ukraine from multiple directions, including from Belarus toward Kyiv, from Russia toward Kharkiv and the Donbas, and from Crimea toward southern Ukraine. Moscow described the invasion in terms of demilitarisation and security demands; Kyiv called it an attempt to destroy Ukrainian sovereignty. The attack triggered sanctions, NATO reinforcement, mass refugee flows and urgent Western military support.

24 February 2022 - Russia launches full-scale invasion of Ukraine On 24 February 2022, Russia launches a full-scale invasion of Ukraine. The attack transformed the post-Cold War European security order and began the largest war in Europe since the Second World War. Ukraine resisted the initial assault, Western states imposed major sanctions, and NATO countries began supplying weapons, intelligence and financial support. The war immediately affected energy markets, grain exports, Black Sea shipping, European defence planning and the global debate over territorial conquest.

24 February 2022 - Russia's full-scale invasion of Ukraine Russia's full-scale invasion of Ukraine became the largest European war since the Second World War. It triggered mass displacement, heavy civilian harm, extensive sanctions, renewed NATO purpose, accelerated European rearmament and a sustained contest over energy supplies. Ukraine became both a battlefield and a test case for whether external military aid, sanctions and diplomacy could resist territorial conquest.

The war also changed global food, fuel and arms markets. Grain exports, Black Sea shipping, artillery production, drone warfare and energy infrastructure became strategic issues. It pushed neutral and non-aligned states to balance between legal condemnation of aggression and reluctance to fully join Western sanctions.

March: The Shield of Kyiv Holds

March 2022 - Battle for Kyiv and first major displacement wave Russian forces advanced toward Kyiv but faced strong Ukrainian resistance, logistical problems and international pressure. Millions of Ukrainians fled internally or across borders. The defence of Kyiv became a political turning point because it prevented a rapid collapse of the Ukrainian government and allowed President Volodymyr Zelensky to become the visible symbol of resistance.

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April: Horrors in the Northern Suburbs

April 2022 - Russian withdrawal from Kyiv region and Bucha revelations Russia withdrew from northern Ukraine and refocused on the east. After the withdrawal, killings of civilians in places such as Bucha drew global outrage and intensified calls for war-crimes investigations. The war's legal and humanitarian dimension deepened, and compromise became politically harder for Ukraine and its supporters.

May: Steel and Fire in Mariupol

May 2022 - Fall of Mariupol After a destructive siege, Ukrainian defenders in Mariupol surrendered from the Azovstal steel plant. Russia gained a land corridor between occupied Donbas and Crimea, while Ukraine and international observers highlighted the civilian devastation of the siege. Mariupol became one of the war's defining examples of urban destruction.

August: Sparks Fly in Taipei

August 2022 - Nancy Pelosi visits Taiwan In August 2022, US House Speaker Nancy Pelosi visited Taiwan. China responded with large military exercises around Taiwan, missile launches and a more aggressive pattern of crossing previous operational boundaries. The visit became a major inflexion point because it normalised larger PLA demonstrations around Taiwan and contributed to the erosion of the old median-line restraint. For Washington, the visit was framed in terms of democratic support and congressional autonomy; for Beijing, it was treated as a violation of the one-China principle; for Taiwan, it showed both the value and danger of high-profile foreign support.

August 2022 - Nancy Pelosi visits Taiwan, and China conducts major exercises US House Speaker Nancy Pelosi visited Taiwan in August 2022, becoming the highest-ranking US official to travel to the island in decades. Beijing treated the visit as a direct challenge to its sovereignty position and responded with unprecedented exercises around Taiwan. China fired missiles, conducted naval and air operations around the island, and temporarily suspended several channels of dialogue with Washington.

The crisis created a new baseline for cross-strait pressure. After 2022, blockade-like activity, missile signalling, median-line crossings and encirclement drills became more plausible as tools of coercion. Taiwan began treating large-scale PLA activity as a recurring pressure method rather than an exceptional event, while the United States and its partners had to think more seriously about how a political visit could trigger a military crisis.

August 2022 - Nancy Pelosi visits Taiwan, and the Fourth Taiwan Strait Crisis begins In early August 2022, United States House Speaker Nancy Pelosi visited Taiwan despite strong warnings from Beijing. The visit became one of the most consequential symbolic moments in recent cross-strait politics because it joined together American congressional signalling, Taiwanese democratic visibility and Chinese claims over sovereignty. For Taiwan, the visit was framed as an affirmation that democratic partners would not allow Beijing alone to dictate the island's international contacts. For China, it was treated as a direct challenge to the One China principle and as evidence that Washington was hollowing out its older policy of strategic ambiguity.

Beijing responded with large-scale military exercises around Taiwan from 4 to 11 August 2022. The drills involved live-fire activity, naval deployments, air sorties and missile launches into waters around the island. The exercises were not only a protest. They also rehearsed practical elements of a future blockade or encirclement: pressure around Taiwan's ports, air defence saturation, intimidation of shipping and the use of missile forces to demonstrate that Taiwan's surrounding waters could be made militarily unsafe at short notice.

Washington viewed the crisis as proof that the Taiwan Strait was no longer a background issue in Asian security but a live theatre of great-power escalation. Japan and other Indo-Pacific partners saw the missile and naval activity as directly affecting their own security, especially because any crisis around Taiwan would also affect Japanese islands,



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sea lanes, semiconductor supply chains and US forward bases. For Beijing, however, the episode became a warning that future high-level political visits could trigger military responses of increasing scale.

September: Shifting Alignments in Samarkand

September 2022 - SCO Samarkand summit At the 2022 Shanghai Cooperation Organisation summit in Samarkand, Xi Jinping met Vladimir Putin while India, China, Russia and Central Asian states gathered amid the Ukraine war. Energy trade, currency settlement and investment cooperation become central themes. The visit precedes wider movement toward renminbi settlement for a portion of Saudi oil exports to China. No direct humanitarian crisis is created, but Gulf energy decisions later affect oil prices, shipping and import-dependent states. The visit is part of the wider transition from a US-dominated Gulf order toward a more multipolar energy-security environment.

Global Economic Warfare: Weaponizing the Financial System

2022 - Russian oil price cap and shadow tanker response In 2022, the G7 created a Russian oil price-cap mechanism intended to reduce Russian revenue while keeping oil flowing globally. Russia responded with shadow tanker fleets, alternative buyers and non-dollar trade routes, including yuan and rupee-linked transactions. The price-cap system became one of the clearest examples of economic warfare during the Ukraine war: energy could not simply be blocked without damaging global markets, so Western states tried to regulate the price, insurance and shipping mechanisms around Russian oil instead.

2022 - Russian reserves frozen and sanctions architecture expands After the invasion, Western countries froze roughly 300 billion dollars in Russian central-bank reserves and imposed sweeping financial, technology and energy-related sanctions. This shocked many non-Western governments because it showed that reserve assets held in Western systems could become geopolitical weapons. Russia responded by expanding non-Western financial channels, while China continued strengthening CIPS and Russia expanded SPFS as alternatives or supplements to Western-dominated payment infrastructure. The lesson drawn by many states was that financial architecture itself had become a theatre of strategic competition.

2022-2024 - Arctic security becomes more exposed after Russia invading Ukraine Russia's invasion of Ukraine transformed the Arctic security environment. Cooperation with Russia in Arctic forums became harder, NATO gained Finland and Sweden, and northern infrastructure became more sensitive. Greenland's location between North America, the Arctic and Europe made it increasingly important for missile warning, air routes, undersea cables and resource access.

2022-2024 - Frozen Russian assets become a precedent in financial warfare After Russia's full-scale invasion of Ukraine, Western governments immobilised roughly \$300 billion of Russian central-bank reserves, most of them held in Europe. At first, this was described as a sanctions measure designed to prevent Moscow from using its foreign reserves to stabilise its economy and fund the war. Over time, the political debate moved further, with Western governments discussing whether the interest or proceeds from those assets could be used to support Ukraine.

The freezing of Russian reserves shocked many non-Western governments because central-bank reserves had previously been treated as among the safest forms of sovereign wealth. The precedent suggested that reserve assets could be turned into geopolitical weapons in a major security crisis. For the United States and Europe, the freeze was a response to aggression and a way to impose costs without direct war with Russia. For Russia, China and several Global South governments, it was evidence that the dollar- and euro-centred reserve system carried political vulnerability.

This helped accelerate discussion of alternative payment systems. Russia expanded SPFS, its domestic financial messaging system, while China continued to promote CIPS, its Cross-Border Interbank Payment System. These systems did not replace SWIFT, but they became part of a wider strategy to reduce exposure to Western sanctions.

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In the later simulation period, the BRICS Bridge payment discussions draw from this same logic: financial infrastructure becomes security infrastructure.

2025

Trump Returns: Emergencies at the Border and Chaos Abroad

20 January: Day One Crackdowns and Executive Warfare

20 January 2025 - Immigration emergency, border militarisation and birthright-citizenship confrontation On the first day of the second Trump presidency, the administration issued orders that treated illegal immigration as a national emergency, a security crisis, a fentanyl crisis and a demographic issue. The policy direction included expanded detention, accelerated removal proceedings, increased workplace raids, broader border militarisation, third-country deportation arrangements and attempts to revoke or narrow temporary protections for migrants. The administration also terminated the CBP One migrant-entry system, expanded expedited removals, increased military presence at the southern border and pushed for deeper cooperation between local police and federal immigration authorities.

The administration also attempted to reinterpret birthright citizenship rules for children of undocumented migrants and certain temporary visa holders. That move triggered immediate constitutional litigation because it directly challenged the long-standing understanding of the Fourteenth Amendment. Supporters saw the policy as a necessary correction to what they described as abuse of citizenship rules. Opponents treated it as a direct attack on constitutional guarantees and as an effort to redefine American membership by executive order.

The immigration crackdown became humanitarian as well as legal. Families faced detention, rapid removal and separation risks. Cases involving US-citizen children removed with undocumented parents became politically explosive because they blurred the administration's claim that only non-citizens were being targeted. Reports of mistaken self-deportation notices to US citizens and disputed cases involving people claiming citizenship further intensified criticism. For foreign governments, the crackdown created consular burdens and diplomatic complaints when their nationals were removed quickly or when legal residents, students and visa-holders faced uncertainty.

20 January 2025 - Trump's second presidency begins Donald Trump's second presidential term began on 20 January 2025. In the committee scenario, the entire future timeline must be read with the freeze date set at 20 January 2029, the end of this second term. This is important for sequencing because all simulation events before that date occur within the same US presidential administration and therefore within a consistent political context.

The scenario uses this presidency as a period of sharper transactional diplomacy, heavier tariff and sanctions pressure, more direct language on allies and adversaries, and stronger willingness to connect security issues with trade, basing, minerals, migration and resource access. The Greenland, Venezuela, Iran and Taiwan strands all unfold under this broader US political setting.

20 January 2025 - Trump's second presidency begins and allied contingency planning intensifies. Supporters saw the use of emergency tools as necessary against transnational criminal groups. Critics argued that the United States was not in a declared war and that using wartime-style deportation powers against migrants collapsed the distinction between criminal enforcement, immigration law and national-security emergency. For Venezuela and other Latin American states, the policy had diplomatic implications because deported nationals, third-country removals and alleged gang designations became part of bilateral pressure. For US courts, the issue tested how far executive power could go when migration was framed as invasion.

13 March: The Signal Leak Scandal

13 March 2025 - Jeffrey Goldberg is accidentally added to a Signal group Jeffrey Goldberg later reports that he unexpectedly found himself inside a Signal chat apparently used by senior Trump administration national-security officials. The reported participants included JD Vance, Pete Hegseth, Mike Waltz, Marco Rubio, Tulsi Gabbard and

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other senior officials. The chat allegedly contained operational discussions, timing details, strike sequencing and political messaging about attacks on Houthi targets. The episode raised immediate concerns about operational security, classification, records preservation and the handling of military planning on commercial encrypted applications.

15 March: Missiles Over Yemen

15 March 2025 - United States strikes on Houthi targets begin The United States launches major strikes on Houthi infrastructure in Yemen connected to the Red Sea shipping attacks. Goldberg later claimed that the timing of the strikes matched the discussions he had seen in the Signal chat. The strikes were already significant because they tied Red Sea shipping security to direct US military action; the later leak made them even more politically damaging by connecting a live operation to a communications-security scandal.

18 March: The Gaza Ceasefire Crumbles

18 March 2025 - Israel resumes major strikes in Gaza After disputes over the ceasefire process and hostage negotiations, Israel resumed large-scale strikes. The renewed attacks made it clear that pauses were not equivalent to a settled political end state. The war moved back toward open military pressure, and the hostage issue remained central to Israeli public debate. Humanitarian organisations again warned that renewed fighting would deepen the collapse of medical services and accelerate displacement.

Mid-to-Late Year Dynamics: Civilisational Wars and Economic Fractures

2025 - Attrition, negotiations talk and Western fatigue By 2025 the war remained unresolved. Russia still occupied large areas of Ukrainian territory, while Ukraine depended on continued external aid and domestic mobilisation. Diplomatic discussion periodically returned to ceasefires or negotiations, but the central issues remained unchanged: territorial control, security guarantees, sanctions, war-crimes accountability and Ukraine's future alignment.

2025 - BRICS payment-system fragmentation accelerates The SWIFT-centred financial system came under increasing political pressure as states discussed BRICS Bridge, local-currency settlement, renminbi oil trade and non-dollar payment rails. Cross-border banking integration, digital settlement systems and sanctions-linked financial infrastructure became part of great-power rivalry. The effect was not the immediate replacement of the dollar, but a more fragmented financial landscape in which states sought ways to reduce exposure to US-controlled banking and sanctions systems.

2025 - Board-of-peace diplomacy and ceasefire brokerage attempts The administration repeatedly presented itself as trying to broker negotiations and ceasefires in international wars. This included positioning around Ukraine, Israel-Gaza and other conflicts while using direct leader-to-leader pressure, public remarks and transactional bargaining. Allies saw opportunities for faster pressure but feared unpredictable concessions. Adversaries saw openings to test whether US diplomacy could be personalised around presidential prestige rather than institutional strategy.

2025 - China-Iran oil trade becomes increasingly yuan-based China continues buying Iranian oil through non-dollar mechanisms, intermediaries and opaque tanker transfers. Washington saw this as an erosion of sanctions effectiveness because Iranian energy revenue could survive outside the traditional dollar-centred system. The pattern linked Iran policy with BRICS financial alternatives, shadow fleets, yuan settlement and the broader challenge to US sanctions power.

2025 - Domestic polarisation and civilisational rhetoric in US politics Trump's political language in 2025 included dramatic warnings about national decline and civilisational survival. Phrases suggesting that civilization itself was at stake reflected a broader shift in American politics, where domestic policy, immigration, trade, gender, education, religion and foreign policy were increasingly presented as parts of a single existential struggle.



This rhetoric mattered internationally because allies and adversaries were not only watching US policy; they were watching the emotional and ideological condition of the American state. For supporters, the language conveyed urgency and justified extraordinary measures. For critics, it normalised emergency politics and made compromise harder. For foreign governments, it suggested that US decisions could become more volatile because domestic identity politics were feeding directly into foreign-policy choices.

2025 - Epstein files controversy The Epstein files issue became politically explosive online. Supporters expected major disclosures, elite accountability and exposure of networks tied to Jeffrey Epstein, while critics accused the administration of selective disclosure and overpromising transparency. The controversy fractured segments of the MAGA coalition itself and showed how domestic conspiracy politics could bleed into public trust.

2025 - United States seeks to broker ceasefires while applying pressure abroad The second Trump administration presented itself as trying to broker negotiations and ceasefires in international wars while simultaneously applying tariffs, sanctions and military pressure. This created a contradictory but recognisable diplomatic style: public promises of peace combined with coercive bargaining.

In Ukraine, the administration placed less public emphasis on open-ended support and more on negotiation, burden-sharing and European responsibility. In Israel, it remained closely aligned with Netanyahu while also claiming to seek stabilisation. On Iran, it used sanctions and military signalling while leaving space for mediated talks.

For allies, this style was difficult to manage because peace efforts could be linked to transactional demands. For adversaries, it created uncertainty: Trump might escalate suddenly, but he might also seek a deal. For neutral states and mediators, including Gulf states, India and Oman, the approach created openings to host talks but also increased the risk that negotiations would be driven by spectacle rather than durable settlement.

2025-2026 - Hormuz corridor destabilisation reshapes energy planning As Iran tensions escalated, the Strait of Hormuz shipping corridor became politically unstable even before the worst phase of the maritime disruptions began. Under a renewed maximum-pressure style Iran policy, the United States moved toward ending or narrowing exemptions tied to Chabahar operations. The shift created anxiety in India because Indian firms could face sanctions, banking channels could tighten, shipping and insurance costs could rise, and the port's role as a Central Asia and Afghanistan access route could again become politically dangerous. Chabahar turned from a connectivity project into a test of how far Washington would pressure partners over Iran.

2026

Kidnapped Leaders and Maritime War: Kinetic Interventions Shift the Balance

Early January: Hedging Coins in Beijing and Resistance in Copenhagen

January 2026 - Saudi-China balancing alarms Washington Mohammed bin Salman visited Beijing as Saudi Arabia deepened yuan oil settlement discussions, BRICS coordination and Chinese energy ties. US officials feared that Gulf hedging was weakening dollar leverage and reducing Washington's ability to use financial pressure as a strategic instrument. The visit connected energy trade, reserve currencies, Gulf security and the future of US influence over Middle Eastern oil flows.

January 2026 - US Congress distances itself from Trump's Greenland rhetoric A bipartisan US congressional delegation travelled to Denmark to reassure allies. American lawmakers warned that Congress did not support annexation rhetoric, that NATO credibility was being damaged and that alliance trust was deteriorating. Some lawmakers discussed limiting presidential authority over unilateral military action toward Greenland, reflecting concern that the dispute could move from rhetoric into dangerous constitutional and alliance territory.

2 January: Midnight Blinding Strikes Over Caracas

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2 January 2026 - Late-night Caracas operation begins At about 1:35 a.m. During Caracas time, residents reported loud detonations, electricity disruptions, anti-aircraft fire and low-flying aircraft over the capital. Power failures hit southern sectors of Caracas. Around 1:45 a.m., US aircraft reportedly struck Venezuelan air-defence assets, radar systems, military staging areas and communications nodes near Caracas. Later reporting described more than 150 aircraft participating, including F-35s, F-22s, B-1 bombers and electronic-warfare aircraft. The first phase was intended to blind Venezuelan air defences, prevent loyalist response and isolate the Caracas command structure. Between about 2:00 and 2:30 a.m., helicopter insertions were reported over Caracas while naval forces secured Caribbean maritime corridors.

Mid-January: The Snatch Operation of President Maduro

January 2026 - US forces capture President Maduro In January 2026, the scenario timeline records US forces capturing Venezuelan President Nicolás Maduro in an operation framed by the Trump administration as a law-enforcement action under criminal indictments for narcotics trafficking and narco-terrorism. The move immediately transformed Venezuela from a sanctions and legitimacy crisis into a direct intervention crisis. Washington presented the operation as legal enforcement, while critics treated it as a breach of sovereignty and a dangerous precedent for regime removal under criminal-law language.

January 2026 - US forces capture Venezuelan President Nicolas Maduro The atmosphere after the operation is deliberately theatrical and unsettling. Washington presents it as a law-enforcement strike against a criminalised ruler, while critics across Latin America view it with alarm. By early 2026, Gaza remained devastated and politically unresolved. Israeli operations continued against surviving Hamas figures, while Hamas tried to preserve command structures and political relevance. Reports in May 2026 described Israeli strikes against senior Hamas military leadership, including Mohammad Odeh, after earlier leadership losses. The conflict had therefore entered a phase of continued targeted killing, reconstruction paralysis, displaced civilian life and stalled governance negotiations rather than a clean post-war settlement.

Mid-January 2026 - Trump's Venezuela oil comments create a colonialism controversy Trump made comments interpreted globally as implying direct US management of Venezuelan oil flows. Reports quoted him suggesting that the United States would supervise petroleum revenues, protect energy infrastructure and indirectly manage export channels. Latin American reactions were explosive. Brazil, Bolivia, Cuba and other governments described the arrangement as colonial, interventionist and a violation of sovereignty. The controversy strengthened claims that the operation had been about energy capture as much as law enforcement.

February: Cold Standoffs in the High North and Wargames in the East

February 2026 - Arctic strategy shifts around Greenland The United States increasingly framed Greenland as part of missile defence, Golden Dome-style Arctic security and anti-China containment in the High North. Strategists linked the island to rare earths, submarine monitoring, AI-era minerals and future Arctic shipping lanes opened by climate change. For Greenlanders, Denmark and Canada, the language reinforced fears that the island was being treated less as a society with self-rule and more as a strategic platform.

February 2026 - High-stakes meeting producing no breakthrough but creating a high-level working group The meeting is tense because each side enters with a different definition of consent. Washington speaks in the language of Arctic defence and logistics, Copenhagen speaks in the language of sovereignty and alliance management, and Nuuk speaks in the language of self-rule, environment and dignity. The result is not a deal but a colder, more formal process.

A high-stakes meeting between the United States, Denmark and Greenland produces no breakthrough but creates a high-level working group. The meeting confirms that Greenland has become a direct strategic question among Washington, Copenhagen and Nuuk. Greenlandic consultation, self-rule and Danish sovereignty become linked in



the same negotiation space. The immediate outcome is a working group rather than basing approval. Negotiations focus on logistics options rather than open military deployment. Greenland's strategic minerals, Arctic logistics and infrastructure potential become central bargaining assets. Indigenous consultation, environmental protection and local consent begin to emerge as social considerations.

February 2026 - Taiwan simulates a Chinese sea assault Taiwan simulates a Chinese sea assault across multiple entry points simultaneously. Taiwan signals resilience and prepares its population and institutions for sustained coercion. The drill tests multi-point defence, mobilisation and coastal response under invasion conditions. Any Taiwan contingency threatens semiconductor supply chains and South China Sea trade flows. Civilian preparedness becomes part of national resilience as invasion drills intensify. The drill is watched closely by the US, Japan, China and regional states concerned about escalation.

Mid-March: Drones, Mines, and the Battle for Hormuz

13-15 March 2026 - Drone and mine warfare phase begins in the Gulf Reports emerged of suspected naval mines, drone harassment, near-interceptions and electronic interference against ships. Commercial traffic collapsed further. Iran avoided a full naval battle and instead relied on ambiguity, deniable attacks and economic intimidation, a classic asymmetric approach designed to impose costs without offering the United States a clear conventional target set. Brent crude surged amid fears of a full Hormuz closure, tanker seizures and a collapse of Gulf exports. China, India, Japan and South Korea were among the most exposed states because of their dependence on Gulf oil and LNG. Emergency fuel planning, reserve calculations and alternative routing discussions accelerated across Asia and Europe.

17 March: The War of Narratives Begins

17 March 2026 - Iran blames the United States for global shipping chaos Iranian officials declare that the United States and Israel had turned Gulf waters into a war zone. Tehran framed itself as defending sovereignty, resisting economic warfare and protecting regional independence. Washington framed Iran as violating freedom of navigation, threatening world trade and weaponising chokepoints. The two narratives hardened at the same time as shipping firms were already rerouting vessels and energy markets were pricing in prolonged instability.

19 March: US Jets Scream Over the Strait

19 March 2026 - United States Strait of Hormuz campaign begins The United States formally began air and naval operations to reopen Hormuz. Targets included IRGC boats, drones, launch systems and naval infrastructure. This marked the shift from containment into maritime war. Washington's objective was to restore commercial navigation and break Iranian leverage, while Iran treated the campaign as proof that the United States intended to impose a new Gulf order by force.

Late March: Secret Channels and Hard Lines

Late March 2026 - Backchannel diplomacy intensifies through Pakistan, Oman and Qatar Backchannel diplomacy intensified through Pakistan, Oman, Qatar and indirect European channels. Pakistan became a surprising mediator because it had ties with Gulf monarchies, working relations with Iran and communication access to Washington. Oman remained the quiet diplomatic channel, while Qatar and European actors tried to prevent the maritime war from turning into a broader regional conflict.

31 March 2026 - United States strikes on Houthi targets begin / United States hardens its stabilisation-first line US messaging hardened at the end of March. Washington signalled that it would prioritise security control before de-escalation and that negotiations would come only after stabilisation. The line implied a prolonged pressure campaign, continued sanctions and military coercion before diplomacy. In the Venezuela theatre, similar language also appeared around transition planning, making stabilisation-first rhetoric one of the administration's defining habits across multiple crises.



31 March - 1 April: The Venezuela Protectorate Blueprint

31 March-1 April 2026 - US messaging hardens on Venezuela transition The wording matters because it suggests a transition without a clock. For Venezuelans who opposed Maduro, the message is both hopeful and alarming: the regime has been shaken, but the path to elections is now controlled by an outside power that is also interested in oil, sanctions relief and security access. US Secretary of State Marco Rubio states that Venezuela will need a transition phase and free elections before normalisation. A day later, US messaging hardens into “stabilisation first, transition second, elections later,” with no clear timeline. The order of priorities shifts from immediate democratic restoration to security control first. This creates suspicion that transition may be delayed under a protectorate-style logic. US-backed stabilisation becomes more likely before elections. Loyalist and rebel forces may interpret delay as evidence of occupation or manipulated transition. Delayed elections allow external actors greater leverage over oil assets, sanctions relief and reconstruction contracts. A longer transition period can reduce disorder.

April: Rules of Closure and Ship Seizures

April 2026 - Iran introduces safety lanes in the Strait of Hormuz Iran asserts regulatory authority over one of the world’s most important energy chokepoints. The safety-lane requirement gives Iran a coercive tool short of closure and creates friction with freedom-of-navigation claims. Oil shipping, insurance premiums and tanker routing become exposed to Iranian administrative control. Energy price increases could affect importing states and vulnerable populations. Shipping firms request IMO clarification on the legality of Iranian lane requirements under UNCLOS transit-passage rights.

17 April: A Brief Respite at Sea

17 April 2026 - Iran temporarily reopens Hormuz Iran announced that commercial transit through Hormuz could resume. Tehran wanted sanctions relief, legitimacy and negotiation leverage, but the US blockade remained in place. The reopening therefore did not settle the crisis. It created a temporary gap between Iran’s attempt to regain diplomatic space and Washington’s insistence that coercive maritime pressure could not be rewarded.

18 April: The Trap Closes Again

18 April 2026 - Iran recloses Hormuz after blockade dispute Iran reversed course after the United States refused to lift blockade measures. The result was a dual-blockade situation: Iran restricted navigation through the Strait, while the United States restricted Iranian shipping. Commercial actors faced uncertainty not only over missiles and drones but also over which authority could legally guarantee passage.

19 April: The High Seas Seizure of the Touska

19 April 2026 - United States seizes the Iranian vessel Touska US forces seized the Iranian vessel Touska, marking the movement of the blockade from a declared policy into physical enforcement. The seizure increased Iranian accusations of piracy and deepened the risk that naval enforcement would produce direct casualties or hostage-style bargaining.

21 April: Islamabad Buys Time

21 April 2026 - Trump extends the ceasefire window at Pakistan’s request Trump extended the truce window at Pakistan’s request while Islamabad continued mediation. The move showed that Washington still preferred a negotiated reopening over total war, even while maintaining heavy pressure. Pakistan’s role became more visible because it was one of the few channels able to speak with Washington, Tehran and Gulf actors without appearing completely aligned with one side.

22-23 April: Carrots, Sticks, and Underwater Mines

22-23 April 2026 - Sanctions relief and mine threats shape the blockade phase The United States extended selective sanctions relief while also threatening to destroy Iranian mine-laying boats. Trump ordered US Navy forces to destroy vessels laying mines, signalling preparation for sustained maritime enforcement. The combination of



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22-23 April 2026 - Sanctions relief and mine threats shape the blockade phase. The United States extended selective sanctions relief while also threatening to destroy Iranian mine-laying boats. Trump ordered US Navy forces to destroy vessels laying mines, signalling preparation for sustained maritime enforcement. The combination of selective relief and hard military threats showed the administration's effort to keep diplomatic options open while making clear that it would not accept Iranian control over navigation.

25 April: Whispers in Muscat

25 April 2026 - Oman mediation intensifies. Iranian Foreign Minister Abbas Araghchi met Oman's Sultan Haitham as Oman intensified quiet mediation. Fisheries, seabed resources, trade routes and maritime access are central stakes. Fishing communities and coastal livelihoods remain vulnerable to harassment and restrictions. The case keeps international legal mechanisms relevant despite enforcement limitations.

SECTION 02 — NATO and European Security: Rearmament and Fractures

“Trump has gotten the Europeans’ attention. The response was swift and substantial — Europe’s biggest rearmament of the postwar era.”



— *Foreign Affairs, November 2025*

The 5% GDP Target — Hague Summit, June 2025

Trump's first meeting with NATO Secretary-General Mark Rutte in March 2025 was followed immediately by a declaration that allies reach 5% of GDP in defence spending. At the June 2025 Hague Summit in The Hague, all 32 NATO members agreed to the most significant collective defence commitment in the alliance's history: 3.5% of GDP on core military capabilities plus an additional 1.5% on broader security, infrastructure, and industrial base needs, with a target of 5% by 2035. The European Commission simultaneously proposed ReArm Europe, a five-point plan allowing up to €800 billion in EU-wide defence spending, including €150 billion from EU funds.

- Poland deployed 40,000 additional troops to its eastern and northern borders following Trump's commitments
- France committed to joint air patrols over Polish airspace and increased Baltic Sea naval presence
- European contributions to Ukraine increased from \$12.2 billion per quarter (Biden era) to \$18.8 billion (Trump era)
- The NATO Secretary-General announced the target must reach "considerably more than 3%" at a minimum
- Germany abandoned its post-war *Sonderweg* security culture; the Bundestag approved a historic €100 billion special defence fund

Key Alliance Tensions in 2025–2026

Despite record rearmament spending, the Trump administration's 2025 NSS introduced unprecedented strains within NATO. The document characterised Europe as at risk of "civilizational erasure," endorsed "patriotic European patriotism" widely interpreted as far-right movements, and called for the US to "cultivate resistance within European nations." German Foreign Minister Waidephul stated that questions about "the organisation of free societies" are "not part of alliance discussions."

In April 2026, Spain publicly declared that the United States "has no hegemony" over the Strait of Hormuz following a clash with US Secretary of Defence Pete Hegseth. Leaked emails reportedly contained demands that Spain be removed from NATO. Spain's Prime Minister Sánchez reaffirmed Spain as a "reliable NATO partner", but the incident exposed the depth of tensions over alliance governance. The Trump administration also briefly paused intelligence sharing with Ukraine in March 2025 — an act without precedent in the alliance's history. The administration considered ceding NATO command that has been exclusively American since the Eisenhower era.

Ukraine: The Alliance Test Case

The London Summit on Ukraine on March 2, 2025, brought 18 world leaders together to coordinate support for Kyiv. The G7 launched a multilateral framework of bilateral security commitments for Ukraine. However, Trump demanded Ukrainian rare earth mineral access in exchange for US assistance — a transactional demand with no precedent in the history of the alliance. Ukraine's survival as a "viable state" is committed to in the 2025 NSS, but the mechanism for achieving this goal is not specified. NATO membership for Ukraine is effectively blocked by the 2025 NSS's explicit opposition to the open-door policy.

THE GREENLAND-NATO PARADOX



One of the most acute internal NATO tensions concerns Greenland, which is Danish territory and therefore covered by NATO's Article 5 collective defence guarantee. Trump's repeated threats to "acquire" Greenland — including stating that "military force is not ruled out" — place the alliance in an impossible position: the primary threat to Danish territorial integrity is currently the United States itself, the alliance's leading member. This creates profound legal and political questions about the meaning of collective defence that delegates must address. If Greenland is not a NATO member in its own right, its exclusion from the Article 5 umbrella could make it vulnerable to coercive pressure from any direction.

The European rearmament now underway represents the most profound structural change in European security since the Soviet dissolution. European states are building their own defence industrial capacity, reducing reliance on US weapons systems, expanding their nuclear deterrence discussions (France has raised the possibility of a European nuclear umbrella) and increasing European contributions to NATO command structures. This process, accelerated by Trump transactionalism, may ultimately produce a more self-sufficient European security architecture — but the transition period is acutely vulnerable.

SECTION 03 — ASEAN and the Indo-Pacific

"ASEAN's future will depend on its political will to evolve from a forum of dialogue to a more cohesive community of action capable of upholding international law." — CSIS, November 2025

The Philippines as 2026 ASEAN Chair

The Philippines assumed the 2026 ASEAN chairmanship at a historically significant and acutely difficult moment. It coincides with the tenth anniversary of the 2016 arbitral award ruling that China continues to reject. President Marcos Jr. has made finalising the South China Sea Code of Conduct his centrepiece priority — a goal that Chatham House assesses as "very unlikely" given the military confrontations with China that defined 2025 and China's structural unwillingness to accept a legally binding framework.

The Philippines faces a profound domestic-international tension. President Marcos Jr.'s approval rating has reached an all-time low, with \$1.76 billion in corruption allegations creating political vulnerability. The Philippines is simultaneously seeking to uphold international law in the South China Sea, manage a complex relationship with China that is both a major trading partner and a military adversary, and navigate Trump's transactional demands for greater payment for US defence commitments. The April 2026 Balikatan exercise — the largest ever, involving the US, Australia, Japan, Canada, France, and New Zealand — represents a significant deepening of the Philippines' multilateral security architecture.

ASEAN Centrality vs Security Realities

The structural tension at the heart of ASEAN in 2025–26 is the gap between the organisation's collective diplomatic posture and individual member states' rapidly expanding bilateral security arrangements. Malaysia's 2025 chairmanship stressed "ASEAN centrality" and warned against "outside forces." The Philippines simultaneously signed defence agreements with Canada (the first Canadian Status of Visiting Forces Agreement in the Indo-Pacific), Japan (Reciprocal

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Access Agreement), South Korea, Germany, India, and New Zealand during the same period. Vietnam is deepening defence ties with the United States while maintaining its relationship with Russia. Indonesia, the largest ASEAN member, advocates for non-alignment. This structural incoherence limits ASEAN's collective capacity to respond to Chinese military pressure.

The Thailand-Cambodia border conflict — which saw clashes in July 2025 and a Malaysian-brokered ceasefire followed by renewed fighting and Thai airstrikes in December 2025 — demonstrates that the South China Sea is not the only security crisis confronting ASEAN. Myanmar's ongoing civil war, now in its fourth year following the 2021 military coup, has produced a humanitarian catastrophe on ASEAN's doorstep that the organisation's Five-Point Consensus has completely failed to address. The Philippines must manage these multiple crises as ASEAN chair while pursuing the COC conclusion that defines its chairmanship.

SECTION 04 — Venezuela and Iran: The Disrupted Axis

Venezuela: The Full Disruption Story

The Venezuela-Iran-Russia axis was one of the most significant features of the international sanctions evasion architecture of the early 2020s. Understanding its disruption in January 2026 requires understanding its construction. In June 2022, Venezuela and Iran signed a 20-year cooperation agreement covering oil, industry, and defence. Iran supplied Venezuela with fast

attack boats, anti-ship missiles, drones and maintained Hezbollah intelligence networks in the country. Russia provided diplomatic cover in the UN Security Council, weapons systems, and the shadow fleet tanker infrastructure through which Venezuelan crude was exported in defiance of US sanctions. North Korea supplied weapons components that were routed through multiple intermediaries.

The January 2026 operation — which combined the capture of Maduro with the interception of the shadow fleet vessel *Bella 1* in what US officials told Reuters was a "simultaneous, coordinated operation across multiple domains" — disrupted this architecture materially but not completely. The underlying government structure, military command, and Colectivo armed networks remain partially intact. The exile opposition, which in September 2026 published a provisional charter and named a provisional council (detailed in the projected timeline section), is seeking international recognition and access to frozen Venezuelan state assets to fund transitional governance. The US is supporting this process, but its own credibility as a supporter of democratic transitions is complicated by the Maduro capture itself, which bypassed an international legal framework.

Iran: From Strikes to Negotiations

The June 2025 Twelve-Day War fundamentally altered the terms of Iran's nuclear situation. Before the strikes, Iran had accumulated sufficient enriched uranium to produce multiple nuclear weapons within weeks, according to IAEA reports. After the strikes, the status of Iran's nuclear material and the extent of damage to its enrichment infrastructure remained uncertain, partly because Iran has restricted IAEA access in ways that the agency described in its September 2025 board

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report as "unprecedented." The Stimson Centre's analysis — published in Foreign Affairs — argued that the strike paradoxically strengthened the case for weaponisation within Iran's political establishment, because Iran now possesses concrete evidence of the existential threat it faces without a nuclear deterrent.

The February 2026 indirect talks in Oman represented a genuine diplomatic breakthrough. Iran's offer to "never, ever have nuclear material to create a bomb" — if verifiable and permanent — would address the core non-proliferation concern. But the US demand for zero enrichment is politically impossible for any Iranian government to accept publicly, given that civilian nuclear enrichment rights are explicitly guaranteed under the NPT and are a matter of national pride in Iran's domestic politics. The Vienna talks that followed are the most significant diplomatic process in the Hormuz region since the original JCPOA was signed in 2015.

CONNECTION TO DISEC'S CORE MANDATE

The Iran case simultaneously illustrates: (1) the collapse of arms control treaties (JCPOA abandoned, snapback triggered); (2) great power complicity in proliferation (Russia and China resist maximum pressure); (3) the governance gap for military action against nuclear programmes; and (4) the limits of deterrence when a state perceives an existential threat from military strikes. What new international frameworks, if any, could prevent this pattern from repeating with North Korea or another aspirant nuclear state? This is one of the committee's most consequential questions.

July: The Trade War Escalates

July 2026 - EU retaliates against US steel and aluminium tariffs. The European Union imposes targeted tariffs on US agricultural products, affecting USD 34 billion of US exports to Europe. Transatlantic economic friction complicates Western unity. The dispute is not military, but it weakens the appearance of seamless G7 coordination. Agricultural exports become a retaliation target, showing that resource and food trade can be politicised. Tariff escalation may affect farmers, consumers and food prices. The dispute becomes part of wider trade-law and WTO-related friction.

The economic strand shows how strategic rivalry increasingly works through trade, currency settlement, sanctions, export controls and payment infrastructure. These measures are less visible than troop movements but can change state behaviour by affecting revenue, imports, insurance, reserves and access to technology.

September: Shocks on the Nile and Solidifying Blocs

September 2026 - Red Sea and Gulf disruptions connect to Egyptian stability. Suez revenue decline becomes a national financial emergency. Economic dependence reduces policy autonomy and increases domestic pressure on the government. Red Sea and Gulf disruptions now connect directly to Egyptian stability. Debt and austerity concerns may affect living costs and public welfare. The IMF becomes central to stabilising a state whose geography is globally strategic.

September 2026 - Iran president visits Beijing during the SCO sidelines. Iran uses the SCO setting and Beijing's visit to strengthen diplomatic and economic channels under Western pressure. Iran deepens ties with China as an alternative to Western-led pressure. The visit supports a diplomatic shield while Gulf maritime tensions rise.

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Energy trade, payment systems and sanctions evasion are key background issues. Sanctions pressure continues to affect Iran's economy and civilian conditions. SCO and China-linked diplomacy become counterweights to G7 sanctions frameworks.

18 - 27 October: Operation Southern Liberty and Rebellion

October-December 2026 - Indigenous demands and Danish legal clarification. In October 2026, Operation Southern Liberty was launched on 18 October. On 27 October, Bolivarian rebel forces seized parts of Caracas, Anzoategui and Bolivar states and proclaimed an independent authority.

November: Bloodshed and the Partition of Venezuela

In November, a Bolivarian leader was killed in disputed circumstances. On 22 November, Western Venezuela was formally declared a US protectorate pending democratic elections. Venezuela is divided between exile/transitional forces, Bolivarian resistance and US-protected western territories.

The protectorate declaration creates a legitimacy crisis. US military action and rebel territorial seizures turn the transition into an armed internal conflict. Zulia oil and other resource-rich regions become central to protectorate politics and accusations of resource control. Urban violence, displacement, contested administration and fear of reprisals increase. The UNSC holds a session on Venezuela, and the ICC preliminary process becomes politically sensitive.

2027

The Brink of Economic Collapse: Ultimata and Open Fire in the Gulf

5 October: The Total Seal of the Strait

October 31- December 2027 - Hormuz crisis escalates and then ends under coercive pressure. The closure is the crisis everyone had planned for and hoped never to see. Oil markets react before diplomats finish their statements. Naval commanders, insurers, tanker crews and energy ministries all move into emergency mode at once. The reopening does not look like a victory for anyone; it looks like a forced pause after all sides learn how quickly one chokepoint can threaten the world economy.

Iran seals the Strait of Hormuz on 5 October after a second US carrier strike group arrives. G7 and BRICS consultations occur.

9 November: Black Smoke in the Gulf of Oman

Iranian drones strike US tankers in the Gulf of Oman on 9 November.

12 December: Firestorms Over Isfahan and Tabriz

US and Israeli aircraft strike missile production sites in Isfahan and Tabriz on 12 December.

21 - 31 December: The New Year Ultimatum Reopens the Corridor

India activates backchannel diplomacy on 21 December. Iran forcibly reopens the Strait on 31 December after a US ultimatum backed by a third carrier group and threats against port infrastructure. Port access, basing rights, and Red Sea shipping lanes become high-value strategic assets. Houthi harassment and militarisation can threaten



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civilian shipping and regional livelihoods. India later brokered an Aden Strait de-escalation framework involving Djibouti, Yemeni provisional authorities and shipping bodies.

2028

Legal Battles and Forced Normalisation: The Aftermath of Chokepoint Wars

Multi-Month Structural Evolution: Rebuilding Shattered Trust

2028 - WTO rules against US tariffs on Chinese semiconductor components. The ruling shows that legal institutions still speak, even when the largest powers are no longer eager to listen. The semiconductor dispute is commercial on paper but strategic in effect, because chips sit at the centre of both civilian economies and military systems. The WTO Dispute Settlement Body finds US tariffs on Chinese semiconductor components inconsistent with WTO obligations. The ruling challenges the US use of tariffs as strategic competition tools. Semiconductors remain tied to military technology and Taiwan crisis planning. Chip supply chains become both legal and strategic battlegrounds. No direct humanitarian development, though technology costs and supply chains remain sensitive. Payment systems, oil routes, Arctic minerals, semiconductors and shipping corridors remain strategic tools. Displacement, energy insecurity, political violence and economic stress remain unevenly distributed across affected regions. Technical institutions such as IMO remain useful, but broad political consensus is weaker than in earlier post-Cold War periods.

April - June Provincial Windows: Voting Under the Eye of the Protectorate

2028-January 2029 - Elections, verification and unresolved legitimacy. In April 2028, the exile council held the first monitored local election in one province under international observation. In June 2028, it negotiated terms for a monitored transitional security arrangement in three western provinces, excluding the US-controlled Zulia oil region.

November - December Frameworks: Stabilising the North and West

In November 2028, a monitored confidence vote produced an 81 per cent mandate for the provisional council's roadmap toward democratic elections.

2028-January 2029 - Final framework and Arctic institutionalisation. In 2028, the EU Greenland Autonomy Framework was tabled at a NATO Foreign Ministers' meeting, and the ICJ advisory process on Greenland self-determination became part of the legal background. By November 2028, a major civilian scientific logistics facility north of Kangerlussuaq reached a construction milestone.

2028-January 2029 - Corridor normalisation and Iran observer-plus status. In 2028, the Gulf information-sharing corridor centre began limited live operations in Oman, and Iran signed a technical agreement on dispute resolution for corridor incidents. In December 2028, the corridor centre and IMO published an annual operations report showing gradual normalisation.

2029

Cold Peace: Unresolved Flags and Rigid Governance Structures

2 January: The Maritime Ledger is Written

2 January 2029 - IMO publishes updated Gulf information-sharing centre metrics. The IMO releases updated operational metrics for the Gulf centre. The Gulf corridor is now treated as an established governance mechanism



rather than a crisis improvisation. Operational data supports deconfliction between shipping, naval actors and regional states. More predictable shipping supports energy-market stability. Stability in energy transit reduces indirect pressure on civilian populations. The IMO's technical role remains central to post-Hormuz normalisation.

6 January: The Green Arctic Compromise

6 January 2029 - Denmark and Greenland publish final benefit-sharing and oversight framework After 18 months of negotiation, Denmark and Greenland publish the final signed benefit-sharing and oversight framework after eighteen months of negotiation. The final arrangement did not remove great-power competition from the Arctic, but it placed foreign logistics under a more formal local-consent and oversight structure before the simulation freeze date of 20 January 2029.

10 - 14 January: A Freeze on the Geopolitical Chessboard

On 10 January 2029, the exile council released final verification materials from the monitored confidence vote and provincial elections. Even with monitored processes, the central legitimacy dispute remained unresolved because foreign security control, oil-region exclusion and internal resistance all shaped the transition.

On 14 January 2029, mediators in Oman confirmed Iran's formal observer-plus status in the Gulf corridor governance framework, with Iran maintaining reservations on long-term legal questions. This left the Strait open before the freeze date, but with unresolved disputes over law, sovereignty and corridor governance.

20 January: Freeze Date

Trump's Second Presidency ENDS.

SECTION 7 — Delayed International Projects in Infrastructure, Trade Deals, Strategic Treaties and Cooperations

Delayed International Projects, Trade Corridors, Strategic Treaties and Infrastructure Cooperation, 2022–2026

From 2022 onward, several major international projects stopped being merely economic or technical ventures. Pipelines, ports, trade corridors, sanctions waivers, rail links, nuclear treaties and maritime routes became instruments of geopolitical pressure. Projects that had once been marketed as symbols of interdependence increasingly became hostage to war, sanctions, domestic politics, regime rivalry and great-power competition.

The delay of these projects is significant because it shows how global security architecture was no longer being shaped only by armies or formal alliances. It was also being shaped by who controlled ports, pipelines, shipping lanes, payment systems, rail corridors, energy exports and



sanctions exemptions.

26 September 2022 — Nord Stream pipeline sabotage

On 26 September 2022, underwater explosions damaged the Nord Stream 1 and Nord Stream 2 gas pipelines in the Baltic Sea. These pipelines had been built to carry Russian gas directly to Germany and had long symbolised Europe's dependence on Russian energy. After Russia's invasion of Ukraine, Nord Stream had already become politically toxic. Germany had suspended certification of Nord Stream 2, Russia had reduced gas flows through Nord Stream 1, and Europe was rapidly trying to replace Russian pipeline gas with LNG imports and alternative suppliers.

The sabotage made the delay permanent in political terms. Even though the pipelines were not functioning normally at the time, the blasts turned Nord Stream into a symbol of destroyed energy interdependence. For Germany, it marked the collapse of a decades-long assumption that economic links with Russia could moderate Moscow's behaviour. For Eastern European states, especially Poland and the Baltic states, it confirmed warnings that Russian energy infrastructure was a strategic vulnerability. For Russia, the destruction became part of a wider narrative that the West was waging economic and infrastructural war.

The wider consequence was that the undersea infrastructure itself became a security issue. Pipelines, data cables, power connectors and offshore energy networks were no longer viewed as neutral commercial assets. They became potential targets in hybrid warfare. The Nord Stream episode, therefore, delayed any serious return to Russia-Europe pipeline normalisation and forced Europe to treat energy infrastructure as part of defence planning.

2022–2023 — Russian oil price cap and shadow tanker networks

After the invasion of Ukraine, the G7 and its partners created a price-cap mechanism on Russian oil. The aim was to reduce Russian revenue while keeping oil flowing into global markets. In practice, the system produced a new phase of economic warfare. Russia responded by expanding shadow tanker fleets, using alternative insurance channels, deepening sales to non-Western buyers and increasing trade settlement outside the dollar system where possible.

This did not delay one single project; it delayed the older model of predictable global energy governance. Maritime insurance, tanker ownership, ship registration and payment routes became politicised. The oil trade became less transparent. India, China and other major buyers continued to purchase Russian oil, while Western states tried to restrict Moscow's revenue without causing an oil shock. The result was a more fragmented energy market in which sanctions compliance, shadow shipping and alternative payment systems became permanent features.

2022–2023 — Frozen Russian assets and the weaponisation of reserves

Western countries froze roughly \$300 billion of Russian central-bank reserves after the invasion of Ukraine. This measure shocked many non-Western governments because it showed that sovereign reserves held in Western jurisdictions could become geopolitical instruments. The



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decision strengthened debates in China, Russia, Iran, Saudi Arabia and other states about reducing exposure to dollar-based systems and Western-controlled financial infrastructure.

This development slowed confidence in older assumptions about reserve safety and global financial neutrality. It also accelerated interest in alternative settlement systems, including Russia's SPFS, China's CIPS, local-currency trade and BRICS-linked financial mechanisms. The project delayed here was not a single bridge or pipeline, but the broader post-Cold War model of global financial integration. Strategic cooperation increasingly began to include payment systems, reserve diversification and sanctions-proof trade channels.

2022–2023 — Black Sea grain and maritime export corridors

The Black Sea became another example of how war could interrupt a major trade route. Ukraine's grain exports depended heavily on Black Sea ports. After Russia's invasion, maritime routes were disrupted, threatening food security in parts of Africa, the Middle East and Asia. The Black Sea Grain Initiative temporarily restored some movement of grain, but the arrangement remained fragile, dependent on Russian consent, Turkish mediation, UN involvement and battlefield calculations.

When the arrangement broke down, it showed that humanitarian trade corridors could not be separated from military leverage. Grain, ports, insurance, naval access and sanctions all became interconnected. For importing states, especially in the Global South, the Black Sea disruption exposed the danger of depending on conflict-zone export corridors. For Russia and Ukraine, maritime trade routes became part of wartime bargaining power.

21 February 2023 — Russia suspends participation in New START

On 21 February 2023, Russia suspended participation in New START, the last major nuclear arms-control treaty between the United States and Russia. This was not an infrastructure project, but it was a strategic treaty whose delay and breakdown directly affected international security architecture. The treaty had limited deployed strategic nuclear warheads and provided inspection mechanisms. Its suspension weakened the remaining structure of post-Cold War nuclear restraint.

The delay here was diplomatic and strategic: the prospect of negotiating a replacement framework before the treaty's 2026 expiry became increasingly remote. Russia linked arms control to the wider confrontation over Ukraine and NATO. The United States and its allies saw the suspension as another sign that Moscow was willing to weaken arms-control architecture during wartime. For DISEC, this matters because it shows how territorial wars can paralyse even unrelated global-security agreements.

2023 — India-Middle East-Europe Economic Corridor announced, then slowed by war

The India-Middle East-Europe Economic Corridor was announced at the G20 Summit in New Delhi in September 2023. It was presented as a major connectivity project linking India to Europe through the United Arab Emirates, Saudi Arabia, Jordan, Israel and European ports. The corridor



was intended to combine ports, railways, roads, energy infrastructure and digital connectivity. It was also widely understood as a strategic counterweight to China's Belt and Road Initiative.

However, the Israel-Gaza war that began in October 2023 immediately complicated the project. Any corridor passing through Israel and the wider Middle East became politically and logistically harder to implement. Arab-Israeli normalisation became more sensitive, Saudi-Israeli diplomacy slowed, and security risks around the Red Sea, Gaza, Lebanon and the wider region made long-term planning more uncertain.

The delay exposed the central weakness of mega-corridor diplomacy: trade projects require political calm across every transit node. Even if India, the Gulf states, Europe and the United States remained interested, the corridor's credibility depended on regional stability. IMEC therefore became less a completed project and more a strategic promise waiting for a favourable geopolitical window.

2023–2025 — EU-Mercosur trade agreement remains trapped in domestic politics

The EU-Mercosur trade agreement had already been under negotiation for more than two decades, but from 2023 to 2025, it became another example of a delayed international economic project. The agreement promised closer trade between Europe and South America, especially in agriculture, automobiles, machinery and industrial goods. However, it faced strong resistance from European farmers and governments worried about agricultural competition, environmental standards and domestic political backlash.

France became one of the most vocal opponents of the agreement in its existing form, demanding stronger safeguards for farmers and environmental protections. Germany and Spain generally favoured the agreement because it offered economic diversification away from excessive dependence on China and the United States. The result was a strategic trade project caught between geopolitical necessity and domestic political resistance.

The delay showed that even when governments support trade diversification, domestic constituencies can block or slow implementation. In a fragmented world economy, trade agreements became harder to finalise because they were judged not only on commercial value, but also on food security, climate rules, labour standards, farmer protests and strategic autonomy.

2023–2025 — Sweden and Finland's NATO accession process changes the Baltic security map

Finland and Sweden's decision to join NATO after Russia's invasion of Ukraine represented a major strategic shift, but the process also showed how alliance expansion can be delayed by internal bargaining. Finland joined NATO in April 2023, while Sweden's accession took longer because of Turkish and Hungarian objections before it formally joined in March 2024.

The delay did not stop NATO enlargement, but it revealed the political price of alliance consensus. Turkey used the process to raise concerns over Kurdish groups, arms restrictions and wider security guarantees. Hungary also delayed approval, showing how domestic and bilateral



politics can slow strategic decisions even during a major European war.

Once completed, Nordic enlargement transformed the Baltic security environment. Finland's entry doubled NATO's direct land border with Russia, while Sweden's entry strengthened NATO's position around the Baltic Sea. The delayed accession process, therefore, became a case study in how strategic cooperation may be urgent militarily but slow institutionally.

2024 — Chabahar Port agreement revived under sanctions pressure

In May 2024, India signed a 10-year agreement with Iran to develop and operate Chabahar Port. For India, Chabahar was not simply a port project. It was a long-standing strategic dream: access to Afghanistan, Central Asia and Russia while bypassing Pakistan. It is also linked to the International North-South Transport Corridor, which aims to connect India with Iran, Central Asia, Russia and Europe through a shorter multimodal route.

However, Chabahar remained vulnerable to United States sanctions on Iran. Washington warned after the 2024 agreement that entities doing business with Iran could face sanctions risk. India, therefore, had to balance three interests at once: maintaining strategic autonomy, preserving ties with the United States, and keeping access to Iran and Central Asia open.

The project's delay was caused not by a lack of Indian interest but by the geopolitical environment around Iran. Chabahar could not move like an ordinary infrastructure project because every port investment, shipping arrangement, insurance channel and payment mechanism had to be measured against sanctions exposure.

2024–2025 — Red Sea disruption delays shipping normalisation and corridor planning

From late 2023 into 2024 and 2025, Houthi attacks on commercial shipping in the Red Sea, Bab el-Mandeb and Gulf of Aden disrupted one of the world's most important maritime routes. Container ships, tankers and naval vessels were targeted, forcing many companies to reroute around Africa. This has increased shipping times, insurance costs and uncertainty around global supply chains.

The Red Sea disruption affected more than immediate maritime traffic. It weakened confidence in corridor projects that depended on Middle Eastern stability, including IMEC and wider Indo-Mediterranean connectivity. It also placed pressure on Egypt by reducing predictable Suez Canal traffic and revenue. Naval deployments under Western-led maritime security operations reduced some risks but did not restore full confidence.

This period showed how non-state armed groups could delay international trade projects without controlling a state. A militia with missiles and drones could alter insurance markets, shipping routes, energy flows and diplomatic calculations across continents.

2025 — Strategic technology and defence cooperation becomes slower but more militarised

By 2025, several strategic cooperation projects were moving forward more slowly because they



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had become tied to export controls, sanctions, supply-chain security and military risk. Semiconductor cooperation, AI governance, drone technology, missile defence, undersea cable security and cyber infrastructure became part of the same geopolitical contest.

The United States and its allies increasingly treated technology supply chains as security infrastructure. China viewed these restrictions as containment. Middle powers tried to benefit from diversification while avoiding full alignment with either bloc. This produced delays in technology deals, investment approvals and cross-border cooperation, especially in sectors with dual-use potential.

The broader trend was clear: the more strategic a technology became, the harder it became to treat it as a normal commercial project.

October 2025 — The US grants India a six-month Chabahar sanctions waiver

In October 2025, the United States granted India a six-month sanctions waiver to operate Chabahar Port. This temporarily supported India's effort to maintain access to Afghanistan and Central Asia through Iran while avoiding Pakistan. For New Delhi, the waiver preserved an important strategic route. For Washington, it was a controlled exception, not a full normalisation of Iranian trade.

The waiver also showed Chabahar's fragile status. India could operate, but only within a limited diplomatic window. Banks, insurers, shipping companies and contractors remained cautious because the project still depended on the US sanctions policy. Iran saw the waiver system as evidence that Washington was trying to control even non-Western infrastructure routes.

2025–2026 — IMEC, I2U2 and Indo-Mediterranean projects remain politically attractive but operationally delayed

By 2025 and 2026, the India-Middle East-Europe corridor, I2U2 cooperation and wider Indo-Mediterranean connectivity projects remained attractive on paper. India, the UAE, Israel, Europe and the United States continued to see value in trade, technology, food security, energy and infrastructure cooperation. However, regional war, Israeli-Palestinian tensions, Red Sea insecurity, Iran-US confrontation and uncertain Saudi-Israeli normalisation slowed the practical implementation of these projects.

The delay was not caused by a lack of ambition. It was caused by the fact that every node in the corridor had become politically sensitive. Israel was at war, the Red Sea was unstable, Iran was under sanctions, Gulf states were hedging between Washington and Beijing, and Europe was trying to reduce risk without losing trade access.

The result was that corridor diplomacy became aspirational rather than operational. Governments continued to speak about connectivity, but companies and financial institutions waited for security conditions to improve.



2026 — Chabahar Port and India's Central Asia dream enter uncertainty

By 2026, India's Chabahar Port project stood at the centre of a larger strategic dilemma. The port was supposed to give India a route to Afghanistan, Central Asia and Russia while bypassing Pakistan. It was also meant to strengthen India's role in Eurasian connectivity and complement the International North-South Transport Corridor. For India, Chabahar represented strategic autonomy in physical form: a port route not dependent on Pakistan, China or Western-controlled chokepoints.

However, the project remained exposed to sanctions, Iran-US confrontation, shipping insurance risks and uncertainty over payment systems. If US waivers narrowed or expired, Indian companies faced higher compliance risks. If Iran's regional confrontation intensified, commercial operators became more reluctant to use the route. If Gulf and Red Sea instability worsened, Chabahar's value increased strategically but became harder operationally.

By 2026, Chabahar had therefore become the clearest example of a delayed strategic infrastructure dream. It was too important for India to abandon, but too geopolitically exposed to develop smoothly. For Iran, it offered proof that Tehran still had partners despite sanctions. For the United States, it was a difficult exception: useful for India's access to Central Asia and Afghanistan, but uncomfortable because it strengthened infrastructure inside Iran. For Pakistan and China, Chabahar remained a counterweight to Gwadar and the China-Pakistan Economic Corridor.

The project did not collapse, but it remained trapped between ambition and sanctions. India's Chabahar dream survived, but by 2026, it was still waiting for the stable geopolitical conditions needed to become a fully reliable trade corridor.

SECTION 8 — Geopolitical Realignment: BRICS, De-dollarisation, and New Alliances

One of the most significant structural changes underway in the 2025–2029 period is the formation of new economic and security blocs driven by the fracturing of the US-led post-war order. This realignment is not simply about military alliances; it encompasses financial architecture, trade flows, energy pricing, and the institutional frameworks through which international disputes are managed. Delegates must understand this structural transformation to effectively represent their countries.

BRICS: Expansion, Tension, and Fracture

The BRICS grouping — originally Brazil, Russia, India, China, and South Africa — expanded significantly at its 2023 summit in Johannesburg to include Iran, Saudi Arabia, UAE, Egypt, Ethiopia, and Argentina (though Argentina subsequently withdrew under President Milei). The 2024 and 2025 summits continued the discussion of BRICS+ expansion with potential new members from Southeast Asia, the Middle East, and Latin America. BRICS now represents over 45% of the world's population and approximately 35% of global GDP at purchasing



power parity.

However, the BRICS grouping contains fundamental internal contradictions that became acute during the 2027 escalation cascade. India and China share membership in BRICS while maintaining unresolved border disputes and competing strategic visions in the Indo-Pacific. Saudi Arabia and Iran share BRICS membership while maintaining historic Sunni-Shia sectarian rivalry. India was the only BRICS member that did not endorse China's Taiwan action, creating significant internal tension. Brazil under Lula maintained a position critical of US actions in Venezuela while also condemning China's Taiwan aggression — a classic multi-alignment balancing act.

Russia's position within BRICS is paradoxical: Russia advocates for a multipolar world but is too economically and militarily weakened by the Ukraine war to be a genuine anchor of a multipolar system. Russia's role in the post-2027 geopolitical architecture is one of spoiling — blocking Western initiatives in the UN Security Council and providing diplomatic cover for Iran and Venezuela — rather than an alternative order-builder. Russian Foreign Minister Lavrov's 2028 statement that "straight primacy shifts to BRICS ports" was aspirational rhetoric rather than operational reality.

De-dollarisation: Progress, Limits, and Strategic Implications

The de-dollarisation process — the gradual reduction in the share of international trade, reserves, and financial transactions denominated in US dollars — has accelerated significantly since 2022 under the combined pressure of US sanctions weaponisation, Trump's tariff wars, and BRICS' explicit commitment to alternative financial infrastructure. China and Russia have dramatically increased bilateral trade in yuan and rubles. Saudi Arabia has begun accepting yuan for some oil sales, threatening the "petrodollar" arrangement that has been a cornerstone of US financial dominance since 1974. BRICS is developing a new payment messaging system as an alternative to SWIFT that would allow member states to conduct transactions outside the dollar system.

However, the limits of de-dollarisation are equally significant. The US dollar still accounts for approximately 58% of global foreign exchange reserves, down from 70% in 2000, but still far larger than any alternative. The yuan's share is only 2.5% of global reserves, limited by China's capital controls and the absence of deep, liquid Chinese capital markets. No single alternative to the dollar has emerged. The realistic outcome for the 2025–2029 period is not dollar collapse but monetary fragmentation: a world of competing currency zones that reduces US financial leverage but creates significant transaction costs and systemic risks.

For DISEC, the strategic implication of de-dollarisation is direct: sanctions enforcement becomes harder as alternatives to the dollar system develop. Arms embargoes, which are enforced through financial sanctions, become progressively more difficult to implement if significant economic activity can bypass the dollar system. The shadow fleet economy — oil exports by Russia, Iran, and Venezuela in defiance of sanctions — is already demonstrating this erosion in practice.

New Security Alliances and Emerging Architectures

The 2027 escalation cascade accelerated the formation of de facto security blocs that were emerging throughout 2025–26. On the Western-aligned side, AUKUS has deepened beyond nuclear submarine cooperation to include AI, cyber, electronic warfare, and space capabilities. The Quad has become a de facto defence alignment, with regular joint military exercises and intelligence-sharing arrangements. A new informal "Pacific Partnership" is emerging among the US, Japan, Australia, South Korea, and the Philippines, with Canada increasingly integrated. India participates in Quad exercises but maintains its strategic autonomy with respect to formal alliance

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commitments.

On the non-Western side, a China-Russia-Iran axis of military and economic coordination has deepened despite its internal contradictions. North Korea supplies artillery and weapons components to Russia; Iran supplies drones and missiles to Russia and proxy forces across the Middle East; China provides dual-use technology that sustains Russia's military-industrial complex. The China-Djibouti military base expansion of February 2028, described in the previous section, represents China's first permanent military footprint outside the Indo-Pacific, a historic expansion of Chinese strategic reach.

The most consequential emerging alignment is the set of states occupying the space between these blocs: India, Türkiye, Saudi Arabia, Brazil, Indonesia, and Vietnam. These states are engaging in multi-alignment — maintaining economic and diplomatic ties with both the Western and non-Western blocs while avoiding firm commitment to either. Their collective weight — they represent the majority of the world's population and a growing share of its economic output —

means that neither bloc can dominate the international system without the other's participation. Managing these relationships is the central diplomatic challenge for both the US and China in the post-2027 world.

New International Institutions and Frameworks Emerging

Out of the 2027 crisis, several new multilateral institutions and frameworks have begun to emerge. The Gulf information-sharing corridor centre in Oman represents the most significant new multilateral maritime institution since UNCLOS. The Denmark-Greenland benefit-sharing framework creates a model for managing conflicts between Indigenous self-determination rights and great power strategic interests. The Venezuelan provisional governance framework is attempting to create a new template for managing political transitions under international monitoring without a formal UN Trusteeship.

These emerging institutions share common characteristics: they are practical and technical rather than normatively ambitious; they create processes rather than resolving underlying disputes; they include states with competing interests through carefully designed governance structures; and they avoid requiring any party to formally abandon its stated legal position. This model of "forum without resolution" may be the most that the current international system can achieve. Whether it is sufficient to prevent future escalation is the committee's central question.

SECTION 9 — Military Advancement: AI, Hypersonics, Drones, Space

Traditional military power involved visible indicators: soldiers, aircraft, naval fleets, and territory. Modern strategic competition has extended far beyond conventional capabilities. Today's military competition spans artificial intelligence, autonomous systems, hypersonic weapons, space-based assets, and cyber operations — domains where no binding international law yet exists.

Artificial Intelligence in Military Systems

The December 2025 DISEC session saw 177 states vote in favour of a resolution calling for limits on AI integration in nuclear command, control, and communication systems. The US FY2026 defence bill prioritises "AI-driven cyber defences" as a transformative capability. China is integrating AI into surveillance, target



recognition, military logistics, and autonomous weapons platforms. The risk is that AI-assisted decision cycles may move faster than human diplomatic intervention is capable of operating — a crisis could escalate to armed conflict before any backchannel could be activated. No binding international law on military AI exists; the Tallinn Manual does not address it. The First Committee's December 2025 resolution represents the most significant progress yet achieved, but its non-binding character leaves the fundamental governance gap unaddressed.

Hypersonic Weapons

Hypersonic missiles travel at Mach 5 or above (exceeding 6,000 kilometres per hour) while combining speed with manoeuvrability, defeating all existing missile defence systems, including the most advanced Patriot and THAAD batteries. Russia deployed Kinzhal hypersonic missiles against Ukrainian infrastructure beginning in 2022 — the first operational combat use of hypersonic weapons in history. China has tested the DF-ZF hypersonic glide vehicle and the Fractional Orbital Bombardment System (FOBS), which can approach targets from any direction by travelling through low Earth orbit. The US is prioritising its Golden Dome initiative as the primary response, including space-based intercept layers specifically designed to address hypersonic threats. The elimination of decision-making time in a hypersonic exchange — a weapon launched from China can reach Guam in minutes — makes the risk of miscalculation acute.

Drone and Autonomous Systems

The Ukraine war has fundamentally reshaped conventional military doctrine. Mass drone use by both sides has created a new form of warfare characterised by persistence, low cost, and the ability to saturate air defence systems. North Korea is supplying hundreds of thousands of artillery shells and drone components to Russia (confirmed by the UN Panel of Experts). Iran's Shahed series drones, used by Russia in Ukraine and by Houthi forces in the Red Sea, have demonstrated that low-cost autonomous systems can disrupt the global economy. The US FY2026 One Big Beautiful Bill Act includes major drone investment as an asymmetric equaliser. Lethal Autonomous Weapons Systems — weapons capable of selecting and engaging targets without meaningful human control — remain without any binding international regulation despite seven years of discussions in the Convention on Certain Conventional Weapons.

Nuclear Modernisation: All Nine States Simultaneously

For the first time in history, all nine nuclear-armed states are simultaneously modernising their nuclear arsenals. China is constructing hundreds of new missile silos in Xinjiang and Inner Mongolia, with some analysts estimating China could triple its warhead count by 2030. Russia is deploying new Sarmat intercontinental ballistic missiles, Poseidon nuclear-armed torpedoes, and Burevestnik nuclear-powered cruise missiles. The United States is investing in all three legs of the nuclear triad — land-based ICBMs, submarine-launched missiles, and nuclear-capable bombers — simultaneously. SIPRI estimates global spending on nuclear weapons at \$91.4 billion in 2023, with rapid increases expected. New START remains suspended with no successor under negotiation. This represents the most dangerous nuclear governance vacuum since the early 1960s.

Space Militarisation and the Golden Dome

The US Golden Dome initiative — a comprehensive integrated air and missile defence system incorporating ground-based, sea-based, and space-based intercept layers — was announced in early 2025 as a flagship Trump administration defence priority. Greenland's geographic position makes it strategically valuable for Golden Dome radar and intercept capabilities, which is one reason why Greenland has become such a priority for the Trump

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administration beyond rare earth minerals and Arctic basing rights. All major powers have tested ASAT weapons. The debris generated by ASAT tests threatens the entire low Earth orbital environment that modern military and civilian communications, intelligence, and navigation systems depend on. December 2025's DISEC resolution calling for the prevention of an arms race in outer space passed 177 to 2 (the US and Israel opposed), but the resolution is non-binding, and the arms race continues.

SALWs: Small Arms and Light Weapons

"Small arms kill more people every year than nuclear, biological, and chemical weapons combined. They are the weapons of mass destruction of the developing world."

Small Arms and Light Weapons — rifles, machine guns, rocket-propelled grenades, man-portable air defence systems (MANPADS), and light mortars — are the weapons that actually kill people in contested territories. They are the primary instruments of the violence that drives the humanitarian crises linked to great power rivalry. Approximately one billion small arms circulate globally; 85% are in civilian hands. Up to 500,000 deaths are attributable to SALWs annually (UNODC, SIPRI). Twelve billion rounds of small arms ammunition are produced annually — described by the Small Arms Survey as "enough to shoot every person on Earth twice."

In contested regions from the Sahel to Yemen to Ukraine's frontlines, SALW proliferation is the direct mechanism through which geopolitical competition produces civilian casualties and prevents political settlements. The great powers supply weapons to proxies, which leak into civilian populations, which fuel the next generation of conflict. Wagner Group (now operating as Africa Corps) was supplied with SALW stockpiles for operations in Mali, Niger, Burkina Faso, the Central African Republic, and Libya. MANPADS that proliferated from Libya after Gaddafi's fall in 2011 continue to surface in conflict zones across the Sahel and Middle East over a decade later.

Great Power Connections to SALW Proliferation

North Korea's supply of artillery shells, drone components, and SALW-adjacent weapons to Russia has been confirmed by the UN Panel of Experts. Iran's supply of weapons to the Houthis, Hamas, and Hezbollah represents a systematic programme of proxy warfare through deliberate SALW proliferation. The United States and European Union are supplying significant quantities of SALWs and light weapons to Ukraine — the largest such transfer in recent decades. All three of these supply programmes are defensible on their own terms, but all three simultaneously contribute to the global SALW proliferation problem that DISEC is mandated to address. Digital ghost guns and 3D-printed weapons increasingly evade all existing marking and tracing legal frameworks.

The Legal Framework: Critical Gaps

The UN Programme of Action on SALWs (UNPoA, 2001) is the primary international political instrument. It is entirely non-binding. States are invited to adopt national legislation, improve stockpile management, and share information, but face no consequences for non-compliance. The Fourth Review Conference in 2024 highlighted persistent implementation gaps across all three areas. The Arms Trade Treaty (ATT, 2014) is legally binding for its 113 state parties and covers international conventional arms transfers, including SALWs. However, the United States signed but is not a full adherent; Russia and China have not signed. These three states — the world's largest arms exporters — are therefore not legally bound by the ATT's restrictions. The Firearms Protocol (2001)



criminalises illicit SALW manufacturing and trafficking under the UNTOC framework but covers only illicit transfers, not the legal-to-illegal pipeline through which most conflict weapons travel.

Section 10 — Alliance Comparisons; 2024 v/s 2026 v/s 2029

1. Overview

The global alliance ecosystem transforms from a system of cooperative institutional management into one of fractured, transactional survival and, ultimately, into separate, parallel political, economic, and security orders.

In 2024, alliances operate within a highly stressed but legally unified framework, where traditional Western and non-Western groupings seek to enforce or resist international norms through diplomacy and localised containment.

By 2026, the arrival of Donald Trump's second presidency, the imposition of aggressive economic warfare, and direct military interventions cause alliances to harden. Alignment becomes strictly transactional, dictated by immediate material survival across five distinct systemic vectors: trade, energy corridors, maritime security, parallel financial infrastructure, and strategic resource access.

By 2029, the system reaches a structural divergence. The international order splits into two autonomous, uncoupled systems that function on parallel regulatory standards, distinct currencies, and localised regional architectures.

2. Alliance States

The geopolitical alignment of states undergoes a severe consolidation, stripping middle powers of their flexible hedging and forcing them into structural dependencies.

2024

- **The Western Core:** A cohesive institutional bloc comprising the United States, NATO members (including its newest ally, Sweden), G7 partners, Japan, South Korea, Australia, and the broader European Union. This bloc operates under a shared commitment to the post-Cold War rules-based international order.
- **The Non-Western Resisters:** An emerging counter-alignment led by China, Russia, Iran, and North Korea. While functionally cooperative, it lacks formal, unified command integration and acts primarily as an opportunistic coalition resisting Western sanctions leverage.
- **The Hedging Middle Powers:** Crucial swing states—primarily India, Saudi Arabia, the United Arab Emirates, Turkey, Egypt, Indonesia, Brazil, and South Africa—refuse to commit to a binary choice. They leverage their strategic autonomy to extract economic benefits and diplomatic concessions from both camps.

2026

- **The Fragmented Western Bloc:** The United States, NATO, and Pacific allies remain structurally linked but highly strained by Donald Trump's transactional diplomacy. Internal fractures emerge over severe US steel and aluminium tariffs and burden-sharing disputes. Under Italian Prime Minister Giorgia Meloni, some European leaders attempt to position themselves as a conservative bridging mechanism—maintaining support for Ukraine and NATO but distancing themselves from aggressive US unilateralism.

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- **The Consolidated Non-Western Alternative:** The BRICS bloc transitions from a political talk-shop into an integrated functional network. Following its rapid enlargement to include Iran, Saudi Arabia, the UAE, Egypt, and Ethiopia, this camp forms a powerful alignment across global energy nodes and non-dollar payment networks.
- **The Indispensable Intermediaries:** True strategic neutrality disappears. Swing states are forced to choose specific systems of access. Pakistan emerges as a critical geopolitical node, using its close relationship with China and regional standing to broker high-stakes diplomacy between Washington and Tehran. Saudi Arabia openly hedges its security by deepening ties with Beijing on oil settlements, alarming the US.

2029

- **The Euro-Atlantic & Pacific Order:** A distinct, self-contained security and economic sphere comprising the United States, a structurally transformed "NATO 3.0" featuring heightened European defence autonomy, a militarised Japan and South Korea, and a select group of tightly aligned external dependencies, such as the newly formed Venezuelan exile structures and provisional council zones.
- **The Multipolar Eurasian-Global South Order:** An autonomous parallel system anchored by China, Russia, and an institutionalised BRICS network. It functions as an independent economic and legal space encompassing Iran (now integrated under an "observer-plus" maritime status), various African and Latin American resource suppliers, and active resistance networks across partitioned territories.

3. Alliance Goals

The core strategic motivations driving alliance coordination shift from maintaining international norms to securing raw material survival and institutional autonomy.

2024

- **Western Bloc:** To contain local conflicts before they trigger systemic instability. The primary focus is on providing predictable aid to keep Ukraine in the fight, deterring a Chinese blockade of Taiwan, maintaining open passage through the South China Sea, and enforcing compliance with international frameworks like UNCLOS and the Nuclear Non-Proliferation Treaty (NPT).
- **Non-Western Bloc:** To chip away at Western dominance and build asymmetric strategic breathing space. China seeks regional maritime dominance and economic integration via the Belt and Road Initiative (BRI); Russia aims to break its international isolation and lock in its gains in the Donbas and Crimea; Iran relies on regional proxy leverage and sanctions evasion.
- **Middle Powers:** To maximise strategic autonomy and options. Their goal is to maintain access to Western financial markets and advanced technology while simultaneously tapping into cheap Russian energy and Chinese infrastructure funding.

2026

- **Western Bloc:** To build material and industrial resilience under the threat of a collapsing transatlantic bond. For European allies, the overarching goal is executing the historic decision made at the NATO Hague Summit: establishing a credible path to spending 5% of GDP on defence (3.5% for military hardware and 1.5% for dual-use infrastructure like transport and cybersecurity). The US focuses on securing direct corporate access to energy assets, securing rare earth minerals, and executing counter-narcotics and stabilisation missions via heavy unilateral actions.



- **Non-Western Bloc:** To build total immunity to Western economic warfare and direct interventions. Following the rapid, devastating US military operation over Caracas that captured Nicolas Maduro, the primary goal of China, Russia, and Iran is to insulate their political regimes from foreign-backed regime change. This involves building immediate resilience through alternative payment channels, sovereign asset protection, and asymmetric, deniable military operations.
- **Middle Powers:** To prevent a complete global market meltdown. States like Oman and Pakistan seek to establish regional maritime information-sharing corridors and phased ceasefire frameworks to insulate local trade from the direct military confrontations breaking out between the US and Iran.

2029

- **Euro-Atlantic & Pacific Order:** To preserve the integrity of their self-contained sphere. The primary goal is securing a permanent monopoly over high-end technologies, advanced semiconductor supply lines, and critical Arctic surveillance networks (formalised via exclusive oversight and benefit-sharing frameworks between Denmark and Greenland).
- **Multipolar Eurasian-Global South Order:** To institutionalise their parallel international architecture. The primary objective is to cement non-dollar trade networks, solidify long-term energy corridors that bypass Western naval chokepoints, and legitimise alternative legal bodies that challenge Western-dominated arbitral tribunals.

4. Alliance Agenda & Specific Issues

The diplomatic and military focus of global alliances evolves from managing distinct regional crises to weaponising structural international systems.

2024

- **Ukraine & European Security:** Alliances are consumed by localised front-line volatility in the Donbas. The Western response is defined by structured aid, weapon deliveries, and the implementation of the G7 oil price cap. This mechanism attempts to use Western control over maritime insurance to restrict Russian revenues, while Russia counterbalances by assembling early iterations of its shadow tanker fleet.
- **Middle East & Maritime Chokepoints:** The agenda is driven by localised friction points, such as the fallout from the Gaza conflict and initial Red Sea shipping disruptions, treated largely as maritime security challenges requiring standard coalition patrols.
- **Indo-Pacific Deterrence:** Driven by the aftermath of the Fourth Taiwan Strait Crisis, alliances focus on monitoring military exercises around the median line, tracking Chinese island-building in the Spratly Islands, and managing the legal fallout of the South China Sea Arbitral Ruling.
- **Multipolar Economics:** The primary issue is the political expansion of BRICS and the early development of alternative financial mechanisms, which Western states treat as a distant, abstract challenge to the dollar-dominated financial system.

2026

- **Unilateral US Power & Regime Intervention:** The alliance agenda is dominated by the shockwaves of the US military intervention in Venezuela. Over 150 US aircraft struck air defences and communication nodes over Caracas to capture Maduro on narco-terrorism charges. This triggers a massive legal and diplomatic backlash



from China and Russia at the UN, while dividing Latin America between left-wing states condemning the sovereignty violation and right-wing governments welcoming the move.

- **The Convergence of Global Maritime Crises:** The Red Sea and the Strait of Hormuz merge into a single global chokepoint emergency following the Iran Twelve-Day War and the subsequent JCPOA sanctions snapback. Iran's safe-lane demands and the deployment of naval mine forces require a total restructuring of global shipping. Insurance premiums surge, and shipping firms demand that the International Maritime Organisation (IMO) clarify the legality of coastal states overriding UNCLOS transit passage rights.

- **Transatlantic Hardening ("NATO 3.0"):** At the NATO ministerial in Helsingborg, Sweden, the alliance shifts into an era of forced burden-sharing. To appease Trump's demands for a "fairer" alliance, Europe and Canada take on direct conventional defence leadership—assuming command of all three Joint Force Commands, while the US shifts toward leading component commands. The immediate agenda includes accelerating large-scale industrial defence production (missile defence, long-range precision strike, and drone interceptors) to meet the 5% GDP target.

- **Geoeconomic Retaliation:** The agenda shifts to direct trade war escalation. The European Union retaliates against US steel and aluminium tariffs by slapping targeted duties on \$34 billion of US agricultural goods, illustrating how resource networks are weaponised within Western ranks. Concurrently, the Western freeze of \$300 billion in Russian sovereign assets drives non-Western alliances to actively scale up China's Cross-Border Interbank Payment System (CIPS) and Russia's SPFS messaging network to bypass the SWIFT system entirely.

2029

- **Institutionalised Parallel Maritime Governance:** The crisis response of 2026 becomes the institutional reality of 2029. The IMO publishes operational metrics treating the Oman-mediated Gulf information-sharing corridor as a permanent governance mechanism. Iran is integrated into this system under an official "observer-plus" status, establishing a controlled equilibrium that keeps the Strait of Hormuz open while reserving its underlying legal objections to UNCLOS.

- **Partitioned Protectors & Sovereignty Frameworks:** The geopolitical map is explicitly redrawn. In Venezuela, the country is split between an active resistance network and a formal US Protectorate in Western Venezuela (including the resource-rich Zulia oil region). Alliances focus on managing the legitimacy of monitored transitional security arrangements and exile councils rather than restoring the old constitutional order.

- **The Legal Verification Split:** The global community operates under competing legal definitions. In maritime law, states choose between enforcing the findings of new UNCLOS Annex VII Tribunal rulings regarding the Philippines v. China dispute or accepting China's physical, operational control over contested features.

- **Arctic Systemic Settlement:** The long-standing friction over Arctic access and rare earth minerals is institutionalised. Denmark and Greenland sign a final, complex framework that successfully balances local anti-colonial Greenlandic consent (sparked by the Nuuk protests of 2026) with the hard strategic military basing requirements of the Euro-Atlantic alliance.

5. Comparative Matrix: 2024 vs. 2026 vs. 2029

Primary Systemic Function

In 2024, the primary function of alliances is the defensive containment of localised crises, working strictly within a unified legal order to prevent regional instabilities from fracturing the global structure. By 2026, this shifts



toward a focus on material alliance hardening, where alliances prioritise transactional survival, the aggressive securing of material assets, and rapid institutional adaptation to immediate shocks. By 2029, the system reaches full systemic structural divergence, where the temporary crisis management of previous years is codified into the permanent institutionalisation of parallel, decoupled international orders.

Western Alliance Dynamics

The Western bloc in 2024 remains highly cohesive and fundamentally US-led, focusing its energy on preserving rules-based consistency, maintaining international norms, and enforcing traditional deterrence mechanisms. This dynamic changes by 2026 into a strained, friction-filled relationship burdened by heavy US unilateralism, forcing the emergence of a structurally transformed alliance featuring 5% GDP targets and a shift toward European conventional leadership to compensate for shifting American priorities. By 2029, Western dynamics fragmented further into localised regional clusters, characterised by highly militarised bilateral protection arrangements rather than sweeping, multi-state institutional treaties.

Non-Western Alliance Dynamics

The non-Western camp in 2024 operates as an informal, loose partnership focused on opportunistic diplomatic balancing, shared resistance to Western geopolitical leverage, and coordinated sanctions evasion without deep structural integration. By 2026, this partnership will harden into highly integrated energy, financial, and security cooperation, utilising an expanded BRICS network to execute a functional decoupling from Western-dominated mechanisms. This process culminates in 2029 with the solidification of a self-contained legal, financial, and military order that operates entirely under its own unique regulatory frameworks and institutional authorities.

Status of Middle Powers

Middle powers in 2024 successfully maintained a posture of flexible hedging, skillfully extracting economic benefits, energy access, and diplomatic concessions from both camps without committing to a binary alignment. By 2026, the room for flexibility disappears, forcing middle powers into systemic integration where they must serve as indispensable diplomatic, financial, or logistical intermediaries to protect their own stability. By 2029, this intermediary role is absorbed into complete systemic alignment, with former swing states integrated directly into separate, competing financial and trade architectures.

Financial Infrastructure

The global financial landscape in 2024 is defined by the absolute dominance of the US dollar and the SWIFT messaging network, with alternative non-dollar payment systems remaining largely theoretical or experimental. The landscape fractures in 2026 due to the active weaponisation of sovereign assets, triggering the rapid, practical scaling of parallel financial networks like China's Cross-Border Interbank Payment System (CIPS) and Russia's SPFS network. By 2029, this results in a permanent monetary split, with the world divided into separate, fully insulated currency clearing zones and entirely distinct reserve metrics.

Maritime & Chokepoint Rules

Maritime governance in 2024 relies on widespread adherence to UNCLOS, with international waterways managed through standard coalition freedom of navigation operations and recognised transit passage rights. By 2026,



coastal states will directly challenge these transit rights through the enforcement of safe lanes, toll systems, and asymmetric mine or drone warfare, causing severe commercial disruptions. This operational friction resolves by 2029 into institutionalised joint corridor governance, where open transit passage rights are permanently replaced by managed, "observer-plus" coordination systems.

Resource & Energy Flow

In 2024, global energy and resource flows are regulated by Western-dominated market mechanisms, exemplified by structured trade frameworks and the enforcement of the G7 oil price cap. By 2026, these mechanisms will be severely disrupted by shadow fleets, direct unilateral interventions, and escalating trade wars, forcing states to secure energy flows through direct military protection and corporate asset seizures. By 2029, the global map is explicitly redrawn around entirely separate trade routes and formal, localised protectorate arrangements over vital resource basins.

SECTION 11 — International Legal Framework and Treaties

CRITICAL ALERT: THE ARMS CONTROL ARCHITECTURE HAS LARGELY COLLAPSED

The arms control regime that managed nuclear and conventional weapons competition since the 1960s has largely disintegrated. The INF Treaty is gone (2019). Open Skies is gone (2020–21). New START is suspended (2023). The JCPOA was abandoned by the US (2018), and then the snapback was triggered by the E3 (2025). This is the most significant governance vacuum in arms control since the nuclear age began. Delegates must propose how to rebuild this architecture in a more multipolar and less trusting international environment.

Core International Instruments

UN Charter (1945)

Article 2(4) prohibits the use of force against the territorial integrity of any state. This provision has been violated by Russia in Ukraine and is challenged by Trump's statements about Greenland. Article 51 preserves the right of individual and collective self-defence, invoked by the US in its Taiwan operations and Venezuelan actions. Chapter VII empowers the Security Council to take measures to maintain international peace and security — a mechanism paralysed by the P5 veto in response to both the Ukraine and the South China Sea crises.

Nuclear Non-Proliferation Treaty (1968)

The NPT recognises five Nuclear Weapon States (the US, Russia, the UK, France, and China) and commits them under Article VI to pursue disarmament in good faith. 188 states are parties. India, Pakistan, and Israel never joined; North Korea withdrew in 2003. All nine nuclear-armed states are simultaneously modernising their arsenals. Iran's JCPOA snapback reimposed UN sanctions in September 2025. The Article VI disarmament obligation is effectively being ignored by all NWS.

Treaty on the Prohibition of Nuclear Weapons (2017)

The TPNW bans the development, testing, production, stockpiling, use, and threat of use of nuclear weapons. As



of October 2025, 74 states are parties. No nuclear-armed state is a party, and none has signalled any intention to join. The treaty has significant political symbolism — it establishes a clear international norm against nuclear weapons — but a limited deterrence effect in the absence of nuclear states’ participation.

UNCLOS (1982)

The UN Convention on the Law of the Sea establishes the 12-nautical-mile territorial sea, the 200-nautical-mile Exclusive Economic Zone, and the rights of transit passage through international straits. It is central to the South China Sea dispute, the Arctic sovereignty questions, and the Hormuz transit debate. China rejects the 2016 arbitral ruling under UNCLOS but participates selectively in UNCLOS frameworks when advantageous. The United States enforces UNCLOS principles but has never ratified the convention — a fundamental inconsistency that undermines US legal arguments.

Arms Trade Treaty (2014)

The ATT is a legally binding treaty regulating international transfers of conventional arms, including SALWs. 113 states are parties. The United States signed but is not a full adherent; Russia and China have not signed. The Fourth Review Conference in 2024 documented persistent implementation gaps. The exclusion of the world’s three largest arms exporters from the treaty’s obligations represents a fundamental structural limitation.

Outer Space Treaty (1967)

The OST bans nuclear weapons and other weapons of mass destruction in orbit, on the Moon, and on other celestial bodies. It prohibits national appropriation of celestial bodies. Critically, it does NOT ban conventional weapons in space. This is an increasingly exploited gap as all major powers develop space-based military capabilities. The December 2025 DISEC resolution calling for the prevention of an arms race in outer space was adopted 177 to 2, but remains non-binding.

THE GOVERNANCE GAP: WHAT DISEC MUST ADDRESS

There is currently no binding international law governing: (1) AI integration in nuclear command, control, and communication systems; (2) ASAT weapons and orbital debris generation; (3) hypersonic missile systems; (4) lethal autonomous weapons systems (LAWS); (5) cyber warfare operations below the armed-conflict threshold; or (6) shadow fleet arms transfers used to evade UN embargoes. These are the active frontiers of weapons competition. Delegates must propose frameworks for at least some of these critical gaps if DISEC is to fulfil its mandate.

SECTION 12 – Individual Stances of Countries

1. The United States of America:

The USA is a member of NATO and the G7. It is aggressively maintaining hegemonic dominance under Trump 2.0 and the “America’s First 2.0” policy. They annexed Venezuela in 2028–2029 to secure oil and eliminate the leftist regime. While shifting focus to South America and the Indo-Pacific, it is reducing European commitment. It also shows a strong military presence in Hormuz, claiming freedom of navigation, and staunchly supports Israel in Gaza. Venezuela was declared the USA’s 51st state, and the

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USA is increasingly confrontational with China over Taiwan. It considers Taiwan's self-defence vital but avoids direct war commitment. The Arctic policy opposes non-NATO claims, especially Russian expansion. The major enemies are Iran, China, Russia, and Venezuelan rebels who resist annexation, while the allies include the UK, Japan, the Philippines, Singapore, Israel, Poland, and Canada, selectively. The agendas are to maintain Hormuz dominance and contain China's move on Taiwan, while the goals include protecting Israel, stabilising South America, and integrating Venezuelan oil. It is a presidential republic with right-populist nationalist and hegemonic realism. In negotiations, it would compromise on a reduced European troop footprint if the EU assumes the defence burden and would leverage the nuclear umbrella, dollar hegemony, sanctions regime, carrier groups in Hormuz, and Venezuelan oil reserves. This is a major foreign policy shift from traditional alliance leadership to transactional hegemony driven by Trump's nationalist base, with Congress divided and the military wary of direct war with China.

2. The People's Republic of China:

China is a member of the UN Security Council with veto power and is not in NATO. It is pursuing "National Rejuvenation" and forced reunification of Taiwan before Beijing's 90th Independence Day. It is assertive in the South and East China Seas and uses BRI diplomacy and economic coercion worldwide. It pursues a "Polar Silk Road" Arctic claims, and partners with Russia and Iran against US hegemony. It condemns the US annexation of Venezuela as imperialism, opposes US presence in Hormuz, and backs Iran diplomatically. It recognises Palestine and criticises Israel heavily, supporting the two-state solution publicly but using it strategically. Its enemies are Taiwan, the USA, Japan, the Philippines, Australia, India on border disputes, and the UK due to the AUCUS. Its 2029 allies include Russia, Iran, Venezuela rebels, North Korea, Pakistan, Cambodia, Laos, and Zimbabwe. Its agendas are to reunify Taiwan by force if needed, secure Hormuz energy lanes, and counter the US Venezuela annexation. Its goals include expanding Arctic presence and leading the Global South. It is a one-party socialist state with authoritarian nationalism plus Marxist-Leninist party ideology. In negotiations, it would compromise on delaying the Taiwan timeline for economic concessions and would leverage its massive manufacturing base, rare earths, Belt and Road debt traps, PLA navy growth, and UNSC veto. This marks a shift from "hide and bide" to assertive nationalism under Xi, with internal pressure from military elites and economic slowdown forcing Beijing to use coercion.

3. The Russian Federation:

Russia is part of BRICS and was expelled from the G7. It is a revisionist great power waging an ongoing Ukraine war and is heavily militarising the Arctic to claim the northern sea route. It uses energy coercion against Europe and maintains a deep strategic partnership with China and Iran. It condemns the US annexation of Venezuela, supports Venezuela rebels diplomatically, opposes the US presence in Hormuz, and supports Iran diplomatically. Its stance on Gaza is critical of Israel and calls for a ceasefire, but it is less vocal than China. Its enemies are NATO, especially Poland and the Baltic states, the USA, the UK, the EU core, and Ukraine. Its 2029 allies include China, Iran, Venezuela rebels, North Korea, Syria, and Belarus. Its agendas are to maintain Ukraine conquests, expand Arctic control, and oppose US Venezuela annexation. Its goals include fracturing NATO and reducing US global influence. It is a federal semi-presidential republic with authoritarian nationalism and neo-imperial ideology. In negotiations, it



would compromise on freezing Ukraine frontlines if sanctions are lifted and would leverage natural gas exports, UNSC veto, nuclear arsenal, and Arctic military bases. Putin's regime is driven by neo-imperial revival and fear of NATO expansion, with the Ukraine war solidifying domestic nationalist support but straining the economy.

4. The Republic of India:

India is traditionally non-aligned, but is leaning toward the West strategically. It is a member of BRICS and the SCO and follows a "strategic autonomy" foreign policy. It is cautious of both the US and China and is neutral on Venezuela annexation, preferring peaceful dialogue. It is a strong maritime power in the Indian Ocean. It recognises Palestine but maintains Israel's defence ties and opposes the forced reunification of Taiwan, preferring a peaceful resolution. It is increasingly cautious of China due to border disputes. Its 2029 allies include France, Canada, EU partners, the USA selectively, Japan, and Australia through the Quad, but not as a full alliance. Its enemies are primarily China over border disputes and Pakistan in a proxy war. Its agendas are to maintain strategic autonomy and secure Indian Ocean dominance. Its goals include a permanent UNSC seat and regional stability. It is a federal parliamentary democratic republic with secular democratic nationalism and non-aligned roots. In negotiations, it would compromise on great-power alignment to protect sovereignty and would leverage its massive market, nuclear deterrence, Indian Ocean navy, and diplomatic weight in the Global South. India's shift is driven by China's border aggression and the need for tech and defence partnerships while avoiding formal alliances that compromise sovereignty.

5. The United Kingdom of Great Britain and Northern Ireland:

The UK is a member of NATO and is not in the EU post-Brexit. It pursues a "Global Britain" policy emphasising an Indo-Pacific pivot and has a strong special relationship with the USA, especially under Trump 2.0. It is active in the Arctic through NATO partnership, supports Denmark on Greenland, and is a staunch ally of Israel in Gaza. It reluctantly accepts the US-Venezuela annexation but calls for humanitarian oversight. Its enemies are Russia primarily and China on security issues. Its 2029 allies include the USA, France, Germany, Poland, Japan, and Australia through AUKUS. Its agendas are to maintain global influence post-Brexit and support US containment of China. Its goals include preserving Commonwealth ties and a nuclear deterrent. It is a parliamentary constitutional monarchy with liberal conservatism and Atlanticist orientation. In negotiations, it would compromise on some EU security cooperation if trade improves and would leverage its nuclear deterrent, UNSC veto, special intelligence relationship with the US, and Royal Navy global reach. The UK's post-Brexit pivot to the Indo-Pacific is an attempt to remain relevant by aligning closely with the US while building AUKUS as a security hedge.

6. The Republic of The Philippines:

The Philippines is the chair of ASEAN and has strengthened its alliance with the USA under the Enhanced Defence Cooperation Agreement. It opposes China's South China Sea claims through arbitration and is cautious of China economically but aligns with the US on security. It is neutral on Venezuela, recognises Palestine conditionally, and supports Taiwan's self-defence unofficially. Its enemy is China over the South China Sea disputes. Its 2029 allies include the USA, Japan, Australia, and the Philippines, USA mutual defence treaty partners. Its agenda is to protect the South China Sea islands and maritime rights. Its goals include economic development and securing its exclusive economic zone. It is a presidential democratic republic with liberal democracy and a pro-US security orientation. In negotiations, it would compromise

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on economic concessions to China if sovereignty is guaranteed and would leverage the US mutual defence treaty, strategic location, and international law arbitration rulings.

7. The Republic of Indonesia:

Indonesia is a member of ASEAN and follows a “free and active” non-aligned foreign policy. It is the largest Muslim-majority democracy and is cautious of China economically, but opposes South China Sea encroachment. It is critical of the US-Venezuela annexation as a sovereignty violation and is neutral on Venezuela, preferring ASEAN mediation. It recognises Palestine strongly and maintains unofficial economic ties with Taiwan, but follows the one-China policy publicly. Its 2029 allies include India, France, ASEAN partners selectively, and the USA. Its enemy is China on maritime issues, but not a full adversary. Its agenda is to lead ASEAN and maintain a non-aligned stance. Its goals include becoming a regional power and securing the Natuna Islands' waters. It is a presidential democratic republic with a pluralistic democracy and an Islamic moderate orientation. In negotiations, it would compromise on great-power alignment to protect ASEAN centrality and would leverage the largest Southeast Asian economy, the Indonesian navy, and diplomatic leadership in the Global South Muslim world.

8. The Republic of Singapore:

Singapore is a member of ASEAN and follows a practical foreign policy balancing the US and China. It has a strong US security presence through hosting rights and is economically dependent on China, but relies on the USA for security. It is neutral on Venezuela annexation, prioritising trade stability, and is neutral on Venezuela. It recognises Palestine conditionally but maintains Israel's defence procurement and supports Taiwan unofficially while maintaining the one-China policy publicly. It has no formal enemies but is wary of China's domination. Its 2029 allies include the USA, UK, Australia, Japan, India, and ASEAN partners. Its agenda is to maintain strategic balance and protect trade routes. Its goals include preserving sovereignty through hedging and maintaining global trade hub status. It is a parliamentary republic with pragmatic authoritarian capitalism and realpolitik orientation. In negotiations, it would compromise on neutral wording in resolutions to keep both powers engaged and would leverage its critical shipping chokepoint, global financial hub, and exceptional defence capability per capita.

9. The Federation of Malaysia:

Malaysia is a member of ASEAN and is not in NATO. It is an Islamic democracy with a pro-Palestine stance and opposes China's South China Sea claims, but maintains economic ties. It is critical of the US-Venezuela annexation and is neutral on Venezuela. It follows an official one-China policy but has informal Taiwan trade. Its enemy is China in maritime disputes, but not hostile. Its 2029 allies include Indonesia, ASEAN partners selectively, the USA, and the UK. Its agenda is to protect South China Sea claims and maintain Islamic leadership in Southeast Asia. Its goals include economic growth and territorial integrity. It is a federal parliamentary constitutional monarchy with Islamic democracy and Malay nationalist orientation. In negotiations, it would compromise on softened language on China if economic benefits are secured and would leverage its strategic Malacca Strait position, Islamic world leadership, and OPEC+ energy ties.

10. The Republic of China (Taiwan):

Taiwan is a democratic self-governing island, not a UN member due to PRC pressure. It is de facto independent, but the PRC claims sovereignty. It follows a “self-defence” foreign policy with unofficial US and Japan support and is increasingly cautious of China's military coercion. It supports democracy and



human rights, and supports Venezuelan rebels against US annexation as anti-imperialist solidarity. Its enemy is primarily China, which threatens invasion. Its 2029 allies include the USA unofficially, Japan, and the USA allies, especially the UK, Australia, Canada, and EU members that support democracies. Its agenda is to maintain de facto independence and international space. Its goals include avoiding invasion and securing international recognition. It is a democratic presidential republic with liberal democracy and Taiwanese nationalism. In negotiations, it would compromise on formal “independence” claims to avoid war and would leverage its advanced semiconductor industry, strong US unofficial support, democratic legitimacy, and asymmetric defence capabilities. Taiwan’s policy is survival-driven, with the DPP pushing for de facto independence while avoiding a formal declaration that would trigger an invasion, relying on TSMC chip monopoly as ultimate leverage.

11. The Bolivarian Republic of Venezuela (Rebels):

The Venezuela Rebels are an opposition coalition resisting US annexation and are not recognised by major powers. They seek to overthrow the US occupation and restore independence and are backed covertly by Russia, China, Iran, and some Latin American left-wing governments. Their enemies are the USA, the occupying power, and Venezuelan collaborators. Their 2029 allies include Russia, China, Iran, Cuba, Nicaragua, and Argentina if left-wing. Their agenda is to resist US occupation through guerrilla warfare and international legal challenge. Their goals include restoring Venezuelan sovereignty and ending US control. They are a fractured resistance movement not internationally recognised, with nationalist resistance and an anti-imperialist socialist orientation. In negotiations, they would compromise on power-sharing with moderate collaborators for US withdrawal and would leverage guerrilla warfare, oil sabotage, international legal narrative, and Global South support. The rebels are fragmented but leverage anti-imperialist sentiment across Latin America and rely on Russian/Chinese covert aid to sustain the insurgency.

12. The Bolivarian Republic of Venezuela (Govt. In Exile):

The Venezuelan Government in Exile is no longer recognised as a legitimate institution or country after the US annexation and has dissolved as an institution. Some members collaborated with the USA, while others joined the rebels. Their enemies are Venezuelan rebels and anti-annexation forces. Their 2029 allies include the USA selectively and some Latin American right-wing governments that accept annexation. Their agendas are obsolete after annexation, with some members seeking integration and others seeking restoration. Their goals are obsolete as the institution is dissolved after annexation and is defunct after US annexation. It had a democratic centre-right liberal democracy orientation. In negotiations, it would compromise on full collaboration for personal safety and would leverage prior recognition, Western contacts, and oil industry knowledge. This represents a complete collapse of legitimate opposition — the government in exile fragmented after annexation, with hardliners joining rebels and moderates collaborating with the US occupation, making it politically irrelevant compared to the active rebel movement.

13. The Federative Republic of Brazil:

Brazil is a member of BRICS and follows an “autonomous foreign policy” under the current government. It strongly condemns the US annexation of Venezuela as a sovereignty violation, and the mediator's attempt failed. It is neutral on Great Power conflicts but anti-imperialist, recognises Palestine, maintains Taiwan's unofficial economic ties but follows the one-China policy publicly, and is neutral on Hormuz. Its 2029 allies include India, China selectively, and Russia, as Brazil prefers multipolarity. Its agenda is to lead South America and oppose US Venezuela annexation. Its goals include Amazon sovereignty,



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economic development, and regional stability. It is a federal presidential democratic republic with centre-left politics and multipolar world advocacy. In negotiations, it would compromise on great-power positioning to protect South American sovereignty and would leverage the largest South American economy, Amazon leadership, BRICS membership, and regional mediation credibility. Brazil's policy is driven by the desire to lead South America without becoming a US or Chinese satellite, using Amazon and BRICS as leverage.

14. The Plurinational State of Bolivia:

Bolivia is a member of BRICS through alliance and is not in NATO. It has a leftist government allied with Venezuela rebels after annexation, Cuba, and Nicaragua. It strongly condemns US annexation, recognises Palestine strongly, and opposes US intervention in South America. Its enemies are the USA and right-wing Latin American governments that accept annexation. Its 2029 allies include Venezuela rebels, Cuba, Nicaragua, Argentina if left-wing, China, and Russia. Its agenda is to oppose US imperialism and support Venezuela's resistance. Its goals include indigenous rights, resource nationalism, and anti-imperialist Latin America. It is a presidential democratic republic with an indigenous majority government, socialist indigenous nationalism, and an anti-imperialist orientation. In negotiations, it would compromise on economic reforms for aid but not sovereignty and would leverage lithium reserves, regional leftist alliances, and OPEC+ energy ties through Venezuela rebels.

15. The Republic of Panama:

Panama controls the Panama Canal, a critical global trade chokepoint, and follows a neutral foreign policy to protect canal neutrality. It is neutral on Venezuela annexation, fearing US regional dominance, and recognises the one-China policy. It has no formal enemies but is wary of US and China domination. Its 2029 allies include the USA due to the canal treaties and UN members respecting sovereignty. Its agenda is to maintain canal neutrality and avoid great-power conflict. Its goals include economic prosperity through canal revenues. It is a presidential democratic republic with liberal democracy and neutrality orientation. In negotiations, it would compromise on inspection regimes if canal sovereignty is guaranteed and would leverage the Panama Canal's critical global trade position and international law neutrality status.

16. The United Mexican States:

Mexico is a member of the USMCA and is economically tied to the USA. It is deeply concerned about the US annexation of Venezuela, creating US border expansion and is neutral on great-power conflicts but economically dependent on the USA. It is cautious on Venezuela, preferring regional dialogue and recognising the one-China policy. Its enemies are primarily cartels, not other states, but US immigration policy causes friction. Its 2029 allies include the USA economically and the EU selectively. Its agenda is to protect economic integration with the USA and maintain sovereignty. Its goals include reducing cartels, promoting economic development, and managing the US-Venezuela border impact. It is a presidential federal democratic republic with liberal democracy and pragmatic nationalism. In negotiations, it would compromise on immigration enforcement for trade benefits and would leverage USMCA economic integration, a massive manufacturing base, and a strategic US border position.

17. The State of Israel:



Israel is not in NATO but is a close US ally with strong US military aid and intelligence sharing. It supports the US-Venezuela annexation as an anti-socialist measure. Its enemies are Iran, Hezbollah, Hamas, Syria, and increasingly, Arab publics. Its 2029 allies include the USA primarily, Germany, the UK selectively, and India. Its agenda is to maintain security dominance and prevent Iranian nuclear capability. Its goals include securing existence and expanding settlements. It is a parliamentary democratic republic with disputed occupied territories, a Jewish state with Zionism plus security nationalism. In negotiations, it would compromise on some settlements for a peace deal but not Jerusalem or security zones and would leverage US military aid, nuclear ambiguity, advanced military technology, and intelligence capabilities. Israel's policy is existential security-driven, with a far-right coalition pushing for settlement expansion while relying on US veto protection at the UNSC.

18. The United Arab Emirates:

The UAE is a member of the Arab League and follows a pragmatic foreign policy balancing the US, China, and regional powers. It is normalising relations with Israel through the Abraham Accords, but is cautious on Gaza. It is neutral on Venezuela annexation, prioritising oil market stability, recognises Palestine officially, and maintains Israel ties. Its enemies are Iran, Qatar, and Muslim Brotherhood affiliates. Its 2029 allies include the USA, France selectively, Israel through the Abraham Accords, and China economically. Its agenda is to diversify the economy and maintain regional influence. Its goals include becoming a global trade hub and reducing oil dependency. It is a federal absolute monarchy with pragmatic authoritarian capitalism and pan-Arab elements. In negotiations, it would compromise on Palestine rhetoric for economic deals and would leverage oil wealth, strategic location, sovereign wealth funds, and mediation credibility.

19. The State of Palestine:

Palestine is not a UN member but is recognised by France and many countries. The Gaza Genocide is ongoing, and it supports Venezuelan rebels against US annexation as anti-imperialist solidarity. Its enemies are Israel primarily and the USA, which blocks recognition. Its 2029 allies include France, Turkey, Qatar, Iran, Algeria, most Global South countries, UN members recognising statehood, and Venezuelan rebels. Its agenda is to achieve full UN membership and statehood with the 1967 borders. Its goals include ending the occupation and the right of return. It is a presidential democratic republic in exile, fragmented between Gaza and the West Bank, with democratic nationalism and Islamic elements. In negotiations, it would compromise on the full right of return for Israeli withdrawal to 1967 borders and would leverage international recognition momentum, humanitarian narrative, and Arab League support. Palestine's political situation is defined by the ongoing Gaza genocide since October 2023, with over 72,000 deaths, the split between Hamas-controlled Gaza and Fatah-led Palestinian Authority in the West Bank, and Mahmoud Abbas's weakening legitimacy as president of a government-in-exile that controls no territory, while France and 140+ UN members recognise statehood, but the US and Israel block full UN membership through Security Council veto.

20. The State of Qatar:

Qatar is a member of the Arab League and mediates Hamas-Israel-US negotiations. It hosts the largest US military base in the Middle East, supports Palestine financially and politically, and mediates Venezuela



rebel negotiations. It is neutral on the Venezuela government vs the rebels. Its enemies are Saudi Arabia, the UAE, Egypt, over Muslim Brotherhood support and Iran's regional rivalry. Its 2029 allies include the USA, Turkey, Iran selectively, Hamas politically, and Venezuelan rebels. Its agenda is to maintain a mediation role and regional influence through Al Jazeera. Its goals include energy security and sovereignty protection. It is an emirate, an absolute monarchy, pragmatic authoritarianism and an Islamic moderate orientation. In negotiations, it would compromise on Hamas' political presence for a ceasefire and would leverage the largest natural gas reserves, a US base hosting, mediation credibility, and Al Jazeera media influence.

21. The Kingdom of Saudi Arabia:

Saudi Arabia is a member of the Arab League and OPEC+. It has recent normalisation with China and is cautious about Israel's normalisation through the Abraham Accords, but stalled due to Gaza. It is neutral on Venezuela annexation, prioritising OPEC+ oil stability and strongly recognising Palestine. Its enemies are Iran primarily, Qatar, and the Muslim Brotherhood. Its 2029 allies include the USA, traditionally, China increasingly, the UAE, and Egypt. Its agenda is to reduce oil dependency through Vision 2030 and maintain Islamic leadership. Its goals include regional dominance and economic diversification. It is an absolute monarchy with a conservative Islamic monarchy and a Wahhabi orientation. In negotiations, it would compromise on Palestine diplomatic pressure for Saudi-Israel normalisation and security guarantees and would leverage OPEC+ oil production, Islamic holy sites guardianship, and regional military capability.

22. The Islamic Republic of Iran:

Iran is the "Resistance Axis" leader supporting Hezbollah, Hamas, Syria, and Venezuela rebels against US annexation. The War of Hormuz is ongoing with the US per BG, and it opposes US military presence in the Middle East strongly and opposes US Venezuela annexation as imperialism. It recognises Palestine fully and funds Hamas and Hezbollah. Its enemies are the USA, now occupying Venezuela, Israel, Saudi Arabia, the UAE, and moderate Arab states. Its 2029 allies include Russia, China, Venezuela rebels, Syria, Hezbollah, Hamas, and Iraqi militias. Its agendas are to expel the US from the Middle East, achieve nuclear breakout capability if needed, and support Venezuela's resistance. Its goals include regional dominance through a proxy network, securing Hormuz control, and toppling the US regime. It is a presidential Islamic theocratic republic with Shia Islamic revolutionary ideology and anti-imperialist orientation. In negotiations, it would compromise on nuclear program limits for sanctions relief and US withdrawal from Hormuz and Venezuela and would leverage Hormuz choking capability, proxy network, uranium enrichment, and regional militia support. Iran's policy is revolutionary anti-imperialism driven by the Supreme Leader's ideology, with a proxy network as its primary leverage against superior US conventional power.

23. The Arab Republic of Egypt:

Egypt is a member of the Arab League and controls the Suez Canal, a critical global trade route. It has a peace treaty with Israel, but public sympathy for Palestine and is neutral on Venezuela annexation, prioritising Suez stability. It recognises Palestine officially but maintains Israel's security cooperation. Its enemies are Islamists, the Muslim Brotherhood, and potentially Ethiopia over the Nile dam. Its 2029 allies include the USA, EU, Israel, UAE, and Saudi Arabia. Its agenda is to maintain Suez revenues and regional stability. Its goals include economic recovery and Nile water security. It is a presidential semi-democratic



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republic, authoritarian-leaning, with pragmatic authoritarian nationalism and Arab nationalist elements. In negotiations, it would compromise on Gaza blockade enforcement for US aid and reconstruction and would leverage the Suez Canal's critical trade position, large military, and regional mediation credibility.

24. The Dominion of Canada:

Canada is a member of NATO and the G7 and is shifting toward more neutral allies like India and France under pressure from US Trump 2.0. It is critical of the US-Venezuela annexation, violating sovereignty, and advocates for multilateralism and human rights. It has a strong Arctic presence supporting Denmark on Greenland, recently recognised Palestine, supports Taiwan's democracy unofficially, and is neutral on Venezuela, preferring peaceful dialogue. Its enemies are Russia primarily, the USA on certain trade issues, Arctic issues, and Venezuela's annexation. Its 2029 allies include France, the UK, the EU core, India selectively, and the USA on security. Its agenda is to strengthen Arctic sovereignty and maintain the multilateral order. Its goals include a permanent UNSC seat, climate leadership, and opposing US Venezuelan annexation. It is a federal parliamentary constitutional monarchy with liberal democracy and progressive internationalism. In negotiations, it would compromise on US trade concessions for Arctic security cooperation and would leverage Arctic territory, natural resources, G7 membership, and mediation credibility.

25. The Republic of Poland:

Poland is a member of NATO and the EU, but calls for European independence, unlike France, advocating a united Europe. It is strongly anti-Russia, hosts the largest US troops in Europe, supports Ukraine strongly, and is cautious on China. It accepts the US-Venezuela annexation as anti-socialist. Its enemies are Russia primarily, Germany and EU federalists on EU independence. Its 2029 allies include the USA, UK, Baltic states, Czechia, Romania, and the NATO eastern flank. Its agenda is to maximise NATO eastern flank defence and achieve EU independence from federalism. Its goals include regional leadership in Central Europe and Russian containment. It is a presidential democratic republic with conservative nationalism and a strong anti-Russian orientation. In negotiations, it would compromise on EU federal integration for enhanced US security guarantees and would leverage the largest EU army, NATO eastern flank position, and US troop hosting.

26. The Kingdom of Denmark:

Denmark is a member of NATO and the EU and strongly advocates for Greenland's sovereignty. It is an Arctic maritime power, supports France in the United Europe, is a US ally but cautious on the Arctic, and is neutral on Venezuela annexation. Its enemy is Russia primarily over Arctic expansion. Its 2029 allies include France, the UK, Norway, the USA, and NATO Arctic partners. Its agenda is to protect Greenland's sovereignty and Arctic territorial integrity. Its goals include maintaining Nordic leadership and Arctic resources. It is a parliamentary constitutional monarchy with liberal democracy and a Nordic social democratic orientation. In negotiations, it would compromise on resource sharing in Greenland for sovereignty guarantees and would leverage NATO's Arctic position, strategic location, and Greenland territory. Denmark's foreign policy shifted dramatically after Trump's 2025 offer to buy Greenland, with PM Mette Frederiksen forming a centre-left coalition in 2026 specifically to defend Greenland's sovereignty while strengthening Arctic defence capabilities amid Russia's militarisation and five years of the Ukraine war.

27. The Sovereign Republic of Greenland:



Greenland is a self-governing territory of Denmark, but has declared sovereignty. It is an Arctic island with a strategic location and rare earth resources, and it wants full independence from Denmark. It is friendly with the EU and France and cautious of the US and China, and is neutral on Venezuela's annexation. It has no formal enemies but is wary of Denmark, the US, and China's domination. Its 2029 allies include Denmark selectively, France, Canada, the Nordic countries, and Arctic Council members. Its agenda is to achieve full independence and control of rare earth resources. Its goals include sovereign statehood and economic development through mining. It is a self-governing territory seeking independence with a democratic movement and indigenous Inuit nationalism. In negotiations, it would compromise on defence agreements with Denmark for independence recognition and would leverage rare earth deposits, strategic Arctic location, and indigenous rights narrative. Greenland's independence movement gained momentum after Trump's 2025 acquisition offer exposed Danish vulnerability, but heavy economic dependence on Copenhagen (50% of the budget from Danish subsidies) makes full independence difficult without foreign investment in rare earth mining.

28. The French Republic:

France is a member of NATO and the EU and is shifting towards more neutral allies like India, Canada, and others. It politically advocates for a more united Europe, unlike Poland, which called for European independence. It is a maritime power strong and active in the Arctic, strongly supports Denmark in terms of Greenland, and considers Greenland a part of the EU and strongly advocates for Denmark's sovereignty. It recently shifted away from the US due to Trump, advocates against the US's mess in the Middle East, and condemns US annexation of Venezuela as a sovereignty violation, but doesn't support rebels either. It wants peaceful restoration of Venezuelan democracy without occupation, doesn't condone regime change and subsequent capture of Venezuela, but doesn't support the rebels either, and wants the Venezuelan government in exile to return to power peacefully. It is increasingly cautious of China, recognises Palestine, supports Taiwan, and advocates against US troops being in Europe, especially if they aren't helping Europe fight Russia. Its enemies are Russia and the US on certain issues, including Venezuela's annexation.

29. The Federal Republic of Germany:

Germany is a member of NATO and the EU core and advocates for a united Europe with France. It is cautious on US troops after Trump, has strong economic ties with China but security on NATO, supports Denmark on Greenland, and recognises Palestine conditionally. It condemns the US-Venezuela annexation per the EU position and is neutral on Venezuela, preferring EU mediation. Its enemy is Russia primarily. Its 2029 allies include France, the EU core, the UK selectively, and the USA on security. Its agenda is to maintain EU economic leadership and energy security. Its goals include nuclear sharing and European army leadership. It is a federal parliamentary republic with social democracy and European federalist orientation. In negotiations, it would compromise on Chinese economic ties for EU security autonomy and would leverage the EU economic engine, energy transition leadership, and NATO European backbone.

30. The Kingdom of Belgium:

Belgium is a member of NATO with headquarters in Brussels and a member of the EU with headquarters in Brussels. It advocates for a united Europe with France and Germany, condemns the US-Venezuela annexation per EU position, is neutral on Venezuela per EU position, and recognises Palestine conditionally. Its enemy is Russia primarily. Its 2029 allies include France, Germany, the EU core, and NATO. Its agenda is to maintain Brussels as the international capital and EU unity. Its goals include the advancement of European federalism. It is a federal parliamentary constitutional monarchy with



progressive liberalism and strong European federalism. In negotiations, it would compromise on national vetoes for EU majority voting and would leverage NATO HQ, EU HQ, diplomatic centrality, and multilateral diplomacy expertise.

31. The Republic of South Africa:

South Africa is a member of BRICS and follows an “impartial” foreign policy and is non-aligned. It is sceptical of Western hegemony, recognises Palestine strongly, and strongly condemns the US-Venezuela annexation as imperialism. It is neutral on Venezuela, preferring AU mediation and has no formal enemies but is critical of the US, UK, and Israel. Its 2029 allies include BRICS partners, especially China, Russia, India, and Venezuela rebels. Its agenda is to lead the African Union and maintain a non-aligned stance. Its goals include a permanent UNSC seat and African leadership. It is a parliamentary democratic republic with a constitutional democracy, an African nationalist, and an anti-imperialist orientation. In negotiations, it would compromise on great-power alignment for African development aid and would leverage African Union leadership, mineral resources, and Global South diplomatic weight. It is also a close ally of ASEAN.

32. The Commonwealth of Australia:

Australia is a NATO partner, not in NATO and a member of the G7 by extension. It is an AUKUS partner with the USA and UK and has a strong US alliance. It opposes China's South China Sea claims, supports Taiwan's democracy unofficially, recognises Palestine conditionally, and accepts the US Venezuela annexation as anti-socialist. Its enemy is China primarily. Its 2029 allies include the USA, UK, Japan, and India through the Quad. Its agenda is to contain China in the Indo-Pacific and secure trade routes. Its goals include AUCUS nuclear submarine capability and regional security. It is a federal parliamentary constitutional monarchy with liberal democracy and a strong Atlanticist orientation. In negotiations, it would compromise on China's economic ties for security guarantees and would leverage AUKUS nuclear submarines, critical mineral resources, and Five Eyes intelligence. Australia's policy underwent a historic shift when the 2023 AUKUS deal committed it to nuclear submarines by 2035, marking the first time Australia abandoned its nuclear-free policy to counter China, with the Albanese government prioritising security over China's economic dominance despite mining exports worth A\$150 billion annually.

33. The Republic of Japan:

Japan is a NATO partner, not in NATO and the US alliance cornerstone in the Indo-Pacific. It opposes China-Taiwan action strongly, supports Taiwan's self-defence unofficially, recognises Palestine conditionally, and accepts the US-Venezuela annexation as anti-socialist. Its enemies are China, North Korea, and Russia. Its 2029 allies include the USA, UK, Australia, and India through the Quad. Its agenda is to revise the pacifist constitution and strengthen the military against China. Its goals include a permanent UNSC seat and regional security leadership. It is a parliamentary constitutional monarchy with an emperor's symbolic role and a liberal democracy with a strong US alliance orientation. In negotiations, it would compromise on pacifist constitution limits for US security guarantees and would leverage the third-largest economy, US alliance, advanced technology, and maritime capability. Japan's foreign policy has shifted dramatically under Prime Minister Fumio Kishida's successor, with the LDP pushing to revise Article 9's pacifist clause after China's South China Sea aggression and North Korea's nuclear tests, doubling defence spending to 2% of GDP and building counterstrike capabilities while relying on US extended deterrence.



34. The Korean Republic (South Korea):

South Korea is a member of NATO but is diverting from the US Alliance due to the US and North Korean alliance, and is cautious of China economically. It is neutral on Venezuela's annexation and recognises Palestine conditionally. Its enemies are North Korea and China occasionally. Its 2029 allies include the USA, Japan, and the EU. Its agenda is to deter North Korea and maintain economic growth. Its goals include reunification on democratic terms and tech leadership. It is a presidential democratic republic with liberal democracy and a pro-US security orientation. In negotiations, it would compromise on China's economic access for North Korea's denuclearisation and would leverage the semiconductor industry, the US alliance, and strategic location. It hopes to leave NATO in the future but stay as a close ally. South Korea's policy is undergoing a major shift as Trump 2.0's unpredictable alliance management and US-North Korea backchannel talks make Seoul worry about being abandoned, forcing it to balance US security guarantees with China's economic dependence while pursuing independent denuclearisation diplomacy.

SECTION 13 — Questions Around Which Committee Revolves

“The purpose of DISEC is not merely to ask who possesses power. The purpose of DISEC is to ask how power should be used.”

QARMA 01: Adequacy of Existing Security Architecture

Are existing international security architectures adequate for the emerging multipolar geopolitical reality of the late 2020s, or do fundamentally new multilateral frameworks need to be negotiated? If new frameworks are needed, what form should they take, and how can they be designed to include states that have systematically rejected existing frameworks?

QARMA 02: The Trump Corollary and International Law

Does Trump's "America First" doctrine and the "Trump Corollary" to the Monroe Doctrine constitute a legitimate reassessment of alliance burden-sharing and hemispheric security, or do they fundamentally undermine the rules-based international order that DISEC exists to uphold? What specific legal principles govern the US operations in Venezuela, and what precedent do they set for great power behaviour in their respective spheres of influence?

QARMA 03: Greenland and Territorial Annexation

Can a state legally threaten to annex the territory of an ally under international law? The Trump administration stated that military force is "not ruled out" for acquiring Greenland, a Danish territory covered by NATO's Article 5, from another NATO member. What mechanisms within or beyond the UN framework should prevent such threats? How does the Greenland case interact with the right of indigenous peoples (the Kalaallisut Greenlandic people) to self-determination under the UN Declaration on the Rights of Indigenous Peoples?



QARMA 04: UNCLOS and Mandatory Arbitration

How should maritime sovereignty disputes be addressed when one party categorically and permanently rejects binding international arbitration rulings under UNCLOS? China's rejection of the 2016 South China Sea ruling and Iran's contested claims over Hormuz transit governance both illustrate the limits of the current framework. What enforcement mechanisms are both effective and acceptable to the states whose cooperation is necessary?

QARMA 05: South China Sea Code of Conduct

The July 2026 COC deadline passed without agreement. China retains de facto control of the Spratly Islands following the August 2027 confrontation. What framework for governance of the South China Sea, including its military dimensions, is now realistic? Is a legally binding COC still achievable? What international guarantees would be required for ASEAN member states to accept a COC that China will participate in?

QARMA 06: Military Strikes on Nuclear Programmes

Were the June 2025 military strikes on Iran's nuclear programme justified under international law? The Stimson Centre argues they strengthened the case for weaponisation; defenders argue they delayed proliferation. What precedent does this set for other nuclear programmes, including North Korea's? Should there be an international legal framework governing the conditions under which preventive military action against nuclear programmes is permissible?

QARMA 07: Autonomous Weapons and AI

Should lethal autonomous weapons systems and AI-assisted nuclear decision-making receive binding international regulation? The December 2025 DISEC resolution passed 177 to 2 but is non-binding. What binding framework is achievable? What verification mechanisms are technically feasible in an era where AI capabilities are advancing faster than regulatory frameworks?

QARMA 08: Shadow Fleets and Sanctions Evasion

How should the international community respond to states that use shadow fleets, proxy forces, and emerging financial infrastructure to systematically evade UN arms embargoes and sanctions regimes? The Bella 1 interception demonstrated one enforcement option. De-dollarisation and BRICS alternative payment systems are creating structural evasion capabilities. What legal and institutional frameworks can address this at scale?

QARMA 09: SALW Proliferation and the ATT Gap

What international legal framework should govern SALW proliferation in contested territories, and how can it be made binding on the major arms producers — the US, Russia, and China — who are currently outside the full Arms Trade Treaty framework? The 2027 escalation cascade produced additional SALW proliferation across all four theatres. How does the committee propose to address this?

QARMA 10: Military Presence and Stability



Does military presence guarantee stability or generate greater insecurity in contested maritime regions? The evidence from the South China Sea, the Strait of Hormuz, and the Arctic is mixed: US carrier groups deterred further Chinese aggression in Taiwan but could not prevent the Spratly seizures; the Hormuz corridor framework created stability only after military escalation. What should international rules governing military activities in contested zones look like?

SECTION 12A — Extended Analysis: Bloc Positions on Key QARMAs

The following analysis examines how different blocs and major states are positioned on the committee's central questions. Delegates should use this as a starting point for research, not a substitute for country-specific preparation.

The Western-Aligned Bloc: Internal Divisions on Procedure vs Substance

States within the NATO alliance and its Indo-Pacific partners — the US, UK, France, Germany, Australia, Canada, Japan, South Korea, and New Zealand — broadly agree on the substantive assessment of the threats posed by China, Russia, Iran, and North Korea. Where they disagree, sometimes sharply, is on the procedural and legal dimensions of the response. The US under Trump has been willing to act unilaterally — in Venezuela, in the Taiwan Strait, in the Hormuz airstrikes — without prior consultation with or consent from allies. European states, with their deeper commitment to multilateral institutions, have been deeply uncomfortable with this unilateralism even when they agreed with the underlying objective.

This division manifests in DISEC debates as a split between states that emphasise maintaining multilateral processes (UK, France, Germany, Canada, EU members generally) and states that prioritise outcomes regardless of process (US, with implicit support from Israel and, on specific issues, Japan and Australia). Delegates representing Western-aligned states must navigate this internal tension while presenting a coherent bloc position. The April 2026 Spain-US dispute over Hormuz hegemony is one manifestation of this intra-bloc tension; the NATO debate over Article 4 consultations during the 2027 crisis is another.

BRICS and the Global South: The Multi-Alignment Imperative

States within BRICS and the broader Global South face an acute dilemma: they have concrete material interests in a stable, rules-based international order (which protects them from great power coercion and provides access to global markets), but they also have significant grievances with a "rules-based order" that they perceive as having been designed by and primarily serving Western interests. They are not simply pro-Western or pro-China; they are pro-their-own-interests in a complex environment.

India's position is the most consequential of the non-aligned states. India voted for the General Assembly resolution condemning China's Taiwan aggression in 2027 — departing from its traditional abstention pattern on such resolutions — while simultaneously refusing to endorse sanctions against China or join the Western export control regime. India used its good offices to broker the August 2027 ceasefire (for which Modi received significant international recognition) and the December 2027 Iran de-escalation, demonstrating that strategic autonomy can generate genuine diplomatic influence. Indian delegates in DISEC should be expected to argue for frameworks that protect small and medium states from great power coercion by all parties — not just the states that Western-framed resolutions tend to target.

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African states face particular challenges in the current environment. China is the largest bilateral source of infrastructure investment across the African continent through the BRI. The United States is the largest source of development assistance through diminished but still significant USAID programmes (dramatically cut under Trump). The African Union has its own security architecture (APSA) that is underfunded and overwhelmed. The Djibouti situation — where both the US and China maintain military bases in the same small East African state — illustrates the impossible balancing acts that many African states must perform. African delegates in DISEC should be attentive to the ways in which great power competition plays out on African soil in ways that African peoples bear the consequences of but have limited agency in shaping.

Iran, Russia, China: The Axis of Upheaval and Its Limits

Russia, China, and Iran share a common interest in challenging the US-led international order, reducing US global military reach, and establishing alternative international governance frameworks that accommodate their respective spheres of influence. But they are not an alliance in the traditional sense. Their interests diverge on multiple axes. China does not want Russia to win in Ukraine to the extent that Russia becomes a threat rather than a partner. Russia does not want China to achieve dominance over Central Asia, which Russia views as its sphere of influence. Iran's Hormuz strategy creates oil price spikes that benefit Russia but harm China, which is a major oil importer.

In DISEC, delegates representing these states face a complex task: advocating positions that challenge the US-led order while not conceding the legitimacy of the critique that their own states are engaged in exactly the kind of aggressive, rules-violating behaviour they accuse the US of. Russian delegates must defend state sovereignty while Russia is actively violating Ukrainian sovereignty. Chinese delegates must defend international law in the South China Sea while rejecting the binding arbitral award that constitutes the most authoritative international legal determination of Chinese conduct in those waters. Iranian delegates must invoke UNCLOS transit passage rights in the Strait of Hormuz, while Iran has just closed that strait in violation of those same rights.

Final Questions for Delegates

Can the international system remain functional under emerging multipolar competition without reforming the UN Security Council's P5 veto structure, which paralysed collective security responses to Ukraine, the South China Sea crisis, and the Venezuela operation simultaneously in 2027?

What reforms to global security architecture are both necessary and achievable in an era when the United States itself — the primary architect of the rules-based order — is simultaneously its primary champion and its most consequential source of pressure?

Does the emergence of partial multilateral institutions in each theatre — the Gulf corridor centre, the Denmark-Greenland benefit-sharing framework, the Venezuela provisional governance arrangement — represent genuine multilateralism or a fractured substitute for the global institutions that are failing?

What is the committee's answer to the fundamental question: in a world of great power rivalry, contested territories, and collapsing arms control, how do we keep the nuclear threshold from being crossed?



SECTION 13 — Glossary of Key Terms

Major Power Profiles:-

1. The United States of America

- **Economic Status:** Possesses massive unilateral financial leverage but heavily relies on trade-restrictive measures, tariff diplomacy, and targeted sanctions architectures to maintain market primacy. It increasingly weaponises its domestic currency dominance to execute counter-narcotics and stabilisation missions.
- **Military Status:** Possesses the planet's largest and most expansive expeditionary military reach. It is actively investing in all three legs of its strategic nuclear triad—land-based ICBMs, submarine-launched ballistic missiles, and nuclear-capable bombers. It also spearheads the "Golden Dome" initiative, a comprehensive, integrated air and space-based missile defence intercept shield.
- **Geopolitical / Socio-Political Agendas & Goals:** Operating under the "America First 2.0" foreign policy doctrine and the "Trump Corollary" to the Monroe Doctrine, the US seeks to reassert strict unilateral primacy across the entire Western Hemisphere while rejecting broad multi-state institutional frameworks in favour of transactional, bilateral deal-making. Its strategic objectives centre on forcing aggressive defence burden-sharing on traditional allies, securing direct corporate ownership over critical energy assets, and obtaining a permanent monopoly over high-end semiconductor supply chains and Arctic radar/surveillance networks.
- **Alliances:** Anchors the newly hardened "NATO 3.0" framework, though it has heavily strained the alliance by threatening to withdraw its protective umbrella unless allies meet aggressive military spending requirements. It relies on minilateral security configurations, including the deep integration of AUKUS (which spans AI, cyber, electronic warfare, and space capabilities) and the Quad defence alignment. It also leads the informal "Pacific Partnership" with Japan, Australia, South Korea, and the Philippines.
- **Trade Partners:** Maintains vital but severely friction-filled trade relationships with the European Union, Canada, Mexico, Japan, and Taiwan, while forcing external dependencies like provisional governing structures into exclusive supply chains.
- **Enemies:** Formally opposes the Non-Western Resistors—primarily China, Russia, Iran, and North Korea—viewing them as direct threats to its geopolitical interests.
- **Wars & Conflicts Involved In:** Executed a massive, unilateral military intervention in Venezuela, deploying over 150 aircraft to strike Caracas communication hubs and air defences to capture Nicolas Maduro. It carried out devastating air and naval strikes against Iranian nuclear sites during the Twelve-Day War. It remains actively engaged in naval standoffs and carrier strike group deployments in the South China Sea, the Taiwan Strait, and the Strait of Hormuz to challenge anti-access/area-denial frameworks.

2. The People's Republic of China

- **Economic Status:** Functions as the world's primary manufacturing hub, holding unrivalled global industrial depth and massive infrastructure investments channelled through the Belt and Road Initiative (BRI). It aggressively funds alternative financial mechanisms, non-dollar trade settlements, and independent sovereign asset protection networks to insulate its economy from Western sanctions leverage.

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- **Military Status:** Possesses immense regional naval and maritime depth, anchored by an expanding blue-water navy and aggressive anti-access capabilities. China is rapidly expanding its strategic nuclear arsenal by constructing hundreds of new intercontinental ballistic missile silos across Xinjiang and Inner Mongolia, with projections estimating it could triple its warhead count by 2030.
- **Geopolitical / Socio-Political Agendas & Goals:** China's core objective is to establish absolute regional maritime dominance within the Indo-Pacific and replace Western-dominated arbitral tribunals with alternative legal structures. It seeks to systematically push the United States out of the First Island Chain, secure total administrative control over the South China Sea, and establish long-term energy corridors that completely bypass vulnerable naval chokepoints monitored by the West.
- **Alliances:** Co-anchors the Consolidated Non-Western Alternative and the multipolar Eurasian-Global South Order. It maintains a deep, strategically vital relationship with Russia, North Korea, and Iran. It uses an institutionalised BRICS network to secure resource supply lines across Africa, Central Asia, and Latin America.
- **Trade Partners:** Engages in massive trade across ASEAN, the European Union, and Latin American resource suppliers. It has increasingly solidified direct oil-for-goods settlements with Saudi Arabia and Iran.
- **Enemies:** Identifies the United States, the AUKUS alliance, and standard Western coalitions as its primary strategic adversaries. It maintains high-friction relationships with regional neighbours that contest its maritime claims, primarily the Philippines, Vietnam, and Japan.
- **Wars & Conflicts Involved In:** Engages in low-intensity, grey-zone maritime warfare and territorial expansion across the South China Sea. It has deployed its Coast Guard and maritime militia to ram, blockade, and fire high-pressure water cannons at Filipino and Vietnamese vessels around Scarborough Shoal, Sabina Shoal, and Thitu Island. It provides critical dual-use technological, electronic, and industrial support that sustains Russia's military-industrial complex. Additionally, it achieved a major power milestone by opening the expanded China-Djibouti military base, marking its first permanent military footprint outside the Indo-Pacific.

3. The Russian Federation

- **Economic Status:** Operates under severe, comprehensive Western sanctions architectures but has achieved economic resilience by pivoting its resource exports entirely toward Asian markets. It relies heavily on a "Shadow Fleet" of over 600 unregistered, re-flagged tankers to systematically move its crude oil and evade global embargoes.
- **Military Status:** Possesses a massive conventional army hardened by prolonged high-intensity warfare, alongside a formidable nuclear arsenal. Russia is actively upgrading its nuclear forces by deploying new Sarmat intercontinental ballistic missiles, Poseidon nuclear-armed stealth torpedoes, and Burevestnik nuclear-powered cruise missiles. It specialises in hidden, asymmetric digital warfare, cyber disruption, and regional destabilisation.
- **Geopolitical / Socio-Political Agendas & Goals:** Seeks to decisively shatter the post-Cold War Euro-Atlantic security architecture, permanently break its international isolation, and lock in its territorial gains across Eastern Europe. In the high north, Moscow aims to exploit climate change by militarising the newly opened Northern Sea Route, rebuilding Soviet-era Arctic bases, and deploying advanced S-400 air defence networks to dominate deep-sea resource extraction.
- **Alliances:** Maintains an integrated security and financial alignment with China, Iran, and North Korea. It operates as a core pillar of the Eurasian-Global South Order and utilises the expanded BRICS network to build alternative, non-dollar transaction systems.
- **Trade Partners:** Primarily trades with China, India, Iran, and various Global South nations that refuse to enforce Western sanctions, tapping into cheap Russian energy supplies.

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- **Enemies:** Identifies NATO, the United States, and the broader Western core as existential geopolitical adversaries.
- **Wars & Conflicts Involved In:** Actively waging a prolonged, high-intensity conventional war of attrition in Ukraine. It conducts continuous air and naval patrols across the North Atlantic and the GIUK Gap. Following the US intervention in Venezuela, Russia deployed asymmetric, deniable military operations and private military contractors to secure vital parallel assets and back Latin American resistance networks resisting foreign regime change.

4. The European Union & Highly Militarised European States

- **Economic Status:** Highly advanced, wealthy industrial and technological economies, though heavily vulnerable to severe energy price shocks, supply chain disruptions, and the massive financial strains of sudden domestic rearmament.
- **Military Status:** Undergoing the most profound and massive collective conventional rearmament of the post-World War II era. Spurred by the historic June 2025 Hague Summit, European nations have committed to a 5% GDP defence spending target (3.5% on core military hardware and 1.5% on security infrastructure and cyber networks). Individually, France maintains an independent nuclear triad and has raised the possibility of establishing a European nuclear umbrella, while Germany has permanently abandoned its post-war pacifist culture via a historic special defence fund.
- **Geopolitical / Socio-Political Agendas & Goals:** Heavily focused on building domestic material and industrial resilience to survive a fracturing transatlantic bond. Europe's core goals are to contain localised regional conflicts before they cause a total system collapse, defend the integrity of the sovereign rules-based order, and build independent military structures to reduce total reliance on fluctuating US strategic commitments.
- **Alliances:** Bound collectively under NATO ("NATO 3.0") and the European Union. Under the "ReArm Europe" plan, European states have assumed direct conventional command leadership over NATO's Joint Force Commands to appease American burden-sharing demands.
- **Trade Partners:** Maintains deep, institutionalised trade linkages with the United States, Canada, Japan, and the democratic economies of the Indo-Pacific, while attempting to de-risk its supply chains from China.
- **Enemies:** Views the Russian Federation as an immediate, direct conventional threat to its eastern frontier, and classifies Iran and North Korea as dangerous international destabilisers.
- **Wars & Conflicts Involved In:** Engaged in a massive proxy defence of Eastern Europe, scaling up its collective financial and military contributions to Ukraine to \$18.8 billion per quarter. European states have deployed tens of thousands of additional troops along the sensitive Suwalki Gap, the Polish border, and the Baltic states, alongside expanded naval fleets in the Black and Baltic Seas. European states like Spain have directly clashed with US unilateral maritime commands over naval control in international waterways like the Strait of Hormuz. Additionally, Denmark is locked in a high-stakes legal and diplomatic struggle against US annexation pressures over Greenland.

America First 2.0: Trump's second-term foreign policy doctrine: transactional alliances, tariff diplomacy, Western Hemisphere primacy, withdrawal from multilateral institutions, and rejection of Great Power Competition framing in favour of bilateral deal-making.

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Trump Corollary: The 2025 NSS extension of the Monroe Doctrine, asserting US preeminence across the entire Western Hemisphere, used to justify the Venezuela operation, Greenland annexation threats, Panama Canal pressure, and Caribbean military strikes.

Pax Multipolaris: An international environment characterised by multiple major power centres with competing visions of international order — the emerging system of the late 2020s, replacing the post-Cold War US-led unipolar order.

Great Power Competition (GPC): Intensifying rivalry among the US, China, and Russia for control over international rules, contested territories, trade routes, and technological standards. Dropped from the 2025 US NSS but used by analysts to describe the underlying structural reality.

Snapback Mechanism (JCPOA): A provision in the 2015 Iran nuclear deal allowing any participant to reimpose UN sanctions without a Security Council vote. Triggered by the UK, France, and Germany in September 2025, following Iran's significant non-performance.

Shadow Fleet: A network of 600 or more unregistered or re-flagged tankers used by Russia, Iran, and Venezuela to evade Western sanctions. The Bella 1 was intercepted by US and UK forces in January 2026. The fleet represents the primary mechanism through which sanctioned oil reaches global markets.

ReArm Europe: EU five-point plan to boost European defence spending by up to €800 billion, including €150 billion from EU funds, announced at the June 2025 Hague Summit in response to Trump's burden-sharing demands and Russia's invasion of Ukraine.

Nine-Dash Line: China's claimed maritime boundary encompasses approximately 90% of the South China Sea. Ruled unlawful under UNCLOS by the PCA in 2016. China refuses to recognise the ruling and continues to enforce the claim through military and coast guard operations.

Code of Conduct (COC): Long-negotiated rules for state behaviour in the South China Sea between ASEAN states and China. Approximately 70% agreed as of late 2025; core issues on legal bindingness, geographic scope, and outside power involvement remain completely unresolved.

SALWs: Small Arms and Light Weapons — rifles, machine guns, RPGs, MANPADS, and mortars. Approximately one billion in global circulation; up to 500,000 deaths annually. Regulated by the non-binding UNPoA and the partially binding ATT.

LAWS: Lethal Autonomous Weapons Systems — weapons capable of selecting and engaging targets without meaningful human control (commonly called "killer robots"). No binding international regulation exists despite years of discussions in the Convention on Certain Conventional Weapons forum.

ASAT: Anti-Satellite weapons designed to destroy or disable satellites in orbit. All major powers have tested them. Creates catastrophic debris risk (Kessler Syndrome: a cascade of collisions rendering orbital bands permanently unusable). No binding prohibition in international law.

Golden Dome: Trump administration's US integrated air and missile defence initiative combining ground-based, sea-based, and space-based interceptors. Directly linked to Greenland's strategic positioning discussions, given Greenland's geographic value for Arctic early-warning radar.

Twelve-Day War: June 2025 armed conflict involving the US, Israel, and Iran. US and Israeli forces struck Iranian nuclear facilities. Iran and Israel exchanged missile salvos. SIPRI and Stimson Centre analysts assess the

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strikes as having strengthened the case for weaponisation within Iran's political establishment.

Balikatan: Annual US-Philippines joint military exercise. The 2026 iteration was the largest ever, involving the US, Australia, Japan, Canada, France, and New Zealand — reflecting the deepening multilateral character of Indo-Pacific security architecture.

Transactionalism: Trump's foreign policy approach treats American power as an asset to be exchanged bilaterally: alliances conditional on payment, territorial demands in exchange for security guarantees, bilateral deals over multilateral institutions.

UNCLOS: UN Convention on the Law of the Sea (1982). Establishes 12-nautical-mile territorial seas and 200-nautical-mile EEZs. Central to the South China Sea and Arctic disputes. The US enforces its principles but has never ratified them.

New START: New Strategic Arms Reduction Treaty (2010). The last remaining bilateral US-Russia nuclear arms limitation agreement. Suspended by Russia in February 2023. No successor is under negotiation. Nuclear governance at its lowest point since the 1960s.

Hybrid Warfare: Combined use of military, cyber, economic, informational, and political tools below the threshold of conventional warfare. Russia's primary operational mode in Ukraine and beyond is also employed systematically by China, Iran, and North Korea.

ATT: Arms Trade Treaty (2014). Legally binding regulation of international conventional arms transfers, including SALWs. 113 states parties. The US signed, but is not fully in compliance; Russia and China have not signed — the three largest arms exporters are therefore outside its full legal obligations.

De-dollarisation: The gradual reduction in the share of international trade, reserves, and financial transactions denominated in US dollars. Accelerated significantly since 2022 under US sanctions, weaponisation and BRICS' explicit commitment to alternative financial infrastructure. Threatens the enforceability of US-led sanctions regimes.

Kessler Syndrome: A scenario in which the density of objects in low Earth orbit is high enough that collisions between objects could cause a cascade of further collisions, rendering the orbital band unusable for generations. Anti-satellite weapon tests already contribute to debris levels that increase this risk.

FONOP: Freedom of Navigation Operation. US naval and air operations conducted through contested maritime zones to assert that international law (UNCLOS transit passage rights) applies regardless of coastal state claims. China and Iran contest the legality of US FONOPs in the South China Sea and the Gulf, respectively.

Naalakkersuisut: The Government of Greenland, Greenland's self-rule executive authority. The Naalakkersuisut has constitutional authority over most domestic affairs but not foreign policy or defence, which remain Danish responsibilities under the 2009 Self-Government Act.

P5 Veto: The right of the five permanent members of the UN Security Council (US, UK, France, Russia, China) to block any substantive resolution. In 2027, both Russia and China exercised vetoes that prevented a collective UN response to the Taiwan confrontation and Venezuela operation.

Multi-alignment: The foreign policy strategy of states such as India, Türkiye, Saudi Arabia, Brazil, and Indonesia that maintain significant relationships with both Western and non-Western blocs without formally committing to either. Replaces the Cold War concept of non-alignment in the multipolar era.



Section 14 – Paperwork Guidelines

CRITICAL COMMITTEE RULES

- **Simulation Freeze Date: 20 January 2029.** All arguments, events, and documents must reflect the global landscape on or before this exact date. Information or real-world events from after this date cannot be used.
- **No Artificial Intelligence:** The use of AI in any paperwork is strictly forbidden. Detected AI usage will result in heavy downmarking.
- **Credible Sources Only:** Delegates must base their research on credible international databases. Core accepted sources include **UNCLOS** (for maritime/Arctic disputes), the **UN Charter**, the **UN Treaty Collection (UNTC)**, **UNCTAD**, **SIPRI**, **Reuters**, etc.

PART 1: POSITION PAPER GUIDELINES

Your position paper must establish how your country navigates the **"Pax Multipolaris"** world order—a state of managed disorder where multiple power centres constantly hedge and compete to limit one another without causing total global collapse. **Also, delegates must submit their position papers in PDF format while adhering to the deadline. The length must be 2 pages at most. Any delay from the deadline without genuine reasoning will result in a deduction of points for that delegate.**

Required Structure:

1. **National Stance on the Agenda:** Define your country's position regarding global security frameworks and contested territories (e.g., Greenland, Strait of Hormuz, or Venezuela).
2. **Bloc Realities:** Identify your alignment within your assigned bloc (Major Powers, ASEAN, South-American Nexus, Middle-Eastern Countries, NATO, Indo-Pacific, or BRICS). State whether your country prioritises legal sovereignty or strategic material assets (energy corridors, trade routes, military deterrence).
3. **Strategic Solutions:** Outline actionable, realistic policy choices that maintain your national autonomy and flexibility while preventing full-scale system escalation.

PART 2: COMMITTEE DOCUMENTATION TYPES

All written communication in this committee is divided into three distinct categories. **Note:** Every document must be signed in person by the delegate; you may never sign on behalf of another country.

1. Committee Chits

- **Delegate-to-Delegate Chit:** Private messages sent directly between delegates to coordinate during session.

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- **Delegate-to-EB Chit:** Notes sent to the Executive Board for procedural requests or rules clarification.
- **Point of Information (POI) Chit:** Brief, challenging questions sent to a speaking delegate **via the EB** to test their policy stance.
- **Substantive Chit:** Sent directly to the EB containing actual policy proposals, clause ideas, or draft text.

2. Formal Documents

- **Communiqué:** Instructions or policy announcements sent by a delegate to their home government or another entity.
 - *Public:* The writer and content are announced to the whole room.
 - *Private:* Only the content is announced; the writer remains anonymous.
 - *Covert:* Neither writer nor content is announced—only the practical outcome is stated.
 - *Joint:* Co-written by two or more collaborating delegations.
- **Press Release:** Used by a delegate or bloc to inform the public, influence public opinion, or strategically spread misinformation regarding an active crisis.
- **Draft Resolution Clause:** A formal policy sentence written using standard preambulatory or operative UN language to build a final resolution.

3. Crisis & Strategic Documents

- **Strategic Memorandum:** Temporary, crisis-oriented documents used to build coalitions, declare war, invoke NATO Article 5, or create specific economic/naval zones. *Covert until passed, then becomes fully Public.*
- **Military / Navy Statement:** Official declarations justifying or announcing sudden troop movements, naval deployments, or missile drills. *Must explicitly state the specific military branch involved.*
- **Maritime Incident Brief:** Crisis documents used to justify aggressive ocean actions like inspecting cargo ships, enforcing naval blockades, or seizing vessels. *Covert until passed.*
- **Intelligence Report:** High-impact covert documents used to submit satellite imagery, spy reports, or intercepted communications. Can be used to swing committee perception or leak strategic information. *Always remains completely Covert.*
- **Emergency Security Measures Brief:** Rapid, reactive documents submitted during active crises (terror attacks, coups, border collapses) to show how a state is stabilising its territory without violating peace. *Covert until passed, then becomes Public.*
- **Inter-Committee Document:** Used to formally coordinate actions with other active committees, such as requesting UN Security Council (UNSC) authorisation for peacekeeping forces or international arms investigations. *Covert until passed.*
- **Treaty Document:** Permanent, legally binding long-term agreements between states regarding military alliances, border lines, or resource access. Breaking a treaty carries heavy political penalties. *Covert until passed, then becomes Public.*
- **Tribunal Statement:** Legal accusations submitted to bodies like the ICJ or ICC targeting a government or military official for war crimes, terror financing, or illegal invasions. *Covert until passed, then becomes Public.*
- **Backchannel Communication:** Secret diplomatic or resource-exchange deals struck under-the-table between countries. *Always remains Covert: only the writer and the final system effect will be announced to the room, never the raw text.*

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SECTION 15 — Appendix

In this committee, we will use 3 forms of documentation, which include:

1. **Chits**
2. **Formal Documents**
3. **Crisis Documents**

Chits

a. **Delegate-to-Delegate Chit**

A delegate-to-delegate chit is private communication between two or more delegates during committee procedures.

b. **Delegate-to-EB Chit**

A delegate-to-Executive Board chit is a note sent to the dais or chair for procedural clarification, permission, or a formal request.

c. **POI Chit**

A Point of Information chit is a short question sent to the delegate who is speaking, usually to challenge, clarify, or test their position. (A POI Chit should be sent to the delegate via EB, so that it can be marked.)

d. **Substantive Chit**

A substantive chit contains actual policy content, such as a clause, proposal, amendment idea, or draft text. (A substantive chit is sent to the EB.)

Example:

From: The Delegate of Russia
Delegate of India **(VIA EB)**

To: The

If your delegation supports freedom of navigation, how do you justify military escalation in contested waters without increasing regional instability?

Formal Documents

a. **Communiqué**

A communiqué is a message that is sent by a delegate to the government of their country or any person of their choice, issuing an instruction or a set of instructions, in this committee. Communiqués in this committee will be of

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three types: Private, Public, and Covert; the delegates can also send a “joint” communiqué, in collaboration with other delegates.

- **Public Communiqué:**

A Public Communiqué is a type of communiqué in which the content and the writer of that communiqué will be announced to the whole committee.

- **Private Communiqué:**

A Private Communiqué is a type of communiqué in which ONLY the content will be announced, not the writer who wrote the communiqué.

- **Covert Communiqué:**

A Covert Communiqué is a type of communiqué in which neither the content nor the writer will be announced; only the outcome will be announced.

Note* — Delegates to please note that all communiques should specify whether they are Public, Private, or Covert.

- **Joint Communiqué:**

A joint communicate is a type of communicate that two or more delegations write together.

- **Sample Communiqué:**

From: The delegation of Japan

Status: Private communicate

Date: 20 January 2029

The Delegation of Japan expresses concern over the rising threat of cyberattacks targeting civilian infrastructure, financial systems, and public services. Japan believes that the digital domain must be governed by clear international norms that protect states and populations from destabilising cyber operations.

Japan supports international cooperation on cyber resilience, technical assistance for developing states, and confidence-building measures that reduce the risk of miscalculation in cyberspace. The Delegation further emphasises that cyberspace should not become a new arena for unchecked hostility or escalation.

Japan calls on all member states to strengthen digital safeguards, improve information - sharing mechanisms, and promote responsible state behaviour in the digital sphere.

b. **Press Release**

This can be used by a delegate, or a group of delegates, to inform the public about certain facts or to make some announcements about any policy changes. The delegates can also use this as a tool to spread misinformation about



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any ongoing crisis. One of the most important uses of a “Press Release” is to try to influence public opinion and win their support.

- **Sample**

Topic: Climate Migration and Food Security
2029

Date: 20 January,

The Delegation of Brazil expresses deep concern over the growing impact of climate change on food security and displacement across vulnerable regions. The Delegation believes that rising temperatures, droughts, and extreme weather events are no longer distant threats, but immediate challenges requiring coordinated international action.

Brazil calls upon member states to strengthen cooperation on sustainable agriculture, disaster preparedness, and humanitarian assistance for communities most affected by environmental instability. The Delegation further emphasises that climate-related crises must be addressed through solidarity, not isolation, and that long-term security depends on protecting both people and ecosystems.

Signatories: The Delegate of Brazil

c. **Draft Resolution Clause**

A draft resolution clause is a formal policy sentence that becomes part of a resolution. It is used to express what the committee should do, and it is written in proper resolution format with preambulatory or operative language.

- **Sample**

Topic: Reassessing Global Security Architectures Governing Strategically Contested Territories

Sponsors: India, Japan, France

Signatories: Germany, Canada, Australia

The General Assembly,

- Recalling the purposes and principles of the Charter of the United Nations,
 - Deeply concerned by rising tensions in strategically contested territories,
 - Recognising the need for confidence-building measures and peaceful dispute settlement,
1. Encourages Member States to establish direct military communication channels in contested regions to reduce the risk of accidental escalation.
 2. Requests periodic reporting on military activity near strategically sensitive territories to improve transparency.
 3. Calls upon states to resolve disputes through dialogue, mediation, arbitration, and other peaceful means consistent with international law;
 4. Supports cooperation with relevant regional organisations and UN bodies to strengthen de-escalation efforts;
 5. Further recommends civilian-protection mechanisms in conflict-affected territories.

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d. Military or Navy Statements

Military or Navy Statements are official declarations issued by a country to explain, justify, threaten, legalise, or announce military and naval activity. This document is not used to create, but to respond to a military-based question that another delegate has asked or to clarify any military action taken.

When a nation suddenly mobilises troops, deploys submarines, conducts missile drills, or positions fleets near another country, the committee will naturally assume hostile intentions unless the action is justified.

Note* – Every delegate needs to mention the military body that the document is related to (i.e., Air Force, The Navy, etc.)

- Sample:

By: The Republic of Velmora
of Velmora

Date: 17 March 2027

Subject: Maritime Security Deployment in the Helios Strait

From: The Ministry of Defence

Classification: Public

The Republic of Velmora hereby confirms the deployment of the Seventh Maritime Defence Fleet into the Helios Strait following repeated intelligence reports regarding illegal submarine movement and unauthorised reconnaissance activity near Velmoran territorial waters.

The Ministry of National Defence confirms that these deployments are defensive in nature and are conducted under the sovereign right of self-defence recognised under Article 51 of the United Nations Charter.

The Republic urges neighbouring states to avoid unnecessary escalation and cooperate toward regional stability.

Signed,
Admiral Hector Valen
Supreme Maritime Commander
Republic of Velmora

e. Draft Resolution Clause

Maritime Incident Briefs are naval crisis documents used to justify actions in the oceans, ports, strategic waterways, maritime borders, and international shipping lanes.

If a country suddenly inspects ships, blocks trade routes, seizes vessels, attacks ports, or establishes naval checkpoints, the international community may view these actions as aggression unless justified properly.

These documents are especially dangerous because global trade depends heavily on sea routes. Even a temporary blockade can create economic panic throughout the committee.

They are covert until passed; then they become public/private documents. (i.e., the content and the writer/ only the content, not the writer, will be announced to the whole committee)

- Sample

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By: The Kingdom of Arkavia

Classification: Public

Date: 2 June 2027

Subject: Temporary Maritime Restriction Zone in the Veyron Passage

The Kingdom of Arkavia hereby announces the establishment of a temporary Maritime Restriction Zone across sections of the Veyron Passage following credible intelligence regarding illegal transportation of advanced missile systems through commercial cargo routes.

At approximately 0420 hours, Arkavian naval patrol vessels intercepted three unidentified cargo ships operating without valid transponder identification. Following the inspection, military-grade explosive materials and prohibited weapons components were recovered.

The Kingdom emphasises that humanitarian shipments and lawful commercial activity shall remain unaffected. The temporary restriction zone shall remain active until the security threat is neutralised.

Signed,

Rear Admiral Leon Kestrel

Arkavian Naval Authority

f. Strategic Memorandums

Strategic Memorandums are diplomatic and geopolitical planning documents used to create alliances, coalitions, sanctions blocs, economic partnerships, or coordinated military action.

Unlike treaties, these are usually temporary and crisis-oriented.

These documents are extremely influential because they can completely reshape the balance of power within the committee.

They are covert until passed; then they become public documents

A delegate needs to write this document if:

1. Announce a War
2. Invoke Article 5 of NATO
3. Create an Exclusive Economic Zone for a country/Bloc
4. If a country has naval bases in another country
5. If a country wants to use another country's flag, the delegate must have written approval from that country.

If Greenland, along with the USA, attacks NATO, NATO can hold Greenland responsible, and they can take away privileges from Greenland, or even to the extent of removing Greenland from the bloc entirely.

Note* – All signatures on any document must be made in person by the delegate representing that country. No delegate may sign on behalf of another country.

• Sample

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Classification: Public
Eredon
Date: 9 August 2027

By: Velmora, Arkavia, and

The Republics of Velmora, Arkavia, and Eredon jointly agree to establish the Northern Defence Coalition in response to growing instability in the Northern Corridor.

Objectives of the coalition include:

1. Joint naval patrols.
2. Intelligence sharing.
3. Coordinated sanctions enforcement.
4. Mutual defence obligations.
5. Shared cyber-security operations.

Member states authorise limited military access to each other's airspace and naval facilities for operational coordination.

The coalition shall remain active for six months unless extended unanimously.

Signed,
Velmora, Arkavia, Eredon

3. Crisis Documents

A. G.Intelligence Reports

Intelligence Reports are among the most dangerous and influential crisis documents. These documents are used to create crises. These documents can also be used to spread false information, like:

These are not Russian troops but American troops disguised as Russians.

These documents involve:

1. Satellite imagery,
2. Spy reports,
3. Intercepted communication,
4. Military surveillance,
5. Coup intelligence,
6. Nuclear development evidence,
7. Trade disruption analysis,
8. Terrorist tracking.

Intelligence controls fear, perception, and reaction.

A single intelligence leak can:

1. Start wars,
2. Trigger sanctions,
3. Collapse governments,
4. Expose alliances,

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5. Justify invasions,
6. Create panic.

These documents are particularly powerful because other delegates may not immediately verify the information. Thus, intelligence shapes the committee's narrative rapidly.

These documents will always remain covert.

• Sample

By: The Republic of Velmora

Classification: Covert

Date: 11 January 2028

Subject: Suspected Missile Deployment in Eastern Dravosk

Satellite surveillance conducted over Eastern Dravosk between 3 and 9 January confirms abnormal military construction activity near the Karsen mountain range.

Thermal imaging and intercepted radio transmissions indicate probable deployment of medium-range ballistic missile systems.

Additional intelligence suggests:

1. Underground fuel storage construction.
2. Increased encrypted military communication.
3. Foreign military advisors entering restricted zones.
4. Expansion of anti-air defence batteries.

Threat Assessment:

High Risk.

Potential offensive capability against neighbouring states within thirty days.

Recommended Actions:

1. Increase border surveillance.
2. Prepare a sanctions package.
3. Alert regional allies.
4. Consider emergency UNSC consultation.

Signed,

Director Elias Vorn

Directorate of National Intelligence

B. Emergency Security Measures Briefs

Emergency Security Measures Briefs are rapid-response crisis documents submitted during active emergencies. They are also used to show why certain actions have been taken. Or to show how certain actions do not disrupt peace.

These are reactive rather than strategic. Their purpose is immediate stabilisation. They are commonly used during:

1. Terror attacks,
2. Coups,

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3. Invasions,
4. Border collapse,
5. Biological outbreaks,
6. Internal rebellion,
7. Riots,
8. Infrastructure sabotage.

These documents explain emergency defensive actions being taken by the state.

These documents are covert until passed. If passed, they become public.

● Sample

By: The Republic of Velmora
Date: 6 October 2027

Classification: Public

Following coordinated terrorist attacks across the capital region, the Republic of Velmora hereby activates Level-IV National Emergency Security Protocols.

Effective immediately:

1. Military reserves are mobilised.
2. National borders are temporarily sealed.
3. Curfew is imposed from 2100 to 0500 hours.
4. Airports and ports enter military supervision.
5. Counter-terror operations are authorised.

The Republic reassures the international community that the democratic constitutional order remains intact.

Signed,
President Adrian Kessler

C. Inter-Committee Documents

Inter-Committee Documents are official communications between multiple committees. These are extremely powerful because they can legally authorise committee-wide action. They are used to coordinate:

- Military intervention,
- Humanitarian operations,
- Peacekeeping,
- Ceasefires,
- Arms investigations,
- International investigations.

If a delegate wants something approved by the UNSC (United Nations Security Council), they need to write this document to the chair so that they can forward it to the UNSC chair, and if approved by them, then the document will be in effect.

This document is covert until passed. If passed, it becomes public.

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- **Sample**

INTER-COMMITTEE AUTHORISATION REQUEST

The Disarmament and International Security Committee. Hereby requests UNSC authorisation for deployment of multinational peacekeeping forces into the Ravellan Border Zone following continued violations of ceasefire agreements.

The DISEC further requests:

- Arms monitoring assistance.
- Humanitarian corridor security.
- Joint investigation teams.

Submitted jointly by DISEC Secretariat.

Signed:

The Republic of India

D. Crisis Chits

Crisis Chits are short operational instructions sent directly to the EB. These are the most flexible and dangerous documents. They allow delegates to perform covert operations outside normal debate.

These may include:

1. Assassinations,
2. Espionage,
3. Secret invasions,
4. Nuclear development,
5. Cyber warfare,
6. Sabotage,
7. Propaganda,
8. Coup planning.
9. Blockade of international military routes

These documents often entirely reshape the committee.

These documents are covert until passed, and if passed, will become private unless stated explicitly by the delegate

- **Sample**

By: The Republic of Velmora

Classification: Private

Date: 17 October 2028

Objective:

Deploy intelligence operatives into Northern Dravosk to sabotage radar installations near the border region.

Operational Goals:

1. Disable enemy surveillance for 24 hours.

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2. Prevent detection of military aircraft.
3. Avoid civilian casualties.
4. Maintain plausible deniability.

Resources Allocated:

1. 12 special operatives.
2. Cyber warfare support team.
3. Two extraction helicopters.

Expected Timeline:

Operation begins within 48 hours.

E. Treaty Documents

Treaties are permanent or long-term, legally binding agreements between states. Unlike temporary memorandums, treaties establish permanent obligations.

These may involve:

1. Military alliances,
2. Economic unions,
3. Border agreements,
4. Nuclear restrictions,
5. Technology sharing,
6. Resource access.

Treaties are among the most stable and influential diplomatic tools.

There are certain clauses in a treaty that need to be followed by both delegates involved, and certain clauses that need to be followed by a particular delegate involved.

If a delegate wishes to break a treaty, they can, but it is not advised, as there will be consequences.

These are covert until passed, and if passed, they become public.

• Sample

By: The Republic of Velmora, The Kingdom of Arkavia
Classification: Public
Date: 4 October 2028

The Republic of Velmora and the Kingdom of Arkavia hereby agree to establish a permanent mutual defence partnership.

Key Terms:

1. An attack on one state shall be considered an attack on both.

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2. Intelligence sharing shall occur continuously.
3. Joint military exercises shall occur annually.
4. Naval bases may be mutually accessed.

This treaty shall remain in effect indefinitely unless mutually terminated.

Signed by Heads of State.

F. Tribunal Statements

Tribunal Statements are legal documents submitted to bodies such as:

- ICC (For a specific person's verdict)
- ICJ (For country disputes)

These accuse delegates, governments, or military officials of:

- War crimes,
- Genocide,
- Crimes against humanity,
- Terror financing,
- Illegal invasions.

These documents are highly political because they attack legitimacy.

They are covert until passed. If passed, they become public

- Sample

By: The Republic of Eredon

Classification: Public

Date: 1 October 2028

The Republic of Eredon formally requests an investigation into alleged war crimes committed by senior military officials of the State of Dravosk during operations conducted in the Rethan Corridor.

Evidence submitted includes:

1. Civilian casualty reports.
2. Satellite imagery.
3. Testimony from humanitarian agencies.
4. Intercepted military communications.

The Republic requests an immediate international investigation.

Signed,
Minister of Justice
Republic of Eredon

G. Backchannel Communications

Backchannel Communications are secret diplomatic or operational communications between delegates.

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These are not publicly debated unless leaked.

They are used for:

- Secret alliances,
- Arms deals,
- Intelligence sharing,
- Resource exchanges,
- Secret invasions,
- Regime change planning,
- Cyber cooperation.

These documents shape hidden committee politics.

Always remain covert:

The content won't be announced; only the writer and the effect will be announced.

- **Sample**

To: Republic of Arkavia

From: Republic of Velmora

Velmora is prepared to support Arkavian operations in the Northern Corridor in exchange for guaranteed access to rare-earth mineral reserves.

Proposed Terms:

- Joint intelligence sharing.
- Covert logistical support.
- Cyber operations coordination.
- Non-disclosure of cooperation.
- Response requested within 24 hours.

Special Crisis Procedures & Judicial Mechanisms

In response to escalating geopolitical emergencies and shifting international dynamics, the committee may enter a **Special Crisis Period**. During this phase, standard Rules of Procedure (RoP) are suspended in favour of the following structured procedural track:

A. The Crisis Debate Track

When a crisis is introduced by the Executive Board, the committee will follow a strict four-stage sequence to address the immediate threat:



1. **Opening Statements:** Accused nations or directly impacted state actors are granted a designated floor time to present their initial defence, clarify geopolitical positioning, and respond to the crisis directive's core allegations.
2. **Cross-Examination and Question Hour:** The floor is opened to all delegates to examine presented evidence, interrogate leaked or official intelligence documents, and question the representatives of the involved parties.
3. **Witness Testimony:** Accused states or relevant non-state actors may present formal witness testimonies or supplementary depositions to the committee to clarify specific actions or intelligence points.
4. **Provisional Speakers List (PSL):** Upon the conclusion of testimonies, the committee will default back to a normal PSL focused exclusively on resolving the active crisis and drafting rapid-response directives.

B. Floor of Declaration of Political Realignment

Operating within a fluid, multipolar landscape, alliances are subject to change.

- Any sovereign state wishing to officially defect from their current diplomatic bloc or treaty alliance must submit a formal **Declaration of Political Realignment** to the Executive Board.
- Once vetted and approved by the Chair, the floor will be yielded to the delegate to announce their new alignment, fundamentally shifting the committee's voting blocs and strategic landscape.

C. Judicial Hearings (International Court of Justice Simulation)

To resolve legal disputes concerning treaty violations, territorial integrity, and international law, delegates may invoke judicial interventions.

- **Filing a Case:** Any delegate may initiate a formal legal dispute against another state actor by submitting a written brief detailing the violation to the Executive Board.
- **The Verdict:** The Executive Board, acting in its capacity as the **International Court of Justice (ICJ)**, will review the legal arguments and periodically announce binding verdicts directly to the committee floor.

Mandate and Jurisdictional Limitations of ICJ Verdicts

- **Scope of Authority:** Verdicts rendered by the Chair/ICJ are strictly limited to declaring state responsibility, demanding legal accountability, mandates for reparations, or issuing **injunctions to prohibit specific illegal actions**.
- **Enforcement Restrictions:** In accordance with international law, judicial verdicts **cannot** authorise, mandate, or cause military attacks, unilateral invasions, or any kinetic use of force against a sovereign nation. Military



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escalations remain strictly within the purview of sovereign state actions or collective security frameworks, not judicial mandates.

Voting Procedures:-

1. Types of Voting

- **Procedural Votes:** Voting on matters regarding how the committee runs (e.g., voting to open a debate, set the speaking time, or enter a crisis track).
 - Rule: **Every single delegate must vote.** No abstentions are allowed during procedural votes.
- **Substantive Votes:** Voting on the actual content or outcomes produced by the committee (e.g., voting on an ICJ directive, a final crisis resolution, or an amendment).
 - Rule: Delegates may vote **Yes, No, or Abstain** (if their country's diplomatic policy is neutral on the matter).

2. Types of Majorities & When They Are Needed

A. Simple Majority (50% + 1 of Present Delegates)

A simple majority requires more than half of the voting delegates to vote in favour.

- **When it is used:**
 - **Most Procedural Motions:** Opening or adjourning the session, introducing a new crisis update, entering a moderated or unmoderated caucus, or changing the speaker's time.
 - **Introducing Documents:** Formally bringing a working paper, crisis directive, or an amendment to the floor so the committee can read it.
 - **Standard Substantive Voting:** Passing basic crisis directives or resolutions (unless specific committee rules state otherwise).

B. Two-Thirds (2/3) Supermajority

A supermajority requires at least 66.7% of the voting delegates to vote in favour. This threshold is reserved for high-stakes actions that significantly alter the flow of debate or heavily penalise a state.

- **When it is used:**
 - **Closure of Debate:** Moving directly out of the debate track and straight into the final voting block on a directive.
 - **Suspension of Rules:** Completely pausing the standard rules of procedure to adopt a radical new format (like an immediate emergency trial).
 - **Censure or Sanctions:** Passing severe substantive directives that impose strict political or economic penalties on a member state.



- **Overtaking a Decision of the Chair:** If a delegate formally challenges a ruling made by the Executive Board, a 2/3 supermajority of the committee is typically required to override the Chair's decision.

C. Consensus (Unanimity / No Objections)

Consensus is achieved when no member state actively objects to a motion. It does not mean everyone enthusiastically agrees, but rather that no one finds the action unacceptable enough to block it.

- **When it is used:**
 - Adopting the agenda at the very beginning of the conference.
 - Passing non-controversial, administrative decisions (e.g., extending a session by 5 minutes, or minor clerical corrections to documents).
 - *How it works:* The Chair will ask, "*Are there any objections to this motion?*" If no delegate raises their placard, the motion passes automatically without a formal counted vote.

3. The Special Rule for Realignment Voting

In committees featuring a **Floor of Declaration of Political Realignment** (as outlined in the crisis procedures):

- An alliance shift or defection usually requires **Executive Board approval first** rather than a committee vote.
- However, if a bloc wishes to *expel* an accused country from an alliance against their will, committees often require a **2/3 supermajority vote of that specific bloc's members** to legally sever the treaty ties.

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Bibliography and References

Delegates are strongly encouraged to consult primary sources, including their own country's foreign ministry statements, before relying solely on secondary analysis. All positions in this guide represent research synthesis for academic debate purposes only. Events from June 2026 onwards are projected committee scenario material.

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- International Maritime Organisation: imo.org (maritime governance frameworks, Gulf corridor documents)
- UN Office for the Coordination of Humanitarian Affairs (UNOCHA): unocha.org (Venezuela humanitarian situation)
- International Court of Justice: icj-cij.org (South China Sea, Hormuz, Arctic sovereignty cases)
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